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THE PERSONAL FACTOR
IN THE
EDUCATIONAL PROCESS

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ABOUT

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INTRODUCTION

The history of the progress of educational thought over the last two centuries ([1]) above all, shows us how psychologists and philosophers have continually prevented practitioners from reaching an impasse. The stages of this progress reveal to us the growing knowledge that the nature of the child assumes greater and greater importance. To dare to touch and influence the spontaneous development of the child's nature, it is now recognized as necessary that educators must not be guided by any preconceived ideas, religious, economic, commercial or other theories about collective life, but by the child's own tendencies, that these tendencies must be discovered, and their laws applied in educational practice. Aspects of the child's life, hitherto considered outside the domain of the educator, are gradually annexed to him and we begin to understand that no aspect of the child's life, at school or at home, as a future member of a community or as an individual, can be neglected in a scientific discussion of educational problems. It is to a comparatively subjective and synthetic aspect of the child's life looked at from a "private" or individual point of view, that we will limit ourselves in this study. Our aim is further limited by our specific object of being able to deal, in the last part of this study, with the bi-polar nature and dynamic characteristics of educational relationships.

Each child, as soon as he is judged "educable", is called upon to play a double role: on the one hand to be among many children, on the other to be his mother's darling. That these two roles are incompatible is sufficiently demonstrated by the tendencies of children in all countries and of all ages to play truant. It can be said that the mother's interest in the child goes to the individual and personal aspects while the child's future role only takes into account the impersonal aspects. The study of the child can be considered from one or other of these points of view, either in the interest of the mother who in her relationship with the child turns to a past event, or in the interest of the future community to which the child will belong. At no stage of life do these two aspects disappear from the educational process, but each of them grows or transforms at the expense of the other.

The study of educational problems has most often been concerned with the child's future rather than with the child's past or "private" events.

There is confusion between the a priori and a posteriori succession of educational thought ([2]): this is what has given us all the literature which, in the form of advice given to educators by thinkers, men of science and philosophers, represents the various permutations and combinations by which fundamental principles can be mixed with ordinary experience. As a result, it is not possible to obtain an acceptable definition of the purest educational goal.

Let us admit that we have to set an ideal in education, let us also admit that “educande” ([3]) is a neutral force in the educational process. We still have three forces acting on “educande”:

1. The interests of the mother or the private and personal interests of the child.
2. The interests of the community or the state which tend to make one a citizen.
3. The desires of the educator himself controlled by the healthiest possible theory of education.

If we look further, we will see clearly that the principles of each of these forces are so manifold that it becomes almost impossible to conceive of anything worthy of the name of an educational process in what passes for it in ordinary life.

An educational process must be designed in terms of a bi-polar phenomenon between educator and student, whether there is a personal educator, or several, or whether it is nature itself that is considered as an educational force. This means that the relationships between educators and student must be as direct as possible.

Once the bi-polar conditions are assured, it is necessary, if we want to obtain good results, that this state, this state of bi-polarity is kept as intact as possible throughout the process. We must remove all factors that could alter the purity of these relationships and plan for changes in the educator and in the “educande”. When all these precautions are taken and there is promise of achieving good results, it is good to intensify as much as possible relationships. As the product of a good education is not only an individual without blemish in public life, but an individual whose private life is without blemish, it is of utmost necessity to ensure that the educational conditions are as complete as possible, that they are not aimed only at surface education. Only an intensification of the relationships between educator and student will make it possible to reach the subjective seat of conduct, a factor capable of entering into continuous relationships with something external. Obtaining these bi-polar conditions required for an effective educational process through the knowledge of what we will designate under the term “person”, of which we will make a distinct concept in education, and obtaining them through the establishment of personal relationships, such will be the subject of this thesis.

We have always insisted on the role that belongs in educational matters to the personality of the teacher, to the “atmosphere” of a class, etc.: the writers, especially towards the end of their discussion, have invariably devoted paragraphs to this subject. However, the veil of mystery surrounding this personality problem has not been sufficiently removed. Some recent indications even show that we tend to avoid facing it. (Dr. W.H. Kilpatrick, for example, in his work "Foundations of Method" (p. 58), disapproves of the use of terms like personality in discussing educational problems.)

Is the introduction of such a concept opposed to rigorous scientific discipline? This question demands an answer here. It is with the help of the terms of physical sciences, which deal with

aspects very little different from a state of natural equilibrium, that we can best carry out exact scientific reasoning, in the most orthodox sense, physics dealing with natural events and phenomena of a simple nature and of easy to measure duration. When the process of objective research took a step forward and phenomena such as "molecular attraction", inertia and other properties of matter needed to be explained, the orthodox rigidity relaxed. The concept of positive and negative electrical charges is necessary although electricity is one and the same force. Thanks to the analytical method of scientific research, we have now arrived at a point which allows us to speak of matter itself as non-material. If we follow the course of exact thought in the synthetic direction of its development we will see that the study of nature which was formerly considered a subject of literature has detached itself from it and now constitutes the domain of science proper. However, the natural sciences had to give up geometric accuracy and the concept of an organism having its own particularities and life cycle became familiar to us. In the concepts of modern astronomy and in the theory of relativity the old rigidity of scientific categories has completely collapsed. Scientific thought embraces concepts such as that of "nothingness" reached by objective analysis and that of "time-space" resulting from synthesis, a synthesis that can be said to be almost metaphysical. Each scientific specialty draws its own tangent from a suitable point in this field of thought, for the use of its own exact thought; this is how an electrician measures with his unit specific to the place of measurement in terms of electrons: the prospecting geologist works by means of megascopic characters, while the laboratory geologist uses a different method. Each branch therefore has the freedom to choose its own starting point and direction of its research. There is nothing a priori that allows us to determine the straight line of analytical or synthetic research, of objective or subjective interpretation, of the extent or intensity of the field of study that a thinker must follow except the law which dominates the thing studied. In judging the scientific validity of the discussion that follows, the most important fact is to see whether or not the concepts will be useful to the educational practitioner.

As for the deductions that we propose to draw in the pages that follow, let us remember that there are certain particular features of the material of our subject which will reduce the clarity of our deductions compared to those of the pure sciences: first of all, the element of time; in the educational process, this must be measured on the scale of a generation at least. The results of a good education cannot be demonstrated in a laboratory. Astronomical analogies, in this matter, are closer to educational science than physics analogies. The second factor which will contribute to making our deductions less defined comes from the fact that the educational laws currently observed apply to the normal conditions of human life following the natural laws of evolution [\[4\]](#) ; so that if, for example, an educator obtains, by special methods, certain results in a comparatively short time, this will throw little light on the educational process, while a result obtained under more natural conditions of life, with the probability of being repeated in the future, will be an experience of more value. The more a process deserves the name "educational", the more difficult it becomes to demonstrate it experimentally. It is under the most natural and normal conditions that an educational process can best be observed. The more

strikingly the aspects of a process can be demonstrated, the less interesting they are for education in the truest sense of the word. There is therefore ample room for skepticism when it comes to educational results at such levels that even the educability of “educande” is a point of controversy. Modern “behaviourist” methods do not seem to improve the situation, as shown by a challenge launched by Mr. Madison Bently of Cornell University: “you may be tempted to assert,” he says, “that a child is so neutral in his reactions that the educator, creator of the conditions, can do with him what he wants. But as long as this assertion has not been confirmed by at least a dozen children, raised according to an educational plan published at the birth of these neutral individuals, I will remain skeptical about the alleged powers of the behaviorist creator. Such difficulties should not, however, deprive educational theories based on real experiences of their scientific value.

All sciences, it is said, begin with measurements. However, there are measures of all kinds. Therefore, you must decide on the unit of measurement before measuring. Scientific measurements in education cannot be taken from a platinum bar placed somewhere. An acceptable concept of the human person alone can, in this case, serve as a measuring stick.

In the first part of our study, we will try to establish as clearly as possible the limits and characteristics of the notion of *person* as the first concept of educators and in the second part we will try to show the relationship between this concept and the educational process. We will also consider the principles which govern personal relationships as well as those which regulate the relationships between teacher and students and which are at the basis of this bi-polar education process.

Incidentally, we will take the opportunity to relate to our subject some of the important concepts of the Hindu tradition, which have been tacitly accepted in India for centuries and which are still accepted today with a view to creating a link, however weak, between the educational thought of India and that of Europe.

Each object only exists thanks to a compromise between the analytical and synthetic tendencies of our intelligence. A piece of clothing, for example, is seen and taken for what it is by focusing on it the analytical faculties which only see a simple thread and the synthetic tendencies which only make us aware of a piece of fabric. The personal factor that we are going to deal with must be first and foremost understood as an entity resulting from a similar compromise. It is the everyday necessity of meeting the special aspects of the human being that compels us to elucidate the popular concept of “person” in order to assist educational theory and practice.

Starting from *homo sapiens* as the most generalized concept that can relate to man, it is possible to find a whole series of other terms tending to an increasingly particularized meaning. Ethnology, anthropology, and other similar sciences suggest a step forward toward a scientific conception of the individual. But these concepts are not particularly useful for education which relates mainly to intelligence while these sciences are based on bodily differences between

individuals. The quality of individuality is attributed to man when we refer to a distinction of conduct or mentality. When we consider more deeply subjective characteristics that further qualify individuality, we reach the concept of *personality* ([5]). If this quality is related to others that persist beyond death, we can say that we see the personality from the point of view of metapsychic research. This is one of the extreme points of the meaning of the term “person”. When we emphasize the metapsychic aspect but confine ourselves to the limits of present life and believe that nervous illnesses and abnormalities will reveal to us the nature of hidden qualities, we arrive at the concept “persona” which psychoanalysts use. Poetry, mysticism and pseudo-sciences use the word personality to name the various combinations of objective and subjective elements, combinations too vague and too numerous to be classified. The other branches with more empirical tendencies trace the origin of the personality to the endocrine glands; It can be said of all that they lean too much either towards the mind or towards the body and are therefore inadequate for educational needs. The educational process is sometimes defined as the process of harmonious development of mind and body, in other words mind-body. The concept of the person in education therefore brings together the mind and the body in a combination compatible with this harmonious development. As we have already noted, this concept must designate this sort of combination of mind and body, elements which only come into activity under normal conditions, thus bringing their meaning very close to that of common sense. We therefore see that the person we are discussing forms the basis of ordinary relationships between individuals.

And even when we limit ourselves to the ordinary relations of life, there is room for fluctuations in the exact meaning of the word "person" which can also be seen as having occurred between a tendency to generalize and a tendency to particularize. Two intimate people do not see each other as if they were generalized entities but on the contrary, the more intimate they are, the more their relationships tend to be particularized towards defined subconcepts indicating relationships such as paternal, maternal, fraternal, filial relationships, etc....An individual who is part of a group does not have the same personal meaning; an infantryman, a prisoner, any number in the prison, tend to have generalized relations which recognize only a special aspect, average of the common of what forms the individual. Each particular case of personal relationships has behind it its own principles which govern the generalization and particularization resulting from various generic and subgeneric concepts of the person.

In the world of educational relations, the concept of the person is distinct. Educational relationships can also be considered from the point of view of generalization and particularization. The relationships between teacher and students in a day school only consider a partial aspect of the person. In schools where individual attention is given to students, relationships are based more on the subjective element of what makes them individual. As an example of such relationships as exist in modern educational life, we can take the extreme case of an American school of more than a thousand pupils of both sexes, aged from six to twenty. It is only a negligible fraction of the totality of the student that the teacher can influence in his

collective teaching: therefore the relationships tend to become impersonal. Let us now take the case of a child of the teacher, a student at the same school. It is difficult for this child, in class, to establish normal relations with his teacher, his father; while at home he will take an absolutely different interest in the child, trying to use his personal influence to help him in every way. These latter relationships tend to be more personal. So, for example, the personal relationships that come into play in a study group or according to the Dalton plan are distinct from others; an instructor sergeant does not wish to enter into intimate relationships with those he instructs: a purely “corporeal” relationship is sufficient in this case. On the other hand, for the professor who strives to explain the differences between the conceptions of art according to Aristotle and according to Plato, a deep sympathy must be established between him and the students. This is why we can conceive of many types of educational relationships, some being more suitable than others depending on the specific educational goal.

The very nature of the individual has the potential to adjust to the nature and intensity of personal relationships. We can say that there is in each individual a complex mass of dynamic, genetic, functional, phylogenetic principles, etc. which make personal relationships of a certain intensity and variety more desirable and suitable than others. This organic basis of personal relationships can be called “the personal factor in education”.

In the pages that follow, our task will consist of reconstructing a diagram of this personal factor in education, a diagram which can serve as a basis for the discussion of educational experiences which will form the last part of our study. We do not aim to present a new point of view or to fundamentally rework individual psychology; what we propose to accomplish is to make a selection and an organic arrangement among the facts already more or less accepted by physiologists, “behaviorists” and psychologists, thus arriving at a schematic theory of the personal factor in education. In order to avoid discussions that would stray too far from our central theme, we will rely freely on quotes from recognized authors, while leaving aside the details. Regarding this diagram, it is still important to remember that it should not be taken in an overly realistic sense, its object being above all to facilitate the overview of psychological facts which can serve as a basis for subsequent discussions rather than to substantiate the personality or to give to such an image the false appearance of a reality that it does not possess.

FIRST PART

CHAPTER ONE

PRELIMINARY SKETCH

THE “PERSONAL FACTOR”

There are three attributes of the personal factor that we must arrive at by a priori reasoning:

1. that he is alive,
2. that it has an objective attribute: the body,
3. that he is capable of characteristic behavior in relation to the outside world.

Consciousness can be said to be the principle that unites these three attributes into a central experience.

We will briefly consider these three attributes one after the other. The nature of life has been the subject of incessant research by humanity since time immemorial. Poets allude to it and one of the accepted definitions of poetry is that it is a “critique of life” (Matthew Arnold). Philosophy tries to explain it using logic. Religion is based on an interpretation that is more emotional than intellectual. Science wants to study phenomena from an objective point of view. Each approach to explaining the nature of life has its own limitations. But education is not limited by any of these points of view; it approaches the problem of life in the most comprehensive sense. The educator's conception of life must therefore be done in a very free manner, using data from these various points of view without stopping at any one. It is a philosophy which combines all the branches of exact thought on which education must build the edifice of its theory. There is a new [\[6\]](#) tendency among modern philosophers to consider philosophical abstraction side by side with biological analogy, thereby attempting to synthesize the methods and conclusions of logic and biology. Philosophers of this type are therefore the surest guides for arriving at a conception of life that can be useful for our study which does not claim to itself enter into a detailed discussion of this problem. It is not a purely symbolic conception that could help us in

our study concerning the personal factor. The nature of our subject requires a conception of life which is neither too abstract or symbolic nor too concrete since in education we are dealing, as we have said, with students who are not only living beings in the biological sense but personal entities. The aim of our effort is to reconstruct a conception which, while being based on biological facts, responds to our need to conceive more clearly what individuality, character, personality are. We have said that Mr. Bergson's philosophical conception is very close to satisfying this need. This is why, to avoid a metaphysical discussion which would take us too far from our subject, we will extract the following paragraph from *Creative Evolution* (p. 109):

After stating that growth and division are the most basic expression of life observed in protoplasm, he continues: "the true and deep causes of division were those which life carried within itself. Because life is a trend, and the essence of a trend is to develop in the form of a sheaf creating, by the sole fact of its growth, divergent divisions between which its momentum will be shared. This is what we observe about ourselves in the evolution of that special tendency we call our character. Each of us, taking a retrospective look at our history, will see that our child's personality, although indivisible, brought together people who could remain fused together because they were in their nascent state: this indecision full of promise is even one of the greatest charms of childhood. But the intertwining personalities become incompatible as we grow up, and, as each of us only lives one life, we are forced to make a choice. In reality, we are constantly choosing, and we are also constantly giving up many things. The road we travel through time is littered with everything we began to be, and everything we could have become. But nature, which has an incalculable number of lives at its disposal, is not forced to make such sacrifices. It retains the various trends that branched off as it grew. With them, it creates divergent series of species which will evolve separately."

Let's not stop to discuss the scientific bases of this image: that would take us too far from our subject. We will content ourselves with admitting the general truths, gleaned the following points and emphasizing them in relation to our study.

Life is a trend; it is expressed through growth and division. The later phases of life are characterized by divergent tendencies while the earlier phases are characterized by convergent tendencies. Time is the basis on which life traces its course. The essential features can be represented graphically in the figure below.

B

Here

Pass

Future

A

THE

O would represent the organism at any given time.

A and B would indicate the two states of an organism, in the past and the future respectively.

The arrows would represent the divergent directions that an organism has at its disposal.

As a natural corollary to what we have said, it follows that the direction chosen is a result of many tendencies acting on the organism. The dotted arrows would therefore indicate the virtual tendencies contained in the organism in the form of tendencies resulting from the past.

This conception of life has its own limitations: it cannot reach particular cases or concrete aspects of the expression of the person's life. The concrete basis of individual life is the body which thus brings us to the second attribute of the personal factor.

To correctly appreciate the place occupied by physical life or functioning in relation to the personal factor, we must discuss here the relationships between physiological life and psychological life. M.E.H. Starling, of the University of London, in his treatise "Principles of Physiology" (p.486 3rd edition), writes on this subject:

"How the exciting physiological processes in the nerve fibers with their concomitant chemical and electrical phenomena are capable, on their arrival in the brain, of exciting a conscious sensation, we cannot decide or even discuss because we are dealing with processes of two different orders. We would never come near the solution of this problem even if we were able to trace all the events which take place in the body as the result of some stimulus given to the surface.... No sensation is the immediate and unique product of a stimulus given to the peripheral end of the nerve fiber, but the simplest sensation includes a judgment, that is to say, of complex neural activities resulting from the innumerable past and present currents caused by peripheral events and which flow into the central nervous system.... As we have already seen, the primary function of the nervous system is reaction. The neural life of the animal is made up of a series of reactions, some simple, others complex and becoming more and more complicated as we go up the evolutionary animal scale. A baby's first reactions are those by which he obtains food and satisfies a need; even the very first upon awakening of one's consciousness will not be a sensation of softness or color but of something capable of satisfying one's needs.... An

elementary unit, in psychic life as in neuronal life, must be a complete reaction. It is from the reaction and not from the sensation that a constructive psychology must arise.

Reserving the nature of these reactions for more detailed consideration, we will note here only some of the preliminary facts taken from the extract above:

1° that the external stimulus and the sensation belong to two different orders;

2° that the simplest sensation includes complex neural activities which are the results of innumerable past and present currents caused by peripheral elements and poured into the central nervous system;

3° that a complete reaction ([\[7\]](#)), resulting from a judgment and not just from a stimulus, is the basis of the expression of life, that this reaction, which invariably satisfies a biological need, touches the future at the same time as it is determined in its character by the past habits of the system.

We can therefore summarize by saying in more general terms that the conversion of a past habit, by a present judgment, in order to provide for a future biological need, is the central function of neural life. We thus see that the examination of the concrete aspects of physical life leads us towards the same essential traits which are at the basis of the “personal factor”.

From physiological function to conduct or behavior, there is a natural transition. What is the relationship between behavior and the individual? This is the question that now arises. In this regard, the new “behavioristic” theories of Dr. J.B Watson take on special significance. Behaviorists do not believe that there is any need to assume the existence of thought as opposed to speech or behavior. This conviction is only the natural result of another important behaviorist attitude: that the most certain facts are those which are published and can be confirmed by the testimony of several observers ([\[8\]](#)).

A careful examination of this point of view would reveal to us that the “behaviorist” diminishes the importance of the effects of past reactions which persist in current behavior and affect it in the form of what Bertrand Russell calls “mnestic effects” which are the basis of memory (Outline of Philosophy, p.306). Subtle emotions and feelings would have to be excluded if we were to limit ourselves strictly to the “behaviourist” point of view. Education, as the word itself indicates, has to do primarily with memory and natural abilities ([\[9\]](#)). The personal factor in education therefore relates more to the “memory effects” of the past than to present conditions. Even knowledge of the law of “learned reactions” or even the explanation given in terms of “conditional reflexes” can only superficially penetrate the characteristics of the “personal factor”. The “behaviourists” are undoubtedly right to want to give a stricter scientific basis to educational research. While accepting the disciplinary value of psychological thought, we must admit that the educational practitioner needs a complete conception of the individual for his daily work.

When M.J.B. Watson goes so far as to say that "behaviorists" believe "that there is not something innate to develop" (Cf.p.41, Psychological Care of Infant and Child Norton, New-York, 1928) the educator who seeks a practical basis for his conception of the individual, is obliged to leave him alone because such a position implies that we look at the child as a sort of "stimulus-response" mechanism which, as we have seen above, ipso facto, leaves aside the whole question of conscience without which any conception of the individual remains incomplete and inadequate for educational needs.

Mr. Watson himself, in his book "psychology from the perspective of a behaviorist", gives us quite decisive indications on the limitations and unique quality of his point of view. Its very starting point is a limitation of the field of the psychological horizon. He writes in the preface: "Until psychology discards everything which cannot be stated in the universal terms of science, she does not deserve a place in the sun". The limitations of the "behaviourist" point of view appear more clearly to us as we examine more closely how the "behaviourist" views phenomena like dreams, emotions. Doesn't Mr. Watson write about dreams "that they are part of the totality of a person's reactions...; that they are "word reactions" but that they do not have isolated reactions of the type which produce a simple muscular contraction...etc...(p.209, Psychology from the viewpoint of a Behaviorist) Such confessions and indications are enough to demonstrate to an unprejudiced person that the "behaviourists" are mainly seeking a new orientation of psychological thought to place it on a firmer scientific basis rather than a revision of our psychological ideas. without saying that the pedagogue, freed from the concerns of pure psychology, must have the freedom to formulate his methods and principles without having to worry about the special point of view taken by any school of psychology. Thus from "behaviourist" thinking which denies subjective thought, we are obliged to return to a simpler position according to which we relate behavior not only to the conditions of an external world, but also to subjective processes of a mental order.

It is to these mental processes that we have already alluded when speaking of the physiological aspect of the personal factor and we have noted that the satisfaction of a need is the key to neural life. The same rule, in a more extended sense, can be used to explain the behavior of living beings, including man. The need and its satisfaction will give us the basis on which we can analyze behavior in its component parts. Each behavior contains subjective phases and objective phases and each unit of activity has its own character based on a predominance of subjectivity or objectivity. If we follow the succession of activities in the chain of natural behavior, we discover that each activity arises subjectively from innate dispositions acquired in the past.

Thus beginning in the innate dispositions of the past in its first phase, it moves towards an object or towards the idea of an object in space belonging to sensation or perception. When this object is not within the reach of the senses, the animal substitutes, through memory, the desired object in space: when the activity brings the animal within the reach of the object, the substitution ceases to be necessary. A sensory image coincides with the substituted image: at this moment the

first half of the chain of activities ends. It is then that the second begins, the phase of satisfaction through the cessation of “appetite” for objective realities. Animals continue to be conscious of the object in a very different way; the image no longer represents the future but the past event in relation to the object ([10]). What was once an idea of an external object becomes a feeling of an object. This feeling, which is still linked to “virtual space” ([11]) becomes more and more confused leading to subtle instinctive and emotional states. And, when the animal rests, it can be said to be absorbed again into subjective consciousness.

All natural behaviors can be considered to have the following characteristics:

1° that they have a subjective origin; that the first phase relates to the future and tends to become objective;

2° that they have a phase relating to the immediate where the objective and the subjective alternate in an imperceptible succession, being in physical or mental contact with current objects which satisfy a need;

3° that they have a phase relating to the past which leads again to instinctive or emotional subjective states thus completing a cycle of activities ([12]).

As we have already said, we feel life within ourselves in consciousness. The nature of consciousness with the “personal factor”: this is what we will briefly discuss now.

Reasonable doubts arose as to the existence of consciousness itself. William James was one of the first to deny its existence and to specify that it was a function and not an entity. Bertrand Russell agrees with him when he says “that no mental occurrence, in its own intrinsic nature, has that sort of relational character which was involved in the opposition of object and subject or of the knower and the known” (Outl. Of phi., p.225).

When we concede, according to these philosophers, that consciousness does not exist according to strict logic, even then the word consciousness still means something that every person can experience. Although empirical logic may be a non-entity from the point of view of an idealist or a rationalist, it can be considered the only thing that exists. Between these two extremes, it is necessary to reach a compromise on which we can base practical active ingredients. A definition of consciousness combining in itself the points of view of rationalism and empiricism is still found in Bergson. He writes: “we would define the consciousness of the living being, an arithmetic difference between virtual activity and real activity. It measures the gap between representation and action”, creative evolution p.157).

Whether or not this definition is correct in all its aspects, it nevertheless shows us the essential nature of consciousness and we can extract the following points from it:

1° Consciousness depends on the activity of the living being;

2° This activity has subjective and objective aspects: subjective which relates to the past, objective which relates to the present or the future.

A graphical representation of the findings of this chapter will help us condense the essential facts that we have tried to explain separately.

In the figure above, X'OX would represent subjective consciousness, Y'OY the subjective axes belonging to the stimulants and their responses in the present. These elements of consciousness which relate to the past from O to X' would indicate "the background of consciousness" and the elements from O to X would indicate consciousness in relation to volition. O would represent any given moment of the center of consciousness. A distance from a point on the Y axis would represent the degree of objectivity of an event in personal consciousness: the curve O A O B O would show us a complete chain of natural behavior.

(see below for a detailed rationale for this plan).

CHAPTER II

PERSONAL TENDENCIES

STUDIED IN THE PHYSICAL AREA

In the previous chapter we attempted only to give a preliminary sketch of the "personal factor" in order to form a nucleus for more detailed elaboration and examination. From the outset we can make two divisions: firstly the personal factor revealed by the person's behavior in his relations with objects outside the confines of the body, and secondly its aspect revealed within the confines of the body itself. In this chapter, we will confine ourselves to the second of these subdivisions and see if particularities of the functioning or tendencies towards the activity of the different organs, their relations between them and any other fact can help us in any way to perceive the fundamental principle at the base of the concept of the person.

Even in proposing this line of investigation, we can be accused of easily establishing a psycho-physical relationship. But this accusation cannot be reasonably sustained if we recall that by "personal factor" we mean neither the body nor the mind. We refer only to tendencies, behavior or functioning, tendencies which are neither mental nor material. It is not possible here to enter into a detailed discussion of the philosophy underlying such a position. We will content ourselves with a quote from Bertrand Russell to show that the position we have taken is

consistent with the notions of modern philosophy. He concludes his recent philosophical work in these terms: “the view I have put forward is that both mind and matter are structures composed of something more primitive which is neither mental nor material. This philosophy is called Neutral Monism. This point of view being accepted, it is no longer necessary to assume a psycho-physical interaction or parallelism. It becomes useless to take the side of either physical monism or psychic monism.

If we examine any unicellular or multicellular organism, we see that while those of the peripheral parts express adjustments to the environment of a temporary character, those of the more centrally located organs express changes affecting more intimately the total life cycle of the organism in question. In the amoeba, for example, the protoplasm can change or even be affected without the animal's life being really affected. Any peripheral impulse must reach the central nervous system in multicellular animals and the blood reach the heart, thus revealing the principle of centralization ([13]). The skin receives impulses from the outside world, but it is only an impulse coming from the center to the periphery that can allow the body to adapt. These adaptations, which are more permanent and belong to the innate rather than the acquired part of the organism, take place as “inner organizations”. In other words, the adaptation aspect of an organism is located at the periphery while the organization aspect tends to remain central ([14]).

Is centralization physical or psychological? This is the question that arises again. The answer will be the same as we gave previously. That there is a sort of physical fusion is sufficiently indicated by the meeting of nervous impulses in the center of gray matter ([15]). Psychic centralization belongs to a completely different order. Just as the shape of the magnet is not directly related to the magnetic effects and the light of the electric lamp is not directly related to the arrangements of the wires, so it is possible to conceive of physical centralization as belonging to an order distinct from psychic centralization. Nevertheless, we can say that at the basis of the physical and psychic “fusion” is the same fundamental principle of centralization.

The functioning is characterized by another trait which takes on, as we have already mentioned, greater importance in relation to this study and this is what we will call the phenomenon of polarization. Although this polarization is quite well recognized in the psychological field, especially theoretical, under the name “ambivalence” ([16]) which we will talk about shortly, this conception is far from being included in the practical discussion of physiological phenomena. It is difficult, in this study which is mainly of an educational nature, to enter into a detailed discussion of this question of the polarization of the tendencies revealed in physiological functioning ([17]). We will therefore be content to refer only to one or two facts which seem to support this idea.

This is a fairly well recognized fact and writers have often used the concept of rhythm in organic functioning. But the study of this rhythm is still in an initial stage. However, it is a conception of this rhythmic alternation which will help us to see the phenomenon of polarization in physical

functioning. For example, if one halve of the rhythmic cycle of operation opposes to the other half, we will be able to see that at the basis of this opposition are tendencies which are also opposed. This observation will form the concrete basis which will reveal to us the principle of polarization. But it is not only sufficient to observe this opposition in the functioning of an organ or a system, we must also discover a new acceptable mode of grouping systems, but which will help us in our scientific study of polarization. Only then will a generalization be justified. But not going that far, we will only try to study one of the functionings, that of the heart, which for the moment, will represent for us, in a general way, the model of all functionings. (Several writers have already established this comparison. For example, Dr L Berman, in his book "The Gland Regulating Personality", speaks of the rhythm which characterizes the functioning of the chains of the sexual glands and uses the term "a sex-diastole of the whole organism" after a phase of activity, thus using the metaphor of the functioning of the heart.

The cyclical nature and rhythmic alternation are clearly marked in the functioning of the heart. One half of this cycle is characterized by active contraction while the other is characterized by passive expansion. In many aspects, the active phase (systole) is opposed to the passive phase (diastole). Each of these phases occupies half of the total duration of the cycle. In the rest period, the first phase is related to repair, recovery of losses; the second is related to positive preparation for future action. There is thus a qualitative change and a quantitative change which go hand in hand. We can roughly express the opposable nature of the two halves of the cycle as well as the relationships between the different phases by means of a graph like in the diagram below by adopting the same plan as that which we adopted in the previous chapter.

It is perhaps necessary to conclude our short discussion of the polarization of functioning tendencies to add a few words of explanation on the use of the term "polarization". First of all, this term implies that there are, belonging to the same order of tendencies, two aspects which are distinct. This reciprocal difference belonging to two phases of the same activity as we have seen in the functioning of the heart. This difference is often (although not always) clearly opposable. But even this opposition is not absolute and we can describe it as two-phase, compensatory or reciprocal. This relationship can be made clearer by the analogy of the magnet whose positive pole opposes the negative pole not in an absolute sense but in a reciprocal or relative sense.

In the chapters that follow, we will have the opportunity to refer to this concept of polarization. This idea is based on the assumption that the "personal factor" must be conceived in terms of vital activities or tendencies and that these tendencies manifested in any area of the person are capable, in their most natural expression, of being linked to each other by chains or cycles comprising distinct phases. Our task will therefore consist of seeing to what extent the relationships between the different phases will reveal to us the principle of polarization. However, it is important to remember, in connection with this presentation, that the relationship or reciprocity revealed between two phases of personal activity in a certain zone would belong to a completely different order than the reciprocity in another zone. So although the same principle

must be sought in the cases of each of the different zones, we are far from trying to establish a direct relationship between the different modes of manifestation of this phenomenon.

CHAPTER III

PERSONAL TENDENCIES

STUDIED IN RELATION TO BEHAVIOR

Starting from the consideration of the relationships and functional tendencies contained within the limits of the body, we will now proceed to the study of the behavioral tendencies which we have already considered in our preliminary study of the "personal factor"; and as we have also considered the foundations of polarization in the body area, we are in a better position to remove a certain obscurity which covered our first remarks and to try to make a clearer and more complete outline.

Is it possible to divide the chain of behavior into two opposing parts? This is what requires closer examination. The first point to remember is that all activity is directed towards a useful and desired object. When the object is obtained, the behavior in relation to this object reaches a state of tranquility which is only apparent. The dissatisfaction which was the main governing force in the first phase gives way to the gradual establishment of satisfaction. Bergson alludes to these two phases when he says (p.321 of creative evolution): "It is incontestable that all human action has its starting point in a sense of satisfaction and, by the same token, in a feeling of absence. We would not act if we did not set ourselves a goal, and we only seek something because we feel deprived of it. Our action thus proceeds from "nothing" to "something". So if we observe cows grazing in a field, we will see that the animal, after grazing for a while (which involves sensory motor activities) invariably lies down in the middle of the herd. The object which was until now

the motive for one's behavior no longer exists for the senses but the emotional aspect of its existence continues to exert its influence on behavior. The animal begins to ruminate. This second phase of activity suffers from any diversion brought about by the senses. Although it is true that the object is no longer present as a reality of the senses, we can say that it is present in a negative sense, that is to say as a purely subjective representation. It is not necessary that this negation be a non-reality just as it is not necessary that it be less objective in comparison with the reality of the senses. On this point again we can return to Bergson who writes: "Once the negation has been formulated, it presents an aspect symmetrical to that of the affirmation. It then seems to us that, if the latter affirmed an objective reality, the former must affirm a non-reality that is equally objective and, so to speak, equally real" (p.319, *Evol.cr*). Thus, logically and philosophically, it makes sense to think that, even after the disappearance of the desired external object, the activity continues in the opposite direction relating only, one can say, to the affective aspect of the object in question. The passive state affects inner areas and can cause emotions of satisfaction and bring indefinite memories. This state may be followed by deeper rest or sleep in which circulation is reduced in the brain. The well-known James-Lange theory is in favor of the idea that the viscera are the seat of emotions. Reserving later (ch. VI) to examine the truth of this theory, it will be enough for us, for the moment, to note that the effects of polarization can be discerned even in the chains of behavior and that there are present, in the relations of behavior with an external object, two symmetrical opposable phases which are both equally objective as well as real.

These two elements of behavior in relation to an external object, combining in different ways, will produce in different species of animals, different kinds of chains of natural behavior. We will examine some of these chains to help us imagine how animal individuality can be expressed through these varied behaviors; we will also do it to show that whatever the type of behavior, simple as in ruminants, more objective and with sudden transformations as in carnivores or more complicated and with subtle variations as in animals higher up in the evolutionary scale, we can always distinguish the two main phases: one directed towards the desired object, the other relating to the instinctive or emotional stages. It is therefore important to grasp this principle of alternation in order to understand the different phases of a schoolchild's life and the true nature of the compensatory and complementary activities which we will discuss in a later chapter. In the previously mentioned case of the cow grazing in a field, we noticed that the act of grazing is a slow and gradual act, without a critical situation. In intelligent and aggressive animals, such as carnivores which hunt, lie in wait and kill their prey, we can clearly distinguish critical moments in the chain of their behavior. The psychic quality of these chains, compared to that of ruminants, shows a kind of different variation. The same principles are found in the behavior of domestic animals; in that of the dog for example it is very easy to observe variations in quality. On the carpet, near the fireplace, a dog rests lying on its paws. Any foreign sound wakes him up: his senses come into play. Fear or expectation makes him active, he starts barking. His barking becomes louder when the object enters the visual field. The olfactory sense then awakens when the object comes closer. Then the dog checks the object by touch and will even lick it if

necessary; the animal, which seems to have calmed down, then stops barking. As the stranger moves away, the barking resumes until he has retreated far from the successive circles of smell, sight and sound. A little later, before it calms down completely, the animal may bark at purely imaginary noises that may be retrospective or prospective. This familiar sequence is typical among animals placed at the higher levels of the evolutionary scale where a number of smaller cycles of affective, volitional states, etc., intervene.

The same cycles are found in the behavior of the young child. The child wakes up and the senses come into play. Muscular activity follows which provokes the appetite. The child starts to eat. Even during the process of taking food, the senses fall into a certain torpor. The caressing sounds of the mother's voice lull the child: they form, so to speak, the medium of "relationship" between this one and that one. This relationship continues until satisfaction is converted into instinctive states of rest or sleep and it is with the greatest caution that the mother moves away from the cradle. The first and last phases of this series of activities clearly show opposition. Natural behavior therefore presents two alternating and opposable phases. We thus arrive at an important characteristic of behavioral activities in general: that of alternation. Coming from different sources, we can collect other evidence that confirms this phenomenon. The study of expression in a baby who begins to open his eyes to what is happening around him will show us a curious phenomenon: the child recognizes you and smiles at you; then if you continue to observe it, you will see that the expression of joy turns into an expression of sadness. The child will have the same reactions towards unfamiliar faces or new objects.

Modern psychology sufficiently recognizes the fact that even simple vital activities such as sensation and perception include an alternation of subjective and objective aspects. The idea of "pure" sensation is beginning to be considered a myth belonging to a school of "academic psychology" that has fallen into disuse. Professor Edouard Claparède, during a psychological conference, mentions the alternation that we experience when we place our hand on the table. One moment we feel the presence of the table, one moment the presence of the hand. We can in fact note this alternation in every form of natural activity, from simple sensation to chains of continuous behavior, like the one we have just studied.

The fact that all psychologists, in their theories on the sequence of activities, recognize the phenomenon of alternation confirms this, as will be shown by examining the following table established by Professor Ed. Claparède (Witterberg Symposium on feelings and emotions, Clark University Press, p.133):

Classic theory: Perceptions – emotions – organic reactions.

James –Lange theory: perceptions – organic reactions – emotions.

Modified peripheral theory: perception – flight attitude – feeling of danger – organic reactions – emotion.

Flight without emotion: perception – attitude (of flight) – feeling (of danger) – flight.

We thus see that observations as well as theoretical considerations lead us to the idea that any chain of natural behavior can be divided into two opposable halves: one related to the positive pole, the other related to the negative pole.

CHAPTER IV

RELATED PERSONAL TENDENCIES

WITH SPECIAL CASES OF BEHAVIOR

Until now, we have limited ourselves to normal functioning and behavior related to an object of natural interest. We have tried to go back to the essential principles which are the basis of functioning and behavior. But, we must admit, our sketch requires clarification on several points. The obscurity covers above all what we have tried to distinguish as the depth of the person, which includes the instinctive or virtual activities belonging to the “mnemic” effects of the past. Just as it is necessary to dig up the earth to expose the roots of a tree, we are obliged, to make this aspect a little clearer, to study the functioning and behavior in relation to special objects or in special relationships with objects.

The following phenomenon of behavior is mentioned by Payot in his “Education of the Will”, p. 38:

“Before dawn, I found myself crossing a rapid snowfield whose bottom disappeared into the darkness. I slipped. I didn't lose my mind for a moment. I was aware of my critical situation and a clear view of the danger. I managed, while thinking that I was going to kill myself, to slow down, then stop my course, a hundred meters below. Very calm, I slowly crossed the snowfield with the help of my alpenstock and once safely in the rocks, definitely saved, I was (perhaps not

due to the exhaustion caused by excessive efforts) seized by a violent tremor. My heart pounded, my body was covered in cold sweat, and only then did I feel fear, extreme terror. In an instant the sight of danger became the feeling of danger. This example and many others of special behavior shed light on the nature of the phenomenon of polarization and alternation that we have studied in previous chapters.

The study of the organism's special states of satisfaction and rest will show us more clearly the nature of activities related to the affective aspects of psychic life. Take, for example, the case of the satisfaction that follows the absorption of special “food” such as alcohol and opium. Alcohol not only satisfies the appetite but provides a feeling of comfort to the person taking it. McDougall talks about alcohol and its almost universal “attraction”, that is to say the feeling of carefree well-being or “physical and mental comfort” that it provides. Thus we are led to believe that certain kinds of food are not only capable of producing satisfaction, but are also capable of stimulating the feeling of comfort and, what is more, virtual activities. These activities are objective again in that they depend on an object (alcohol, for example, in the alimentary canal). Thus we can observe, in the behavior of an intoxicated person, the nature of the virtual activities that we have already talked about. In the case of alcohol, these activities increase, but their nature remains the same as we see in the case of the instinctive states of rest which follow the meal.

These instinctive states of rest reveal to us more clearly the true nature of virtual activities, especially when we study the nature of deeper states of rest such as sleep. The first fact that we can bring out about the nature of sleep is that far from being a state of inactivity, it truly represents a “positive” activity. Rivers, for example, complains that psychologists “fail to recognize that sleep is more than the negation of psychological activity and that, quite apart from the production of dreams, sleep has a character of a positive kind” ([18]). Although the senses become indifferent, general sensitivity continues to function just as a pleasant temperature, spreading especially in the lower limbs, is important in bringing about sleep. Muscle relaxation follows as sleep sets in. And during sleep, the emotional or relational aspect of personal activity continues, as the study of the nature of awakening stimulants shows us. Rivers cites the case of a doctor awakened by the movement of the bell cord which precedes the sound and that of the mother responding to the slightest sound of her child, and draws attention to the fact that the stimulants of awakening seem to be especially effective when they come into close connection with the emotional state of the sleeping person. He concludes by saying that “sleep, in fact, is an instinct linked to the instinct of immobility” ([19]). We also recognize that the state of sleep is linked to hypnotism, to the process of suggestion. Dr. Claparède says “it is not because we are intoxicated or exhausted that we sleep, but that we sleep so as not to be” ([20]). When sleep is accompanied by representative activities, dreams and nightmares, the symmetrical opposition between the “open act” and the activity of sleep appears more clearly, especially in the light of the studies of Doctor Horton who attributes a great influence on dreams to cinæsthetic and visceral sensations. By tracing the behavior curve as we did at the end of Chapter I, we were

therefore right to place the chain of open or current behavior ([\[21\]](#)). The symmetry becomes more marked when we recognize with Professor Claparède that “sleep is the consequence of a functional activity of a continuous nature which requires, to be initiated, more considerable energy than to continue once the impulse is given...”. If, in real activity, the peak is marked by the effort to reach an object, the bottom of the peak is marked by the virtual effort which tends to bring about the state of rest.

We have tried, in different parts of our discussion, to make clear our curve representing behavior (end of chapter I, p. 25). What the curve indicates requires a conclusive explanation which we attempt to give here. Each point on the curve only represents the psychological quality of the activity. We need to distinguish two elements when we talk about movement. Bergson highlights this distinction when he says “that there are two elements to distinguish in movement”:

the space traveled and the act by which it is traveled, the successive positions and the synthesis of these positions; the first of these elements is a homogeneous quantity; the second has reality only in our consciousness; it’s as you wish, a quality or an intensity.” (Bergson. *Réflexions*, Paris, p. 18). This is the last quality we will consider. This psychic quality can be analyzed more completely as being determined by the three pairs of opposable elements below:

news	virtuality
objectivity	subjectivity
prospective nature	retrospective nature

Such psychological qualities are the basis of the conception of tendencies and have been recognized as such by psychologists. On this subject, see the following description by Ribot (*Treatise on psychology*, Georges Dumas, volume I, Félix Alcan, 1923, p. 429):

So what is a trend? “The only idea that we can have of tendencies is,” says Ribot (172), “to consider them as movements (or stops of real movements in their nascent state), ... a need, an inclination, a desire always implying motor innervation to some degree.” Then he adds to make this definition clearer: “The predator who has seized his prey with his teeth and claws has achieved his goal and satisfied his tendencies with the help of a considerable expenditure of movement. If we assume that he is not yet holding his victim, but that he sees and watches for her, his whole organism is in a state of extreme tension, ready to act; the movements are not carried out but the slightest impulse makes him take action. At a lower level, the animal prowls, seeking with its eyes and smell some capture that chance will bring it; it is a state of half-tension; motor innervation is much less strong and vaguely adapted. Finally, to an even weaker degree, he is at rest in his den; the vague image of prey, that is to say the memory of those he has devoured, crosses his mind; the driving force is very little intense in its nascent state and does not result in any visible movement. It is certain that between these four degrees there is continuity and that

there is always a driving element at play, with an indifference of more or less. Our curve represents only such cycles of changes in personal tendency.

Sleep is a state of subjective absorption in which behavior is limited to areas of the body. But, even there, studies and experiments have revealed a movement, an oscillation between the two psychic poles that we have highlighted. Experiments have shown that healthy people sleep soundly for about the first two hours; then sleep becomes lighter for a while and, again, becomes heavier. The first sleep is different in psychic quality from the last sleep or morning sleep. An emotional coloring predominates in the former while in the latter the dreams tend to be clearer. Towards the morning, sensory impressions have the effect of waking up the sleeping person more easily. Middle sleep is dreamless. All these facts show us that, in subjective states like sleep, there is a back and forth between the two poles.

The hypnotic state is linked to sleep, which is why the study of hypnotism will help us to see more clearly the opposition between the two poles of psychic life. Rivers says ([22]): “We assume with some confidence that sleep is a state allied to that of hypnotism and that it has some analogy with the process of suggestion.” Mc. Dougall concludes by saying ([23]): “We can say that a typical deep hypnotic state is a sleep modified by the relationship established between the patient and the operator”. Based on experiments carried out on himself, he mentions a degree of hypnotism “in which a certain division of the personality is manifested, a conflict of one part against the other: the muscles of a group obeying one part, the subject conscious and willing; the antagonistic muscles obeying some other part which understands and favors the commands and suggestions of the operator.” The part subject to the influence of suggestion is essentially opposite in character to the part subject to will. This is confirmed by the phenomenon of what are called “negative hallucinations” (3), hallucinations which manifest themselves at the deepest level of hypnotism. The substance of the personality is therefore definitively opposed in any case to the field of prospective intelligence of the personality. If we call the first positive, it follows that the second is negative. Thus psychological and physiological evidence leads us to conclude that activities are the result of centralized opposing tendencies.

CHAPTER V

THE PLACE OF EMOTIONS IN THE “PERSONAL FACTOR” SCHEME

Personal life is determined by emotional states and reflective thought always has an emotional side. The conception of the personal factor would therefore be incomplete if we did not consider the place of emotions in the scheme of personal life. Emotional states belong to subjective states which are expressed very little in external behavior. We thus reach a zone of the personal factor in which experimental methods do not yet have much value and even where the experiences made so far are susceptible to different interpretations. In dealing with the question of emotions we are therefore obliged to base ourselves on the opinions of experienced psychologists, about their nature and especially their *motus vivendi*. So we will content ourselves with examining the general trend in the opinions of modern psychologists which will shed some light on the emotional attributes of the personal factor.

This question brings us to the well-known James-Lange theory, which since it was formulated, has caused such storms in public opinion and given rise to much controversy. James summarizes his views this way: "The changes in the body follow directly the perception of the exciting fact, and the feeling of these same changes when they occur, is the emotion." The investigations that have been made since this theory was formulated have not radically changed the original position. On the other hand, Cannon discovered, by the use of Woodworth tends to the same point of view and he alludes to "the most curious series of facts which physiologists have recently added to our knowledge of the emotional state, facts which concern the participation of two small glands attached to the sympathetic system, the adrenal glands." Still more recent theories and facts have accumulated, and at the opening of the psychological conference devoted to the discussion of the question of "feelings" and "emotions," Professor Bentley gives us a summary of our present position with regard to the question of emotions. He says: "Emotions are subject to discussion...As a physiological function, they are related to the varied forms of action. They have a beginning, a duration, an end. They should be described in terms of their beginning, their successive states and their results... For another psychologist, emotions mean glandular products and visceral instincts: to a third they will mean an autonomous action of the nervous system or a type of physical activity or behavior or even the pleasant or unpleasant reaction produced by events or a mental state. Emotions may be defined in yet another way as being the quality of excitement which accompanies the operation of an instinct or a kind of impulse which stimulates the organism and makes it active, or again as being a certain species of stimulants" ([24]).

Among the other opinions expressed at this conference and which have special value in relation to our subject, here is that of Dr. Caparède: "Emotion is the awareness of the overall attitude of the organism...the awareness of a form, of a gestalt."

It would appear from all these theories that although many have taken part in the imaginary funeral of the James-Lange theory, its main aspects remain intact: that is, that emotions are connected more to the viscera than to any other part of the human body. In light of the phenomenon of polarization that we have discussed and the general direction of the opinions

above, it is easy for us to see that emotions would belong to a pole different from that of intelligence and even one that would be opposable to it. An examination of the different views will help us to glean, for the benefit of our study, the following features of the emotional life.

1. Emotions represent a global or synthetic aspect of the activity of the personal factor. They are linked to instinctive states ([\[25\]](#)).

2. Emotional activity tends to separate itself from volition and to attach itself to the opposite pole. This is why it would have a detrimental effect on the proper functioning of intelligence. Ribot says this in his "Essay on the Passions" (p.28). It has been noted that depressing feelings such as sadness and tender emotion produce a slowing down of the associative process and an increase in the time necessary for it to occur. even in the passions, which Ribot distinguishes from emotions and which belong more to the intellectual pole, he recognizes independence with regard to reasoning. Taking the case of love as a typical example, he says (Essay, p.40): "reasoning is external to passion; he is at his orders, at the service of desire which is its essential element; it is an auxiliary, non-integrating factor of the passionate state. It's a super-structure." Even the fixed idea that Ribot considers to be one of the fundamental traits of passion is thought to have its origins in a "lesion of the will" (Cf. note on page 23 Essay). Because instincts are closely linked to emotional states, the opposition that exists between instincts and intelligence would also show the opposition that exists between emotions and intelligence. This opposition is noted in a striking manner by Bergson (p. 164, creative evolution): "There are things that intelligence alone is capable of seeking but that by itself it will never find. These things, instinct alone would find them; but he will never seek them." Ribot also recognizes this opposition when he writes (Essay, p.38): "In the logic of feelings, which proceeds in reverse of traditional logic, the conclusion (the end) is given in advance; it determines the value of judgments instead of being determined by them." Thus we see that the phenomenon of polarization is also true of this subjective zone of the "personal factor".

3. Even within the strict, or more subjective, limits of the domain of emotional life, there are on the one hand the pure and tender emotions and on the other hand the passions between which Ribot recognizes an opposition. Passions, according to him, are "a prolonged and intellectualized emotion". On the other hand, tender emotions belong to the instinctive pole rather than the intellectual pole. The same emotion can have at a given moment, a phase which is more intellectualized and by completing its cycle of natural duration can at another moment be linked more to the instinctive pole. Mc Dougall mentions the example of the emotion of hope: "Hope," he says, "is the name given to the complex feelings that arise when some desire works in us and we anticipate success; if new difficulties intervene, hope gives way to worry or despair, but it cannot be said, under any circumstances, that it mixes with despair or that it brings worry; rather, as circumstances become less favorable, the feeling rooted in our desires, by imperceptible gradations, changes from hope to worry to despair. (Wittenberg Symposium on the feelings and emotions, p. 204). Mac Dougall sees the possibility of classifying all feelings into two groups:

prospective feelings and retrospective feelings. »These complex feelings, he writes, are known in ordinary speech as emotions. Adopting the terminology proposed by Shand, I have already discussed it elsewhere under the general heading of prospective and retrospective emotion derived from desire. We thus see that even in the area of subjective personal activity which consists of global attitudes, we observe the phenomenon of polarization.

In thought we reach the most subjective zone of the activity of the personal factor. Since the time of Plato, writers have recognized the distinction between the world of realities and the world of ideas, the particular and the universal. The deductive and inductive processes, the rationalist and empiricist views which have been the subject of philosophical controversy for centuries, contain a tacit assumption of the existence of two aspects to the process of thought. Herbartian “apperception” contains the same implication. John Dewey in “how we think” (p.79 Heath New York) presents the double movement of reflective thought in the following way: There is thus a double movement in all reflection: a movement of a partial and confused datum, a suggested, complete and comprehensive (or inclusive) situation; and then returning from this suggested whole which as it is suggested, is a meaning, an idea - a movement back to the particular facts in such a way as to relate them to each other and to connect them to additional facts to which the suggestion had drawn attention. Generally speaking, the first of these movements is inductive, the second deductive. A complete tree of thought includes both movements, that is to say an effective interaction of particular observed (or remembered) facts and suggested and general meanings.

So what “this double movement” means is that even in the process of thought, there is an alternation and an opposition which has been recognized by thinkers and philosophers. Plato refers specifically to the seat of desires as being separate from the seat of knowledge which he locates in the head while he locates the first in the kidneys (Cf p.30, *Story of philosophy* W.Durant New-York). For Kant, the inner senses are distinct from the outer senses. Bergson goes further and highlights the opposition which is at the basis of instinct and intelligence. Modern psycho-analysts express the same idea with the word “ambivalence” attributed to Bleuler. (Cf. p. 161 and 163 *The Psycho-analytic Method*, O. Pfister says on this subject: “It is worth noting that in the event of inhibition of one of the instinctive ambivalent tendencies, the other undergoes an increase”. Dr. Wallon writes (p.285 of “For the new era”, Nov. 29): “At the sight of his brother, a character is struck by gestures and mannerisms which bring him back to the memory of their common childhood and which, while remaining common to them, have taken on in both of them a meaning as opposite as has become their regime and their ideal of life. It happens to note on oneself that certain dispositions would be capable of giving contrary effects... These ambivalent events often constitute the psychic substance of certain sudden conversions. Their existence is not without influence on the formation of the character because the ambivalence is far from resolving into neutrality.

Before ending these chapters in which we have directed our attention step by step towards the notion of polarization, perhaps it is necessary to summarize our position. It should now be sufficiently clear that by the term "polarization" we have only sought to bring under a general term the ambivalent character of tendencies whether in the physiological, "behaviourist", emotional or mental domain. We have found that terms such as "ambivalence" have been used in special branches of psychology; hence the need for a special term. The distinction we made between the positive half of a chain of natural activity and the more instinctive, retrospective or negative half of the same chain, the distinction between tender emotions and passions, the distinction which still exists, between the deductive and inductive movements of a process of reflective thought are all examples of this phenomenon of polarization. The "open", positive, analytical, intelligent side is oriented towards the future and this side responds at the same time to the public aspect of the personal factor. The opposite side which is negative and rather individual is linked to instincts, to retrospective emotions. Its function is to capture the overall aspect. This side is related to an individual's own past and represents the anti-social or "private" aspect.

CHAPTER VI

THE "PERSONAL FACTOR" IN RELATION WITH THE INDIVIDUAL AND TYPES

We have now arrived at a stage of the discussion where we can consider not only the general aspect of the "personal factor" as we have done up to now, but try to see on which elements a conception of the individual with his special attributes (or character) can be based. Passing thus from the general and permanent aspects of the "personal factor" to its particular and temporary aspects, we not only move towards the discussion of psychological types, but we will encounter a series of stages and various states of the same individual corresponding to these psychological types, but we will encounter a series of stages and various states of the same individual corresponding to these types. On this subject, Dr Wallon writes: "The type is often confused with the stage because the development of functions is to a certain extent successive, and although they are closely ordered among themselves and there is no isolable one, however they can mark degrees and progressive contributions in the total plan of activity" ("For the new era", nov.1926, p.256).

Types, as well as states and degrees, are variations in two divergent directions. We have already talked about representing these divergent directions graphically using two coordinated straight lines intersecting at right angles. Dr Béatrice Hinkle (Cf. *The Recreation of the individual*) has already recognized this possibility and here are the two lines she proposes: one representing the extraversion-introversion scale and the other the objective-subjective scale. Here the difficulty is that extroversion and introversion already imply the objectivity and subjectivity of tendencies (v.p.50). Following our previous discussion it would undoubtedly be more correct, to indicate the opposition in the pair of trends, to use the table below already mentioned:

Subjective	objective
Prospective	retrospective
Virtual	current

The scale of objective and subjective variations would be represented by the horizontal axis. We place prospective and retrospective variations in the vertical scale. The qualities, which we distinguish as virtual and actual, belong to these two scales, the negative being virtual and the positive being actual. It can be said that personal consciousness, in its most nuclear form, consists of two movements: a movement contained in pure consciousness which can be indicated by the events contained in the sentence: "This is knowledge"; the other is a movement which can be indicated by the phrase: "This is a table". This one we distinguish as "vertical", this one as "lateral". The word "this", in both cases, represents what we have called virtual entity: it belongs to the world of universals ([\[26\]](#)) while "knowledge" and "table" are particulars belonging to two different orders. We can say that the innermost zone of consciousness is made up of the activities of these orders. We can conceive of several concentric circles, intersecting the axes at different points, which would represent successive zones of personal activity. Just as it is important to recognize the divergent directions of trends, it is also necessary, starting from personal reactivity, to conceive of successive zones of personal activity. Just as it is important to recognize the divergent directions of tendencies, so it is necessary, starting from personal reactivity, to conceive of successive zones as distinct from each other, because in each zone there is a different order of expression of personal life. The variations between different individuals, which arise from the predominance of centrifugal activity or centripetal activity, are variations in the extent and intensity of personal life in these successive zones. Along the horizontal axis we indicate those qualities of personal activity which we could distinguish according to Bergson as belonging to space. On the other hand, we can indicate the qualities belonging to time as variations in the vertical scale. It is not possible, in the current state of our knowledge of the different zones, to speak about it with accuracy. But we can nevertheless show in a general way the nature of the individual variations in relation to the two different directions that we have pointed out. The two groups of tendencies could be distinguished according to the aspect of the environment towards which the tendencies are oriented. These two aspects of the environment

are indicated by Rusk in the following manner (p. 96 Phil. Base of Ed.): “The obvious analysis of the environment of the human being shows two main divisions which we can characterize as belonging respectively to matter and to the culture of the spirit or in other words the physical and the mental. There is a natural environment as there is also a psycho-social environment, the world of things and the world of man.” He quotes these words from Bosanquet: “For life, the environment is the surface of the earth, for the mind, it is the universe”. We call the trends which move towards matter “horizontal” because they are opposed to others which we call “vertical”. The essential opposition at the basis of these two groups of tendencies is recognized by the prophetic vision of Rousseau. Here is what he writes: “while I meditated on the nature of man, I seemed to discover two distinct problems; one of them raised her to the study of eternal truths, to the love of justice and true morality, to the regions of the world of thought that the wise woman loves to contemplate; the other demeaned him, made him a slave to the senses, to the passions which are their instruments and thus opposed everything suggested to him by the first principle” (Social Contract, Rusk, p.159). This distinction lies at the basis of all philosophical thought. The opposition between rationalism and empiricism ([\[27\]](#)), idealism and realism, pure reason and practical reason (Kant), the opposition between the ethical principles of Rousseau and those of Nietzsche and many others reveal to us the same vision at the basis of all philosophical examination. Bertrand Russell insists on the recognition of the differences that exist between perceptual species and physical species (Outline of Philosophy, p.144). In his book “How to diagnose aptitudes in schoolchildren” (p.233), Dr. Claparède gives a list of couples containing the same opposition:

	* Subjective.....	Objective
Binet	* Introversion.....	Extraversion
Jung	* Ideologues.....	Positivists
James	* Classics.....	Romantics
Ostwald	* Workers.....	Fighters
De Maday	* Apolloniens.....	Dionysius
Nietzsche	* Sentimental.....	Naive
Schiller	* Logical (Analysts)..	Intuitive (surveyors)
Poincaré	* Gnostics.....	Techniques
Lipman	* Analytics.....	Synthetics
Rignano	* Spirit of geometry....	Spirit of finesse
Pascal	* Abstracts.....	concrete
Duthem		

Having to take into account so many points of view, it is not possible for us to speak about them with precision: we are therefore obliged to keep our plan formed of two lines intersecting at right angles, which we have developed so far. The personal factor, as we have said, consists of successive zones linked more or less either to one or the other of these two axes. The most subjective attitudes of the tendencies would relate to the vertical axis, the most objective attitudes would relate to the horizontal axis. By using this plan, it will be easy for us to situate each of the above terms that different philosophers and thinkers have used.

The study of personal attitudes in more general terms brings us to the ethical and religious life of man. Using this same plan, we can show the opposition between pure or religious virtues and purely social virtues. We can see that Rousseau's idealist ethics is a vertical expression while the will to power of

Nietzsche would be a lateral expression. Anything that would lead to rivalry (lateral) would oppose cooperation (vertical) ([\[28\]](#)).

Words such as character, individuality, personality, conduct and mood must be conceived in terms of some sort of symmetry or asymmetry in harmonizing the different elements of attitudes and tendencies which come into play in personal life. These words only denote different ways of talking about different aspects of personal life. Some place more emphasis on certain aspects of personal life. Some focus more on certain aspects of life when they talk about character. Ribot, for example, would exclude intelligence when he speaks of character. Goethe emphasizes the main point when he writes: "Character consists of a man pursuing with perseverance the things of which he feels capable." Kant also makes the same point: "A man, he says, can have a good heart but no character when he depends on his impulses and does not act according to maxims." The continuity of attitudes therefore constitutes character. The word conduct applies to continuous activity but which is however of shorter duration. The word mood designates a state of even shorter duration. Individuality and personality do not mean the same thing: individuality does not necessarily designate what we have called vertical aspects while personality takes into account the highest human attributes. On this subject John Adams says among other things: "The term individuality...when applied to human beings carries with it something more than a biological meaning." It highlights that one of the members of a class of society can have individuality while another can have a striking personality, which means that both belong to completely different categories... So we can say that individuality considers lateral aspects while personality considers vertical aspects.

When we talk about types, we must remember the distinction we made between personality and individuality. Most psychologists, in their attempts to determine types, are guided primarily by variations in the aspects represented by the lateral axis ([\[29\]](#)).

The following discussion on psychological types follows the lines of the article on "Recent work of Psychological Types" by H. Klüyer (Journal of Nervous and Mental Disease) n°6 vol 62, 1925.

Jung's school is predominant among those which suggest psychological types to us. It is the relationships of the subject to the object that it takes into account to determine the types. On the nature of extroversion and introversion, Jung writes: "We would say that there is extroversion wherever it is to the external world, to the object, that the individual grants his fundamental interest... there is introversion, on the contrary, when the objective world undergoes a sort of denigration or disrepute for the benefit of the subject himself... This concentration on thought, that is to say on the internal world, is nothing other than introversion." (see p.232 How to diagnose apt. Claparède). He further says about extroversion: "By this concept, I denote a

manifest relationship between the subject and the object in the sense of a positive movement of subjective interests directed towards the object". When this subject-object relationship continues in the individual, we call him, depending on the case, extroverted or introverted. So far Jung only recognizes what we would call lateral variabilities but he also refers to four different types. The first, which he calls "Denktypus", brings a new factor determining the variability which he opposes to the "Gefühlstypus". These two "rational" types belong, in our opinion, to the vertical scale. The other two, called "irrational" types, which he calls sensory (Empfindungstypus) and intuitive (intuitionstypus) are obviously variations of the lateral axis: the intuitive being negative, the sensory being positive in the horizontal scale. Hinkle, Max Freyd and Jaspers follow Jung closely in his extroverted and introverted principles. Kretschmer's two types, the "schizothymics" and the "cyclothymics", correspond respectively to the introverted and extroverted types, the only differences being, as MacDougall pointed out, "that they are closer to the disordered patient...but that Kretschmer's cycloid is undoubtedly a special form of Jung's extrovert; and his schizoid is a special variety of Jung's introvert. (Abn.Psycho.Mc Dougall, p.440). We could say that Kretschmer stands closer to the bodily areas of the personal factor when he talks about types while recognizing Jung's principles.

The conception of "personal reactivity" (R), which gives the "structure" of the character, results from the simultaneous operation of certain tendencies towards expression that Klages calls "Trieb Kraft" (T) and other compensatory and opposing tendencies is therefore also, according to Klages, at the basis of the determination of types.

Dr. Nicola Pende, in his conception of the "psychic biotype", focuses more on the bodily area. The character, for him, is the result of the predominance of one of the two "neuro-harmonic constellations", opposite and compensatory, which he distinguishes by the name "excito-catabolic" and excito-anabolic". He calls "tachypsychic" the type resulting from the predominance resulting from the predominance of the other constellation.

In Klages and Pende we thus find a conception of character independent of the subjective-objective relationship and for the first time we see a conception of types based on variations of the vertical scale although always contained in the physical zone.

Dr Wallon, who traces the neurological components of character, recognizes "ambivalence" which "plays the role of stimulant or reactive in behavior". He also recognizes the principle of compensation or "overcompensation", a factor which will intervene to a greater or lesser extent in the subject's behavior (For the New Era, n°52 Nov29).

H. Rorschach's distinction between type Fb and type B is the result of diagnostic experiments based on the phenomenon of apperception. His experiments show that certain groups of functions are strongly developed in type Fb, while a group of other functions predominate in type B: that is, these types only indicate a difference. H. Klüver writes on this subject: "In trying to determine exactly the difference, Rorschach finds that the psychic functions of the Fb type are

practically identical to the functions of the extroverted type; the psychic functions of type B identical to those of the introverted type. Thus Rorschach, considering differences in functioning, presupposes the existence of Jung's types.

We therefore see that recent research in the field of psychological types shows us that they all involve an opposition between two groups of tendencies and that the types and individual character result from the predominance of one or the other of these groups. They show that the subject-to-subject relationship is not the only basis for variations. The difference between the type of the thinker (Denktypus) and Jung's "Gefühlstypus", for example, does not belong to variations on the purely subjective-objective scale. In our opinion, it would belong to a variation of the vertical scale which is expressed in a completely different way in each area of personal life.

So many traits enter into the determination of individuality or character or type to which the individual belongs and each of them is of such a nature that by itself it can produce many gradations and many varieties, which make their classification difficult. Dr. O. Deroly writes on this: "The combinations of psychic traits are in fact so numerous that there are very few connected types and a multitude of intermediate types" (p.250, "For the new era" Nov.29). It is only through a detailed description of each type that we arrive at a true conception of the individual for practical purposes. Only an experienced psychologist will be able to consistently provide the details of the individual's character. And even when the writer tries to describe types using technical terms, he finds himself obliged to give an arbitrary description based on his own experiences. Jung and Rorschach invariably refer to "their many years of experience". A description was attempted by Mac Dougall who studies two brothers, one whom he considers to be a typical extrovert (E), the other a typical introvert (I). Here are some extracts from this description showing us the kind of details he is obliged to give to clearly highlight the type he designed:

"...I likes long, solitary hikes while E never goes for a walk alone.... In poetry, E puts Keats first and sees nothing in Wordsworth... E seems to have no ambition or life plan: he takes life as it is and fully enjoys each moment without thinking about the future. I am very concerned: "what should he do?" What should he become? »

From this description it is clear that some of these differences cannot be attributed to a position on the intro-extrovert scale. The difference mentioned last in the quote above is clearly related to the intuition of time rather than the intuition of space, that is, belonging to the vertical axis rather than the horizontal axis. Psychologists tacitly recognize the other scale of variations that we have called vertical. Dr Ad Ferrière (Types psych. Genève p.30) tells us the nature of variations between individuals along this scale in the following terms:

"A rhythm particular to each individual sometimes carries him forward, towards the future to be conquered, sometimes backward, towards the past with which it is necessary to maintain contact.

The future often represents effort and risk, in any case the unknown. The past generally appears as rest and security, the known world where we lived and where we left. Some children have a taste for risk and their nature is inclined towards progress; some others, sickly, hereditary weakened, or simply endowed with less vitality, remain infantile and take refuge, so to speak, in the past: it is said of these children that they cling to their mother's skirts. The majority, however, oscillate between the two poles, efforts to build the future being followed by periods of rest where infantilism once again predominates. This is normal. This should not be surprising, provided that one of the phases does not predominate for too long over the other, because overextended effort leads to overwork and a break with the healthy elements of the past, and too prolonged infantilism generates stagnation and "misoneism".

Character is the result of a more or less permanent balance of different tendencies: it must not be attributed to any special faculty or intelligence of the individual. Even a simple aptitude which characterizes an individual "is never something isolable", as H. Piéron says. Aptitude, he says, is a practical quality of general organic functioning. (See "For the new era", July-August 29). W. Stern also noted "that there is no partial reaction. It follows, therefore, that in speaking of character we are obliged, if we wish to be correct, to use the most general terms indicating only an asymmetry in the overall state of the individual's tendencies.

Thus we can say that there are two main types of individuals according to the predominance of the development of tendencies that we have called lateral or according to the predominance of the development of so-called vertical tendencies. Each of them can be divided into two types according to the predominance of the positive character or according to the predominance of the negative character. A lateral-positive type would be a man of action; a negative lateral type would be a dreamer, building castles in Spain. The contrast that Nietzsche makes between the minds of the Apollonians and that of the Dionysians represents a kind of introversion and extroversion involving a variation in the lateral scale (V. p. 295 Jung Anal. Psycho. London). In the vertical scale, we can distinguish the vertical-positive type which is the active thinker with lively intelligence directed towards the future and the vertical-negative type which is the individual with a retrospective mind giving great importance to traditions, to relationships with the past. When these characteristics are not clearly marked, we find many intermediate types with multiple variations, so multiple as to make classification impossible.

SECOND PART

CHAPTER ONE

THE EDUCATIONAL PROCESS AND ITS ASPECTS RELATED TO THE DEVELOPMENT AND ADAPTATION OF PERSONAL TENDENCIES

All education aims to bring about changes in the individual, in one way or another. It is a continuous process which must leave a permanent mark on the individual. We will examine what, in the most general terms, the nature of this process is so that we can see the nature of the intervention of the personal educator.

Sir John Adams writes in his book "Education Theory" (Benn London): "It will generally be admitted, to begin with, that education is a bipolar process", and he goes on to say that it is not just between the educator and the "educande" ([\[30\]](#)) that this bipolar character exists but that "this bipolarity can exist in the experience of a single individual". Here is how he explains the nature of this bipolarity: "When we say that education is bipolar, we mean that it is a process

which necessarily includes an objective aspect and a subjective aspect although it does not necessarily include two people”. Writers have used various languages to indicate this same bipolarity. Dr. Paul Monroe in his “History of Education” (Text Book, p. 4) speaks of the education of primitive man as consisting of “these two processes; the first which is the training necessary for the satisfaction of the practical necessities of life..., the second, the training in elaborate processes or forms of worship...”. The first would relate to the objective aspect, the second to the subjective aspect. “What was true of primitive education,” Monroe continues, “is also true of the modern conception of education. The meaning of education, as it is currently conceived, rests on trying to combine and balance these two elements of individual rights and social duties, of personal development and social service. After reviewing other definitions of education, Monroe concludes: "Whatever the interest considered, practical or theoretical, whatever the line of investigation, the significance of the problem of education is given in terms of this harmonization of social and individual factors."

It is easy to see that the two aspects of the process correspond closely to the two aspects of the personal factor that we have studied. The positive and negative aspects of the process could be indicated by the following table:

negative	positive
subjective	objective
individual	social
cultivated	utility
religious duties	practical homework

It is therefore obvious that education aims to develop two distinct aspects.

Educators and philosophers also recognize the essential opposition underlying the two aspects. Bergson recognizes it when he writes (p. 166 of Creative Evolution): “The capital error, the one which, transmitted from Aristotle, has vitiated most philosophies of nature, is to see in vegetative life, in instinctive life and in reasonable life, three successive degrees of the same tendency which develops, whereas they are three divergent directions of an activity which split as it grew.” Kant, likewise, sees the necessity of the struggle of each against all as the indispensable accompaniment of progress, thus recognizing the conflict between the two aspects of the personal factor (V, Will Durant The Story of philosophy p. 307). Rousseau shows us this opposition in a striking way: “Forced to fight nature or social institutions, we must choose between becoming a like or a citizen: because we cannot do both at the same time” (Emile, book

I). Both Pestalozzi and Froebel recognize a similar distinction between the innate nature and the social or ethical nature of man. Pestalozzi, for example, sees three distinct aspects in the same individual: the animal man, the social man, the moral man. "Animal man," he writes, "is agitated under the control of social man...; the moral man is not the work of society but of himself" ([31]). Herbart's favorite analogy of "grafting valuable shoots onto wild plants" and his "apperceptive" concepts or the fusion of the old idea and the new idea similarly indicate the bipolarity of the above-mentioned process.

Bipolarity and conflicts are therefore two well-recognized characteristics of theorists. Thus W.H. Rivers writes (p. 258 *Instincts and The Unconscious* Cambridge 1922): "The life of the child is a long conflict between the instinctive tendencies and the forces of the older ones which come to oppose these tendencies and many people begin to believe that the character is largely determined by the strategy and tactics of this conflict". The work of an educator would therefore be to ensure that there is a continuous succession of conflicts in the process of the child's development. He must see that this succession has a progressive or positive direction or more than all that, that the development is harmonious or natural. This would mean that neither the positive nor the negative of the two groups of tendencies that we have studied should predominate too much at any stage of the process. Pestalozzi explains this natural development as follows: "A healthy education appears before me, symbolized by a tree planted near fertilizing waters. A small seed, containing the model of the tree, is placed in the soil. The whole tree is only an unbroken chain of organic parts, the plan of which existed in the seed and in the root. Man is like a tree. Hidden in the newborn are these faculties which will flourish throughout life..." ([32]). The art of the educator consists of seeing that all aspects of the child's personal life develop harmoniously, in a natural order. But, to intervene in this way in the child's life, the educator must have some guiding principles.

These leading principles can all be drawn from examining one of the first steps in child development, that is, weaning. When the mother refuses to feed the child with her own milk, it gives rise to a *conflict* which is the first step in the weaning process and which can be characterized as being *negative*. This negation produces a sort of dissatisfaction requiring a *compensation* emotional. The positive stage of the process begins when the mother tries to introduce the child to new interests related to his needs. The mother helps the child to eliminate and choose among several objects of satisfaction and gives him a general direction until, through continued habit, he begins to follow a new and wider orbit of interest.

It will be observed that the process of education definitely presents two distinct sides, one negative relating to the negative pole of the personal factor, the other positive in which intelligence comes into play. The extension of the knowledge of things which accompanies this process is a development of these aspects which we have distinguished as being lateral. The other aspect of the process is comparatively independent of this one being more subjective and, according to our terminology, therefore belongs to the vertical axis. Plato recognizes this

distinction between the two aspects of education when he writes that the education of a philosopher "does not consist in a simple extension of knowledge, in a more extensive development of experiences, but requires a complete reversal of attitude or a new direction of the mind." (See Rusk Phil. Bases of Edc. p. 134). Modern writers increasingly recognize the conflict resulting from the child's contact with nature and social forces. (See Rusk Phil. Bases of Edc. p.121).

We can thus speak of four phases in the educational process.

Related to the vertical aspects of development we find the phases:

1° negative-subjective, purely linked to instincts and emotions,

2° positive-subjective, related to the development of intelligence and whose functions are selection and judgment.

Related to the lateral aspects of development we find the phases:

1° negative-objective in relation to the world of universals of the objective level,

2° positive-objective linked to the particular, the concrete.

The function of the educator has often been compared to that of the gardener. The nature of its interventions in the development of the child can be studied by means of a comparison with the action of a gardener who transplants a young plant. Its first care will be to protect the plant against the sun then, by different means, to help the root to settle and nourish itself. This example clearly shows us what we have tried to explain as the negative aspect of the educational process. It is in this area that personal intervention is most necessary and most justified. Every positive impulse, at every stage of the process, must have negative compensations. These negative compensations consist of the establishment of closely personal relationships between the educator and the student. They require careful adjustment at every moment. The educator, even in the positive aspect of the child's development, serves as a model for him, as representing his future. No system of mechanical rules can replace the personal judgment required by the need to balance constantly opposing forces.

We thus see that the personal educator is an indispensable and even important factor in an educational process worthy of the name.

([1]) Locke's "Thoughts on Education" was published in 1693 and with it began new trends in educational theory. We then move on to Rousseau in 1792. We note the same trends continued in Kant and Herbart. After 1850 the names of Stanley Hall, William James and John Dewey are some of the philosophers who contributed largely to forming modern educational theory

([2]) For example, according to the philosophy of Locke, the child begins his life with a "clean slate", on which the experiences which come later and therefore a posteriori leave the educational impressions, while according to Rousseau there are innate tendencies which through nature itself could accomplish the work of education. Kant also belongs to this school.

([3]) Word used by Sir John Adams (Cf Educational Theories, Benn, London).

([4]) Education is often described as a "preparation for life", meaning to indicate a preparation of a more or less permanent and general nature so that this preparation will be felt throughout life and not only in situations which bring into play a special aptitude of the individual or a particular aspect of the personality. In other words, instead of preparing an individual to become a good mechanic, a good soldier or a good priest, education will rather be a general initiation into the art of living intelligently in the different stages and conditions of existence. To better highlight what we mean we will use a comparison taken from medical science; medicine has to do with the pathological states or conditions of life and their elimination. These conditions are most often of a transient nature, which means that treatment and diagnosis are of a comparatively short duration. The results obtained are also more easily measured than those resulting from a poor adaptation of the personality from an educational point of view. The subjective nature and slowness of changes due to education make pedagogy a field of theoretical speculation.

([5]) The distinction between the terms personality and individuality was shown by Sir John Adams (The Evolution of Educational Theory p.113-14) cited by Rusk (Phil. Bas, of Ed p 45) from which we extract the following: "When applied to human beings, the term individuality, however, carries with it something more than a biological meaning... the term personality almost always includes an allusion to the manner in which the individual reacts on others individuals".

([6]) Until the time of Descartes (1596-1650), we stuck to the custom of building philosophical edifices on axioms such as "Cogito ergo sum". The ultra-positive trends resulting from the triumph of science despise such constructions. From the temptation for modern Science to do without, for a certain time, any postulate going beyond empirical experience to confine itself to strict materialism or mechanism until the progress of biological thought brings it new impetus. Questions such as the origin of species in the biological domain highlighted the taste for generalizations about life. Human psychology and philosophical thought itself benefited from this tendency, either through direct generalizations or through analogies with animal life, thus giving a more concrete basis to abstract thought. As a result, philosophy was able to take on a more "open", more accessible character; in short, it became a more rational discipline. The theory of recapitulation attributed to Haeckel is a very clear example of the influence of

analogies on philosophical and psychological thought. Will Durant traces for us in the following words, this biological trend which began to displace the mechanical point of view of the Spencerian school: "The rapid absolescence of his (Spencer's) philosophy is due largely to the replacement of the physical by the biological perspective in recent thought; by the growing disposition to the essence and secret of the world in the movement of life rather than in the inertia of things...It was Schopenhauer who first in modern thought, emphasized the possibility of making the concept of life more fundamental and inclusive than that of force; it is Bergson who in our own generation has taken up this idea, and has almost converted a skeptical world to it by the force of his sincerity and his eloquence" (p.488 *The Story of Philosophy*. New-York).

([7]) The exact relationship between a complete reaction and a simple sensation is not easy to determine. Although it is true that reactions are the results or simple stimulations, such stimulations should not be considered as the sole and direct cause of the reaction. The complete reaction directed towards a biological goal is related to the innate nature of the nervous system and its primitive functioning; and whenever there is partial stimulation, there is a tendency to produce complete reactions.

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([9]) Doctor Adolphe Ferrière explains the function of the educator and the origin of the word "education": "So what can the educator do? It must, as I said, start from what is and not from what could be..."

"Educating will consist of starting from what is, in order to lead (ex-ducere) towards what is better...", p. 50-51 of the *Active School* » Ed. Forum, Geneva 1926.

([10]) The natural order of such a succession of subjective and objective phases of innate knowledge in its natural use is indicated by Bergson as follows: "we find that this knowledge relates in the first case to things and in the second case to relationships". (*creative evolution*, p.161).

([11]) In the chapter on existence and nothingness, Bergson discusses in detail the idea contained here. He concludes: "The representation of the void is always a full representation which resolves upon analysis into two positive elements: the distinct or confused idea of a substitution and the feeling, experienced or imagined, of a desire or regret." *creative evolution*, p. 307). See also p.42 of this work.

([12]) Nous trouvons encore chez William Mc Dougall (Psychology H.U.L. p.104) : »The primitive cycle of purposive or mental activity seems to be cognition, which conation, issuing in bodily activity, brings a feeling about a new cognition that in turn brings a feeling about a new cognition that in turns brings a feeling of satisfaction and terminates the conation”.

([13]) See p.532, “Treatise on psycho”. Dumas. Félix Alcan, Paris, Volume II

([14]) To avoid a detailed discussion of the two principles mentioned above, see Starling “Principles of Physiology”, p.46. See also Dumas, “Treatise on psychology. » p. 578: “Biologists currently distinguish two species of variations: some are due to the influence of external circumstances: these are *fluctuations* ; we have recently demonstrated that there was another species of variation, independent of the influence of the environment..., etc...”.

([15]) D.F. Harris « Nerves » The Home University Library 1928 p.127. “The conception of the nervous system we should have is that of myriads of ingoing neurons incessantly carrying *towards and upwards multitudes* of impulses from the periphery and pouring them upon thousands of cell bodies or centers in the grey matter. These centers thus roused to activity discharge outwards, streams of impulses destined for the innervations of muscles, blood vessels, heart, glands and other tissues”.

([16]) Cf. p. 200 “Analytical Psychology” par Jung. Baillière Tindall et cox London.

([17]) See the author’s article in the journal “Action et Pensée” (vol. January 8, 1932) entitled “some biological facts that support “ambivalence”.

([18]) V. Instinct and the Unconscious. Cambridge, p. 111.

([19]) W.R. Rivers «Instinct and the Unconscious ». Cambridge, 1929, p. 116

([20]) Outline of a theory of sleep. Arch. From Psychol. IV (Geneva, 1905) cited by Mc. Dougall in “Outline of Abnormal Psychology,” p. 68.

([21]) V. Dumas, Treatise on psych., t. I, p. 112. “When sleep,” writes Gley, “is completely and profoundly established, the subject is comparable to the animal whose cerebral hemispheres the physiologist has just removed...” “Sleep does not occur suddenly; it is first announced by a need to sleep... this sensation is comparable to that of hunger and thirst.”

([22]) Rivers « Instinct and the Unconscious », p. 110, Cambridge, 1922

([23]) Ar. Outline of Abnormal Psychology, p. 82 Mc Dougall

(³) On. cit., p. 92

([24]) Voir « Wittemburg Symposium on Feeling and Emotions » Clark University Press, page 21.

([25]) Any object that awakens an instinct also awakens an emotion, wrote William James.

([26]) It is hardly possible to enter into a philosophical discussion here to bring out what we mean by the world of *universal* and the world of *individuals*. It's a discussion that philosophy has recognized since the time of Plato cf. Plato's theory of ideas is nothing other than a recognition of the existence of this world of universals. Bertrand Russell devotes an entire chapter in his work "The problems of philosophy" (H.U.L. page 142) to an examination of this question, of universals and particulars. He explains: (ibid., p.145) "The word "idea" has acquired, in the course of time many associations which are quite misleading when applied to Plato's "ideas". We shall therefore use the word "universal" instead of idea to describe what Plato meant. The essence of the sort of entity that Plato meant is that it is opposed to the particular things that are given in sensation. We speak of whatever is given in sensation, or is of the same nature as things given in sensation, as a *particular* ; by opposition all our knowledge is derived from experience: the rationalists – who were represented by the continental philosophers of the seventeenth century, especially Descartes and Leibniz maintained that in addition to what we know by experience there are certain innate ideas and innate principle which we know independently of experiences.

It will be easy to see in the list above that there is the same kind of opposition that we pointed out above at least in the cases marked with the asterisk.

([27]) It will be impossible within the limits of this study to enter into a complete discussion of a correlation scheme of the various pairs of philosophical expressions employed here. We will simply note in the list above that the first

([28]) It is not easy to indicate in the form of a precise definition everything we mean by the expressions "lateral" and "vertical" of personality. We will find elsewhere in this study, aspects of this distinction explained according to the context. This way of distinguishing is not new but it has been recognized by scholars, especially those who study personality. We choose only one example, that of Professor Gilbert Murray in his book "Euripides and his Age" (H.U.I. pages 191-195) from which we took the following sentence: "He who most loves the ideal natural man rarely agrees with the majority of his neighbors" (page 196).

The simplest way in which this distinction between "vertical" and "lateral" could be made would be to treat them as relating to space (lateral) and time (vertical) according to Bergson's method. Such a picture or plan which represents two aspects of life intersecting at right angles is not a fanciful new departure from fashions in current educational thinking. Even a well-known writer like John Dewey uses expressions analogous to the one we ourselves have used here, regarding American psychology based on "Stimulus-Response" (S-R). He writes: "Particular S-R

connections interpreted on the basis of isolated reflexes, are viewed as static *cross-sections*, and the factor most important in Education, namely, the *longitudinal* the temporal span of growth and change is neglected ». P. 67-68 « The Sources of a Science of Education » Horace Liverright, New-York, 1929.

Cf. «The Story fo Philosophy by Will Durant. “What is good ?... To be brave is good ». «What is good ?... All that increase the feeling of power, the will to power, power itself in man». (Extracts quoted from Nietzsche writings). «If there is any cure for this social evil, it is to be found in the substitution of low for individual ; in arming the general will with a real strength beyond the power of any individual will». From Rousseau, cited in Rusk «Phil. Bases of ed. ».

([29]) The following discussion on psychological types follows the lines of the article on “Recent work of Psychological Types” by H. Klüver (Journal of Nervous and Mental Disease) n°6 vol. 62, 1925.

([30]) See note on p. 3.

([31]) V. p. 173, tome 7, « Teachers Encyclopedia », Caxton London.

([32]) Cf. Montoe « History of Education » p. 611

CHAPTER II

PRELIMINARY DISCUSSION OF SOME PEDAGOGICAL CONCEPTS IN RELATION TO THE “PERSONAL FACTOR”

Hitherto we have only directed our attention to the nature of personal tendencies and to the fundamental character of the educational process without making special allusion to the daily pedagogical problems and to the aspects of personal life as they daily appear to the educator. We will now turn the discussion to the personal experiences of the author himself.

It is perhaps necessary to give a few words of explanation on the nature of these experiences and observations which have been collected over a period of more than ten years in different schools in Europe and India. They are the result of intimate knowledge of children of both sexes, from three to eighteen years old, coming from rich and poor families. In most cases I had the opportunity to live with the children in the same house or, knowing the parents, I had special facilities to obtain information on their public and private living conditions. These experiences and observations have been such as to confirm some of the educational doctrines belonging to the Hindu traditions which, for many centuries, were tacitly accepted and which are now being

thoroughly revised in the light of philosophical and educational ideas coming from the West. We must also remember with regard to these experiments and observations that they should not be taken as evidence in the strict sense which belongs to the purer branches of exact knowledge, but that each of them simply has the value of observing all recorded experiences. It is above all in the fact that the experience of the author himself agrees with the experience of the educators of ancient India and that, on the other hand, it is justified by modern psychological concepts that the value of this series of experiences lies.

In this chapter we will limit ourselves to the discussion of some of the preliminary educational concepts based on our exposition of the personal factor. These concepts have been highlighted in different ways and at various times in my work. Treating them separately now will help us later to make a general discussion of the educational process clearer and more defined.

The background of the personality.

One of the most important concepts is what we might call the background or foundational aspect of students' personalities. Previously we tried to justify the conception of a pole of the retrospective, emotional, instinctive and subjective personal factor. And this pole, as we have seen, has more to do with synthesis than with analysis; it seeks the understanding of things as a whole and its main function is to grasp the relational aspect of a fact rather than the real and objective aspect of reality. It relates more to the global aspect or "gestalt" than to the separate analysis of traits and belongs more to the sphere of feeling than to that of reason. Going further, we will say that the character of rest or relaxation also concerns this foundational aspect and that its psychic quality is what we have tried to distinguish as being negative.

Suggestibility and extreme receptivity are other characteristics of the foundation aspect of the personality, as are inactivity and relaxation.

This aspect has appeared to me many times in my work with children. That children learn better when their attention is not forced: this is one of the first experiments that educators make. I have often noticed this in a class of young children made up of boys and girls aged five to seven. It often happened that the children were busy with other things while I was talking to them and, as a result, seemed distracted. But this distraction was in reality only apparent, as the questions I asked them showed me. On the contrary, if I forced their attention, their minds would soon fall asleep and they would start yawning. And if unfortunately I shouted to them: "Look here," it would become even worse. They forced themselves to listen but retained nothing of what was said to them and did not even understand. At these times, they could make the most basic mistakes ([\[1\]](#)). This experience, as well as others, compels us to believe that what we have called the foundation aspect holds an important place in the educational process. I noticed that this was particularly true of children under the age of eight. It is the generalized aspect of any teaching which is the most natural nourishment of childish intelligence rather than its logical or analytical aspect.

Let's take a concrete example. Once when I was trying to teach some basic science facts, particularly how water returns to its level, I showed the children a little experiment done using a rubber tube and a glass tube, and then tried to give them some explanations. But all these explanations seemed lost. The children took no interest in the logical nature of the thing. Only one boy was an exception and seemed to take pleasure in abstracting and searching for the law of individual facts. For the rest of the group, it was impossible. However, as I observed them more closely, I realized that they too had understood, but in a general and vague way and that they did not seek or could not express their thoughts explicitly. I repeated the experiment using another device and obtained from the children an exact response which revealed that knowledge had entered the child but that it did not find a form of expression there. Educational psychologists have already recognized this fact when they say that the impression precedes the expression ([2]). But the most important fact is that there are often impressions without there being expression and that the facts seem to be stored in the subconscious; this receptacle of information should reach a certain degree of fullness before the organization of knowledge takes place.

This is just one of the ways the foundation aspect has manifested itself to me. I will again take as an example the case of a young student from my Hindu school in Fernhill. He was a sickly little boy. During the first months following his arrival, I let him manage on his own, requiring no work from him, neglecting his studies in a way to avoid any fatigue. While I taught English to the others, he was busy looking at pictures or listening to his classmates reading. However, I had given him an English language study book, of which, after a while, he was unable to read the first word. No progress was yet felt. However, I continued to leave him to himself, quiet and listening to what was being said in the class. And now, after a period of about five months, he suddenly felt the desire to express himself. He began to learn, made rapid progress and made up for lost time so well that he was able to finish his first free at the same time as the others.

These two cases, as well as many others that I have observed, force me to think that it is possible for children to accumulate unorganized knowledge in the subconscious without there being, for a long time, any external manifestation, and that it is only at the moment when the subconscious receptacle has reached a certain degree of fullness that the organization of the acquired knowledge begins; and this, once started, is done quickly.

Sometimes it also happens that through lack of daily practice, knowledge which had already taken on a form of expression falls below the conscious level, in the foundation plane of childish intelligence. Here, for example, to illustrate this phenomenon, is the case of a seven-year-old girl who lived in England and spoke English fluently. She left this country and seemed to completely forget the language. Later, she was admitted to an international school where English was the official language. The influence of the new environment had the effect of bringing out all the expressions that were buried in the subconscious and the little girl began to use them with surprising ease. The suddenness of this phenomenon is sufficient proof for us to be able to affirm that this knowledge had never ceased to exist in the child, but in a potential or latent form in

what we have called the foundation aspect of the personal factor. The child herself recognized this fact and showed complete surprise at the sudden revelation of this phenomenon. Influenced by the new atmosphere, the stored knowledge passed a certain level and, freeing itself from the inhibiting forces, found itself ready to be used.

A similar case occurred with a four-year-old boy who, although his father was English, spoke only French at home. He was taken into an English school where he saw himself surrounded by children and adults speaking English. At the end of the first year, he still only spoke French. I was absent during the two months of summer vacation and when I returned, I was surprised to find that he spoke English fluently and naturally and that he had a vocabulary large enough to express all the things of ordinary life. The transition from one language to another had been so abrupt that it could not have gone unnoticed and many people noticed it. It is obvious that the process had been gradual, but whatever he had learned, the child had retained it without outward manifestation until his personal level of inhibition had been overcome.

The first phase, that of the accumulation of knowledge, takes place below a certain defined level and can be compared to the piling up of materials below the water level, which will allow a construction to rise. The accumulation of materials will go unnoticed until the surface of the water is reached. What we need to recognize is that a certain personal psychic level must be reached before the natural conversion from a receptive disposition to an expressive disposition takes place. And even more, this level varies depending on the type of individual, and that each individual has a very personal way of learning before reaching the level of public expression.

The above observation can profoundly influence teaching methods by leading us to believe that, in the first phase of understanding a subject, no real need is felt to present it in a methodical or logical manner. Already, in these principles, pragmatic education (which we will talk about below) revolts against the impersonal or logical method ([\[3\]](#)). Let the teacher leave aside the logical aspect and instead of being guided by the logical order of the facts presented, he should rather be guided by the personal preferences of the students. I had this experience when I was teaching English to my students in my Hindu school. I realized that an artificially or logically designed method prevented children from even progressing while they benefited from freely presented words or materials. This method can be compared to that used by the engineer who erects a construction in the sea. It is only when the blocks of cement thrown out without order have reached the surface of the water that he will begin to build in a methodical manner. The way of absorbing knowledge in the first stages of teaching depends above all on the personality of the student.

The quantitative aspect of the knowledge foundation also depends on the person. A child whose activities are restricted will begin to speak a new language with all the more confidence, while an older and more cultured person, whose interests are necessarily more extensive, will naturally take more time to be able to express themselves. In the case of the Anglo-Swiss boy mentioned

above, we would quickly realize by observing him that the knowledge of English that he possesses is not very extensive quantitatively. The slightest change in expression disturbs him. He began to speak without having a large choice of words at his disposal. For another person of my acquaintance, it took much longer before she had enough confidence to try to express herself, not because she had a poorer background of expressions than the little boy but on the contrary because her foundational content was greater. Among my students too, I knew several who differed from each other in the quantitative capacity of this foundation. Two of them in particular were entirely opposed; two young sixteen-year-old Americans, a young girl and a boy. The young girl H., very adept at learning a new language, began to speak French after two months of study. Very good at grammar, she enjoyed conjugating the main verbs and could give correct examples. It was not the same for the young boy M. He found no interest in grammar and refused to work in class, so much so that after a year he was almost incapable of composing a sentence correctly. And yet he too had a great desire to learn French and, in reality, he learned it in his own way, by reading and listening, but did not feel confident enough in himself to try to express himself.

A more careful examination would have revealed to us that the young girl whose progress was so rapid had only few expressions. A superficial imitator, her knowledge was quickly routed when the subject of the conversation was out of the ordinary.

However, M. continued to read in French without yet wanting to try to speak. It was only after more than a year, during a walk that we both took in the countryside, that he finally decided to express himself in French.

The step was taken. Since then, I often heard him speaking in the new language and was amazed at the ease with which he expressed himself. His vocabulary was much richer than that of H. and he was more sensitive to French expressions and pronunciation. According to our classification in Chapter VI, the young girl would be of an objective positive type while the young boy would rather respond to the subjective negative type. The quality and quantity of the foundation aspect would be greater in young men than in young girls.

This is how we can conceive in intelligence a foundation or background aspect as distinct and of a different level from a foreground which both would have their defined capacity and would vary according to the individuals.

Levels of personal reaction.

The very marked distinction which exists between an individual reaction and a collective reaction, that is to say between a private reaction and a public reaction, reveals to us a difference of the same kind as that which we have already studied between the aspect of foundation and the aspect of one's own intelligence. Both confirm the concept of the polarization of trends that we have already noted. A teacher only has to observe the daily reactions of his students to recognize

that there are distinct levels of reaction. A child who reacts naturally and easily when alone will react in a completely different way when in company. And the larger the group, the more difficult it will be for the child to free himself from inhibiting forces. This is what we can frequently observe in class where we see that intelligent children have more difficulty than others in using their abilities because they have a greater feeling of collective responsibility. We also commonly recognize this phenomenon of the difference in reaction levels in what is commonly called "stage fright". It often happens that a child who has conscientiously prepared a recitation at home is unable to say it in class when he sees himself in front of the group of his classmates: the knowledge then seems to drown in the subconscious or, if you like, in the very depths of the personality due to the fact that the level of the collective reaction is higher or more positive than that of the individual reaction. A music teacher was telling me about the experience she had teaching scales to a group of children. During the first five days of the week, she used to give a separate lesson to each of the children, then on the sixth day, she brought them all together for a group lesson. After a year of work, she could see, based on the results obtained, that what the child knew well in the private lesson, he knew less well in the collective lesson and that, generally speaking, the level of perfection was lowered in the latter. This experience shows us the nature of the personal levels in a conclusive way because the exercise was very simple and the same teacher was present in both cases. It is therefore not to the presence of the teacher that we can attribute the difference in reaction but to that of the number of students.

The smaller the child, the more natural it is for him to remain within the limits of the private level of his personality. And, although he often happens to be in contact with several people, his reactions cannot be considered purely childish. Only in a few children can we observe the childish reaction in its primitive state. I observed it in a three-year-old girl. She looked around her with that look of little ones which reveals their souls. When a stranger approached, she showed a complete lack of will, refusing even to smile or show the slightest surprise, only to start babbling like another child again as soon as she found herself alone with her mother; and like that of another child, his expression was then normal, relaxed, full of rest. Here, in contrast to the case of this little girl, is that of a little American girl T., also three years old, but who seems more advanced. She talks a lot and uses difficult words. She appears to be in contact with several people. And yet, when examined closely, this case does not differ much from the previous one; we realize that the act of relating to several people is only apparent and that, while she speaks to those around her, she is actually relating to only one person. If the latter prepares to leave, she immediately senses it and shows displeasure. By her babbling, she only imitates her mother who is constantly with her. His words are not linked to external events but are only the reflections of a subjective feeling with no special relationship with the external world; like a kind of poetry, they are the simple products of his imagination. Any examination of child behavior highlights the same trait of extreme negativity, subjectivity and lack of personal connection with several people at the same time.

Some special situations have also confirmed this same trait of the childish personality, namely that it is out of the nature of children to enter into relationships with several people at the same time. When, for example, circumstances force them to enter into contact with a group, they protest in their own way by showing their discontent. A four-year-old American girl, in the presence of everyone at her school, dropped a pair of scissors. At the sound, all eyes turned towards her. The little girl, although this was not her habit, began to cry, not as one might think because the noise had frightened her, but because she was angry and she refused to be the object of the attention of so many people. She left the room in protest. Here again, confirming our view, is the case of a four-year-old boy, from the same school as the little American girl. It was during the morning meeting. The person chairing the meeting, for some reason, happened to mention his name. It didn't take much for the little boy, feeling eyes on him, to start crying. Another time, the same child was in a room where a few other boys were playing together. The game consisted of jumping over a rope moved by one of them each time it came within range. Our four-year-old boy wanted to try to do like the others, but without success. Succeeding or not was usually pretty much all the same to him. But on this particular occasion, it was different. And because he felt himself becoming the center of attention, he was so disconcerted that he began to cry and ran to the mistress who was taking care of him. Ashamed, he hid his head in the welcoming arms and sobbed as if he would never be consoled.

We find the same difference among the oldest; there are children whose nature makes them capable of acting in a group while others will find any collective activity difficult. So we see that this ability depends on the type of individual in question as well as the age of the student. For a child of the type we have called the negative-subjective type, public adjustment will be more difficult than for a child of the positive-objective type. This is one of the facts which has a very great repercussion in the educational art. If we want each student to occupy his place in the scale of variation of personal adjustment, we must give him the environment which will allow him to have natural reactions. To one, the pedagogue will have to give a rather individual treatment, to another a rather collective treatment in order to delay or accelerate the process of positive adjustment of tendencies. Obviously the pedagogue's way of being will depend on the goal towards which he directs the growth of the child's personality. This relationship between the educational goal and the adjustment of personal tendencies will be the subject of another chapter.

The personal rhythm of progressive adjustment.

The concept of a rhythm of progressive adjustment in the educational process is closely related to the concept of levels of personal reaction.

All parents know that their children make progress in very clear and well-defined stages. Even the first stage of the expressive development of the child's faculties has a sudden character. Rousseau writes: "The first developments of childhood occur almost all at once. The child learns to speak, to eat, to walk at approximately the same time" ([4]). What is true of the first stage of

growth is also true of the stages that follow. This is a fact that modern psychology well recognizes. On this subject, Claparède writes as follows: “What is particularly interesting from our point of view, in this evolution of growth, is the abruptness of these fits and starts, of these crises, of these sudden ascents, which often follow a period of perfect calm. Each sudden rise in the curve is preceded by a flattening out which seems to bear witness to the effort that the body is going to make or has just made. Before the crisis, a period of rest; it is as if the organism were moving backwards, gathering itself together to jump better; then comes the leap, the explosion, it seems as if some mysterious blow of a blowtorch has set all the vital forces ablaze; finally, after, the phase of exhaustion: out of breath, the body, as if conscious of its effort, allows itself a well-deserved rest” ([5]).

The diurnal alternation of emotional states.

In order to regulate his teaching method, the teacher will have to recognize another kind of rhythm; the rhythm of the emotional state of the tendencies, more easily observable than that of the progressive adjustment which we have just spoken of because of the short duration of the cycle which composes it. It is therefore the alternation of diurnal emotional states that we are now concerned with.

From intimate knowledge of the emotional life of several students, I can conclude that there is a marked contrast in the child between the state of mind of the morning and that of the evening as well as between that of the day and that of the night. Some cases that I observed will support what I am saying:

Here is the case of F..., a tall and strong seven-year-old boy, whose precision of expression was astonishing for his age. Of Swiss-German parents, the lack of a very happy family life had perhaps acted on his nature in a way detrimental to his emotional and mental growth. Early after his admission to a boarding school, he was overcome by bouts of nostalgia. He would start crying for no apparent cause. When questioned, he told us that he missed an aunt. The state of depression was so marked that once the crying attack had passed, the child would begin to laugh at himself, saying with a certain touch of humor: “There, the illness is over now.” he was then so self-possessed that he could mock his weakness and counterfeit it. After a few days, the bouts of nostalgia diminished and only reappeared under certain conditions. During the morning he was completely normal. This bout of nostalgia was only taken after lunch when he was in a state of rest, relaxation and most often in the evening. I noticed this state of depression once in the afternoon, never in the morning.

A child's preferences in his activities reveal to us his emotional state. Our young F. enjoyed playing and fighting with the other children in the morning. This changed in the afternoon. In the evening, he showed a marked preference for stories: the state of emotion moved from the prospective phase to the retrospective or regret phase. This change of state of mind was clearly marked in the child's behavior. He found that he preferred to be told stories when he was already

in bed, saying “that he loved listening to them so much before going to sleep”. he also called for sad, tragic or cruel stories like, for example, that of Bluebeard.

I also observed a young English girl of sixteen in whom the change in emotional state occurred suddenly and whose states of depression and elevation were very marked. Strongly attached to one of the boarding school mistresses, the manifestations of his affection turned against the mistress and often took the form of attacks of a sadistic or masochistic character which could sometimes be very violent, and which, even in a softened form, appeared in the afternoon and generally continued late into the evening. If by chance this hyper-emotional state manifested itself in the morning, it was easy for me to attribute it to fatigue, to lack of sleep from the previous night. The favorable period for this emotional excitement was certainly the afternoon. The change would be very noticeable; while the girl was very active, very lively and intelligent in the morning, after lunch her emotional state worsened until bedtime. This rhythmic alternation was repeated regularly. I observed her for two years.

Apart from these somewhat abnormal cases, I observed in different groups of children the same phenomenon of diurnal alternation of emotional states. I was struck by the students’ preferences in choosing subjects and their activities at different times of the day. This is how a grammar lesson or a new chapter of mathematics will be more easily learned early in the morning when the brain is fresh. In my experimental school at Fernhill, I often let the children set their own time-related topics of study and found that they preferred the difficult lessons requiring reasoning for the early hours of the morning. I tried to accommodate their request and realized that the difficult lessons were indeed more appreciated at that time of the day than in the afternoon. On the contrary, my experiences in a night school which I directed for three years in the city of Madras brought me the complementary truth of this fact. I had all the difficulty in the world teaching my students exact or analytical knowledge. They tended to relax after the tension. Stories, tales, poetry: these were the favorite subjects then.

The existence of a sort of rhythmic alternation in the progression of the educational process is a truth that the teacher must recognize. That is to say, he must carefully choose the favorable moment for his teaching depending on whether he simply wishes to make an impression on the student's mind or, on the contrary, ask the student to express himself. This will require a close relationship between teacher and student and, moreover, a certain flexibility in the school rules. It will also be necessary for the relationships between teacher and students to be of a truly “personal” character, as opposed to official, commercial or collective relationships. That is to say, these relationships must fulfill the conditions of bi-polarity already mentioned in as strict a sense as possible.

What we have said about the alternation of emotional states during the day is a fact that many writers have recognized, as have the popular traditions of various countries. A mother, after putting her child to bed, puts him to sleep with a song or a story characterized by their negative,

retrospective quality which will often be a reminiscence of the primitive history of the race. But on the contrary, the sportsman will prefer the morning hours to go hunting: it is the natural time for adventure, for prospective or positive action. A student will work better in preparing for an exam early in the morning because it is then the favorable time for all intellectual as well as physical effort. This is a favorable time for any activity involving tension, conscious and volitional activity. We also recognize that physical and intellectual well-being are greater when we go to bed early in the evening. Through proverbs such as “burning the candle at both ends”, popular traditions recognize the succession or natural sequence of states of the soul at different times of the day.

Outside of popular tradition there is also medical science which recognizes a rhythmic alternation of physiological states.

The waxing and waning of circulation during the day and the lowering of body temperature towards night are fairly well-recognized facts.

Among the psychologists we will only cite Jules Payot who, in his work “The Education of the Will” ([\[6\]](#)), speaks of the effort and laziness of the morning: “We must not, however, exaggerate the time of bed rest for two reasons: it is that usually prolonged beyond the necessary time and variable with each person, sleep “thickens the blood”. The whole morning is spoiled: we are gloomy, indolent, sad. We get cold easily, we are impressionable. But this is not the most serious disadvantage of rest. It can be stated as an absolute rule, without exception, that any student who lazes in bed very late, who remains there long after waking up, invincibly sinks into exhausting habits. Tell me what time you get up and I’ll tell you if you’re naughty.”

In the Hindu tradition this alternation has also been recognized since very ancient times. Even in the Vedic scriptures there is talk of a Brahmachari (or religious student) who must strictly observe the rule of getting up early in the morning. This is the best time for intellectual work. According to Vedic terminology a few hours of the early morning are distinguished under the name “Brahmamuhurtha”. We will also notice in very ancient Hindu scriptures several other details which corroborate the same alternation of states between morning and evening. For example, there is a subtle distinction to be made between the attitudes of prayer in the mornings and in the evenings. The “Brahmachari” must remain standing in the morning and is allowed to sit in the evening (Cf. Keay, Ancient Indian Education, Oxford, p. 33). From all this we can conclude that in education we should recognize that there are two distinct phases in the personal states of the same day and this will not only influence the orders and regulations which concern the school timetable but also the natural development of the personalities of the students by following the natural rhythm and by intelligently modifying the sequence of daily activities. I can see, from my own experiences over several years in my experimental school, at Fernhill, that the rule of rising early in the morning had an unquestionably wholesome and healthful effect on the growth and development of the boys' personalities; and this especially among adolescent

boys. I not only had the opportunity to compare the periods in which this rule was observed with other periods, but I was able to make the same comparisons with another group of children who lived in approximately the same conditions. I note that this habit cultivated over several months had some fairly objective effects. Students' faces became clearer and circulation and general health improved. Intelligence also became sharper. This discrepancy was once recorded about a group of my students in an official Department of Education inspection report. It was possible, through a cultivation of this habit, to influence and modify the growth of the personality of the students.

The need for a complete reaction.

The need for a complete reaction in the process of education is one of the other preliminary questions which we should examine before arriving at a study of personal relationships. It is through an understanding of the nature of the complementary and compensatory activities, which give a response its complete character, that we can see the true role of a personal educator; for both the childish thirst for complete reactions and the desire for personal relationships are expressions of the same need which lies at the basis of childish growth.

We found in our examination of personal tendencies that we were justified in regarding natural activity as related to either of the two poles we postulated. The activity of one pole is offset by the activity of the other which is its natural counterpart. This rule applies not only to parts or aspects of natural chains of activity or different phases of functioning, but also to simpler phenomena such as that of perception which have an emotional side. An intellectual effort is followed, in the student, by instinctive states, analytical functioning is followed by a synthesis, a state of physical or psychological tension is followed by a state of relaxation. At the basis of this compensation there is always the principle of ambivalence that we discussed above. Thus the activity by two groups of compensatory and complementary activities which work simultaneously.

This fact is of great importance in education and will help solve problems of methods in general. To channel spontaneous interest, to obtain the fixation of attention on any subject, to arouse the best effort of the pupils with a view to a given work, the most essential condition is to facilitate the reaction in a situation as complete as possible, and this will be done not only by bringing to the foreground of thought the object on which the reaction should be directed, but by creating at the same time a large quantity of superimposed associations which enrich the background of thought. This requires that the educator not only be someone who presents a subject in a scientific way, but also be like a poet or like an artist, capable of representing it in some way with a body, a form, of evoking it in an environment, or with a background, which will always remain linked, by their nature, to an individual situation, to a relationship that will be created between the educator and his students. Without this background the subject will only remain as a phantom of reality, which only gives a partial reaction, which is one of the causes of all kinds of

harmful situations in teaching. There is nothing that troubles and tortures a child more than a partial presentation of thought.

The foreground will consist of the logical or analytical aspect of a theme, and the background will be more related to reminiscences, memories, personal emotions. Even a reality, or a concrete theme, belonging to the physical world, can be looked at from these two points of view. There is in it a synthetic, global, mystical or poetic side and a logical, analytical or scientific side ([7]).

However, it must be admitted that it is not always easy to clearly find a means of compensation or complement for a given reaction. It is one thing to recognize this principle of compensation theoretically, and quite another thing to establish a rule for the application of this principle in daily teaching because the number of possible variations is infinite. This is what some philosophers and writers have already brought out. The German school of “Gestalt Psychology” recognized the role that form or structure plays in the activity of perception ([8]).

The form can be considered as a complement to the pure (or abstract) idea. This conception of a complementary relationship between the idea and the form of a thing gives us the simple basis of any classification to determine the complementary and compensatory aspects of which we have spoken. Kant makes the same distinction between a fact given a priori, namely the “phenomenon” (or object), and an aspect given a posteriori which he calls the “matter” of this phenomenon. These two aspects are both related to the same “phenomenon” which is at the basis of the empirical aspect of an object (1). Hindu philosophy also has the same classification of aspects of the world of phenomena. The two classifications are: Nâma or name, and Rûpâ or Form. Creation is the result of Nâma-Rûpâ. It is not important to discuss here whether there is a strict correspondence between the different terms of the different schools of thought. It will be enough for us to recognize that there are two different aspects that relate to the same phenomenon. Our relationship to the phenomenon, and consequently our reaction towards it, thus finds itself having a double side: one in relation to our instincts and our emotions and the other, intellectual or scientific strictly speaking. A complete response should consider both aspects in a natural or harmonious way, and this is the main role of a personal educator.

We only have to observe the activities of groups of children to be convinced that they are always seeking the complete reactions we have spoken of. In sports, in the activities of an active school, in the intellectual work that interests him, an observant educator can find a thousand different ways in which children combine, according to their own personality, the two types of reaction that we have mentioned. We can see these two types represented in all sports that are in favor among children. There we will find a group of purely physical activities, which satisfy the competitive or combat instincts and on the other side there will be abstract or intellectual work which finds its satisfaction in races, sometimes very complicated. General interest in sport depends on both types of activities equally. The best sports not only determine an open activity, but exercise memory, abstract intelligence, etc. There are rivalries which come into play with the

need for co-operation: there is the possibility for certain individual abilities to be exercised together with the desire to conform to a rule, which makes very different levels of the personality act at the same time.

We find it almost impossible to distinguish by a straight line the limit of one kind of interest from another. As Dr. Ed. Claparède writes about the Theory of complementary exercise (or compensation) of the game: "It is true that in this or that particular case, it is difficult to distinguish the improvement by the deployment of new powers... These two processes, one gymnastic, the other genetic, intertwine their effects, and we are most often unaware of what is due to one and what is due to the other. We cannot deny, however, that they belong to two radically different spheres, that they each tend towards opposite points, constituting like the two poles between which the activity of living beings oscillates: the sphere of automatism, of mechanization, of habit, whose principle is the repetition of the old, and the sphere of plasticity, of adaptation, whose principle is the creation of the new, variation, the blossoming of new potentialities. (Pages 441-442, Child Psychology). Concerning ordinary work I had the opportunity, in a boarding school, to make continuous observations on a group of children, who were busy washing dishes. I can make a generalization about student behavior. They were never happy to sing, to talk, to do stupid things of all kinds to find a way to compensate for their one-sided activity. They were easily willing to sing. The same need presented itself in the general school meetings which took place for half an hour each morning. It was impossible for the children to feel at ease when they found no other activity than seeing or listening. Then we discussed the question of tranquility in a general meeting and it resulted from this discussion that the majority really felt the need for subsidiary activity. Since then it has been allowed for children to do other things while listening. A few, especially girls, brought their knitting. The smallest children, who did not understand much of what was happening in the meetings, were allowed to play with pencils and a piece of paper. By this means the difficulty was resolved; we could see that instead of distracting the children's attention, such activities on the contrary improved it, making the children more attentive than before. The alternation and division of occupation were more natural for them and resulted in putting them at ease while thus giving better results. In the teaching of a class this principle of complete reactions takes on quite great importance. If we examine the method and art employed by a teacher to make his instruction attractive to the eyes of the pupils, we will find in most cases that it is the principle of complete reactions which lies at the basis of all these methods. We put manual work side by side with intellectual work. There is a need to appeal to instinctive emotions and interests. The public aspects of an issue are combined with the private or personal aspects. The analytical tendency of investigation is united with the synthetic tendency; the concrete aspects alternate in the treatment with the abstract aspects and any partial reference is linked to show the whole. Even in a piece of music or a dramatic composition we find the attempt to make the reactions as complete as possible. The secret of the interest lies in the success with which this mixture of various elements is carried out by the author. What is true in art is also true in the art of education. It is in this creative work of a teacher that personality comes into play.

As is already recognized in Herbart's educational theory, it is by means of a right union or fusion of past ideas with newly presented ideas that apperceptions are produced. The subject matter expands not only in the present and immediately, but also in the past and the future. With regard to knowledge that is a little distant from that which is linked to the past and the future, the educator plays the role of an intermediary. It is part of his art, in fact, to know how to insert the past, the present and the future into complete and personal images or representations.

Personification.

The true means by which the child's intelligence works, when it needs to learn even a fairly objective thing, is to put itself in the place of the object itself. There is undoubtedly an identification at the basis of all intellectual sympathy and this identification is the means by which the child seeks to have complete reactions which are the most important thing in retaining a natural interest. This identification of the child with the object he is trying to understand is the basis of the almost universal instinct of imitation in children. Identification and imitation find natural help in the personification of things which is also a very widespread characteristic among children. This fact is quite clearly established by Auguste Lemaître ([\[9\]](#)). Let us briefly examine this phenomenon of personification and its role in teaching to show how the need for personification and the need for personal relationships relate to the need for complete reactions.

It is worth recalling here that this phenomenon of personification is a fairly common thing, among adults themselves, in our race. Even in the cultured world there is a persistent need for some form of personal God. Not only the church, but also the state makes use of this instinct of personification. The motherland is often personified as a feminine person. The seasons are often represented by personal images. Even an inanimate object, such as a mountain or a river, is easily represented in popular language as a person. This tendency is observed more generally among certain nations or races than others. With the Hindus for example, this tendency is so exaggerated that we can say that it is one of the traits of the national character. Every mountain, every river is for a Hindu a personal god or goddess. Even for a French or Swiss peasant it is a completely natural thing to see human forms in the outline of Mont Blanc. It is not only popular collective thought that employs personification in its thinking, but also the individual who is deprived of personal relationships for a long time. An elderly lady, who lives alone, often personifies the things with which she is in constant contact. It can be an animal, a tree or even any piece of furniture that she personifies. This type of people is quite widespread. It is especially in literature that this primitive need for personification finds its legitimate place. We only have to examine the great place given to this mode of figurative expression, which represents, directly or indirectly, poetry or fable, to be convinced of the great role that personification plays in the thinking of people and especially among children.

However, this means of making a subject attractive must be used intelligently for instructive purposes. If the use of this means in a particular lesson is justified with children of a certain age

or of a certain personal level, it may be a retrograde means or measure with others. The more positively adjusted the thought, the less the need to use this measure. It is again a matter of finding and establishing a means between natural interest and effort which vary according to each current case. The rule for using this means is that it must be used when there is a real need to retain the reactions produced by teaching in a global manner. We will examine some typical cases of the use of personifications. The need for the use of personification is felt to a greater degree in the treatment of abstract subjects. In a grammar lesson we can advantageously use personification. In explaining the difference between a noun and a pronoun we can say that these are the people who take the place of nouns when they are absent. When explaining the relationships or affinities between the elements in a chemistry lesson to young children, we can hardly prevent the use of personification. Oxygen is a gas always ready to make new friends, while nitrogen is an indifferent and lazy gas. In the teaching of mathematics, the direct use of this means is more limited. Auguste Lemaître, in his work mentioned above, gives examples of students who personify simple arithmetic quantities. This shows that even when teaching abstract numbers many children find a natural need for personification. However, it is at the stage of arithmetic problems that the use of personification is applied by the child in a more indirect and slightly more complicated form, the nature of which we will examine immediately.

When instead of a simple event or thing, there is a series of simple events or things in a situation or in a problem to be understood or solved, personification is still naturally used by students. Here it is a central person who unites events and things into an organic system that the students seek to find in a complete reaction. They are looking for a center of personal interest here. If the first class of personification belongs to words, we can say that this personification belongs to sentences or series of sentences whose events are united with the help of an imaginary person. It is no longer a personification in a literary sense, but rather a personification for a psychological need of the child (need for united and complete reactions). To obtain and give continuity to a narrative, the different concepts want to be linked to a central image. The events of a problem with enough reality to begin to solve it. The whole problem must be easy to envisage, and in this respect there is nothing which helps the child to visualize events more than bringing them together around some random person. A child recognizes the difference when a teacher says, "The prices of the following items are this or that," instead of saying, "Yesterday I was at the market and I bought such and such a quantity of something at such and such a price, etc.." The last form is what we distinguish as personified narration for which the person of the educator is the center. During my work I often found the children incapable of thinking about the presentation of a subject in an impersonal way. It was only the inability to put together the different aspects of a subject that prevented them from understanding and this difficulty was easily overcome when I used my personality as a synthetic factor to facilitate the child's thinking. In arithmetic problems such as we have mentioned, I have found it quite unnecessary to lay emphasis on the things mentioned. These are not the things that are hardest to visualize; it is the actions and relationships related to the problem that are difficult for the child to visualize. We can finally say that when actions and relationships are related to a person already familiar to

children, they find it easy to put their own personality in the place of this familiar person and there follows, in their imagination, a succession of rapid experiences which are the equivalent of their own experiences. Understanding is thus aided by the means of transfer from one person to another.

In the teaching of history and geography, this need for personal “mediation” becomes more true than ever. Let's take geography for the moment. It often happens that children in a class take an indirect or weak interest in things or countries that are very far from them. It is true that images and a map or a collection of postage stamps can indirectly facilitate the awakening of an interest in children for a distant country, but these means do not have as much effect as a person who represents for them the spirit of travel or adventure or exploration. If they have traveled a lot themselves this will be the best solution. The same principle is true in history: instead of emphasizing things and tools like images of ruins or archaeological remains, the center of instruction should be around a historical personality for each era. It is true that a visit to a place of historical importance will often facilitate and stimulate among pupils an interest in a state of affairs of a period of times gone by, but the facts which leave an indelible impression on the brains of children are the personal accounts. The image of Nero playing his instrument when Rome was in flames, or the private life of Henry VIII of England, arouses much more interest than a more generalized or impersonal subject. This personal interest needs to be mixed with impersonal facts in a proportion that will be different for each student. It is in this work that the personal mediation of an educator, who knows his students intimately, becomes necessary and a natural condition in teaching.

I once found myself in the company of young students of art and architecture who were traveling to Italy to come into direct contact with the specimens of art or architecture they were studying. When they were interested in the personality of an artist, like Leonardo da Vinci or Palladio, then, and only then, did I find that they took a real interest in the works and naturally sought information. The image of a past era became for them more real and more alive by means of a personality and I found that the anecdotes relating to the private lives of the characters had in this sense a role at least as important as the historical facts themselves. The comments made and the evidence of interest were convincing in this regard. From the questions asked we could also conclude that it was around the characters themselves that the associations were formed and that it was on them that their memory depended.

In the study of literature this necessity of having a personal image behind the thoughts is truer than one supposes. In poetry, for example, we seek to obtain the detailed world of an author's personal life. Details, like the house he lived in, the feathers he held, become very interesting and are used for all kinds of deductions. The style of an author is such a personal thing and reflects the soul of the writer so well that an unknown and indefinable interest attaches itself to the style of a writer. The image of an author, his face, the appearance of his eyes are the things that are described especially in literary biographies. The eagerness with which people seek to have an

interview with one poet or another is in itself a fact evident enough to show how the need for personal knowledge is felt by everyone in connection with a writer of note. In the teaching of literature, we use the means of finding a typical author for each era around whom other, more theoretical information will be concentrated. It is a mode of literary teaching, in which personal image plays its role. Even in literary subjects it is necessary to recognize the large place occupied by personal characters. Drama, fiction, poetry, fable and stories are full of personal portraits. They are the central stones in literary interest. Even in fables and stories that make use of subhuman characters, we often find the use of personification as a means of maintaining interest. A talking tree, an animal making a speech are quite common in fables and stories, and this shows us the inevitability of personal interest to obtain any intimate interest in literary works. In modern books for children we often find the application of this principle. The intelligent employment of this principle of personification to make the reactions complete and to give a natural picture to fill the background of thought in ordinary teaching is one of the first means of obtaining a natural interest in a subject and, as we have already said, of retaining a continuing interest. This means can help to invigorate interest and imagination. Several teachers I know use this method unconsciously. I have often employed this means, either in the form of a simple personification or a more complicated personification, as in the cases cited below, and always have found it very useful. Even in scientific subjects it is often useful to use it. For example, instead of talking about the qualities of a gas, we can use an imaginary or personal story, in which scientific facts find a natural place without being just an enumeration in a logical order. We can tell a story in which a man kills himself, asphyxiated by carbonic acid, instead of saying, as is often the case, that he does not sustain life. The real secret of interest lies in the fact that the experience which belongs to the past of an individual, is felt by another individual through this one. The child's understanding is easier when he is able to put himself in the place of a more experienced person. This is the principle of identification already recognized by writers like John Dewey ([\[10\]](#)). In the execution of tasks thus designed, there are complete reactions, with foundation or background images, obtained by direct or indirect personification, which is the most useful and natural aid for children.

All teaching involves the assumption that the teacher represents the experience that is to be taught to the students, but it goes without saying that the teacher, even the most educated or learned, cannot represent every possible experience. Thus he needs to rely on the experience of others to complete his own experience, and through the experiences of others, indirectly, he has an experience for himself. The task in education is to transfer a set of such experiences to a less experienced person. Without the means of such transfer of experience, the child will have a great waste of his efforts before he can reach the same level as others who are helped by the experiences of adults. In addition, he will be confronted with an immense quantity of experiences, which the surrounding environment contains, - and will be lost in an immensity without order and without system; and the acquisition of experiences in such a varied way, will inevitably encounter several difficulties and errors. This is how the need for an educator naturally arises. In relation to the educator and his personality, any experience ipso facto gains a system,

an order, a regulation of one kind or another. The condition of a bi-polar relationship in education being thus accomplished, then begins a gradual exchange of experiences from one pole to the other. This is how the personality of an educator helps the process of osmosis in the transfer of experience ([11]).

We see how it becomes important, even in the daily teaching of a class, that an intimate relationship is established between the teacher and the student. It is this intimate relationship which must be the means of communication between the two poles. In my work I have always tried to keep my relations with my pupils as close and as personal as possible, and the task of teaching thereby became a much easier thing than before. The secret was to always bring all the teaching material back to myself. I shared in detail my personal feelings and thoughts at each stage and brought out theirs. This is how the lessons became real for the children and equal pleasure for both parties.

What a teacher can do with his students is to continually use his own personality to materialize the abstract ideas he wants to transmit to them. In his personality he has the means of relating his own past to the possible future of his students and thus of forming in their minds a natural synthesis of the development of life. Such a synthesis is organic. In addition, it is adapted to the needs of students of different ages.

To take a very simple example: suppose we want to teach a child how to tell the time on a watch. A theoretical and mathematical description, although very simple, would have the disadvantage that the child cannot experience the events without waiting. Even when the separate events are known individually, the mechanism of the watch is understood, the relationship, for example, between the hour hand and the minute hand, the problem of reading the time often remains unresolved for the child. The question still remains what a watch can have to do with morning and evening, etc. My own experience has been that the easiest and most direct method of explaining this relationship to children has been to stimulate the child's imagination by a spontaneous influence of the personality of the teacher. Tell them about a small personal incident in which you create a vivid connection between yourselves, the simple events of a day you experienced, and the appearance of the clock face. We see that the difficulty is thus easily overcome thanks to the interposition of the personality of the teacher, the factor which most helped the child to understand.

This case is representative. It is for this reason that a teacher, who is not particularly gifted in intellectual capacity, sometimes has more success with his students than another more brilliant one.

If we can tell a student that we had the same difficulties as him in solving certain problems in mathematics and that we found such an effective way to solve them, this will not only help him in a sympathetic way but in a way that we could say organic.

The function of the teacher with regard to the student is therefore to make possible an organic exchange of thought, an exchange born of sympathy. In teaching, the most important factor is perhaps this vibration of sympathy between the student and the teacher which is moreover a consequence of the establishment of relationships between animals and their young, between the child and the mother who unconsciously opens her mouth to teach him to eat. The phenomenon of imitation, so pronounced among children, is another aspect of this sympathy of natural relationships between personalities of different ages.

In ancient Indian education the need to obtain this organic sympathy was well understood, and publicly recognized by rituals between master and student, preliminary to the process of education. The following quote, from a writer from the year 500 BC, testifies, despite its unscientific language, to the importance of this element in education.

“Clasping the master's left hand with his right hand, but leaving his thumb free, the student will address his teacher saying: “Honored Master, please teach me.” he will concentrate his eyes and mind on the master. He will touch the seat of the senses with the herb “kusa”. He will hold his breath for the fifteen-minute period. And he will sit on the grass “kusa” whose leaves turn towards the east... Every morning he will have to kiss the master's feet; he will also do at the beginning and at the end of a lesson on the Veda...”, etc...

The transfer of personal attitudes.

There is another aspect of childhood life which we must mention in these preliminary discussions. This is the fact that children, because of their very nature, more easily assimilate the global and personal elements of a thought than its intellectual character. Children are mostly imitators. Little ones imitate big ones in their attitudes, even more than in their actions. There is a continual unconscious transference between children themselves and especially between adults and children. One doctor said that children are like sponges in their ability to assimilate moral and spiritual intellectual influences. Anyone reading this study, especially those dealing with young people, will have in their minds countless examples of these phenomena. I myself would like to cite two or three which particularly struck me. I remember a little girl of seven who imitated the attitudes of a boy a little older than her, and who was cross-eyed. Another little girl of eight years old imitated the pronunciation and the smallest movements and attitudes of a companion three years older than her. A twelve-year-old boy I knew admired a sixteen-year-old boy as a hero. After a year in boarding school the big boy left school. The young friend automatically fills the void thus created. The big one had the responsibility of sounding the trumpet and the bell for the beginning and end of the lessons; after his departure the young boy resumed and continued these duties with the same exactitude and above all in the same manner as his friend. But this precision which characterized all the activities in which the younger imitated the older was entirely absent from his other actions. And his imitation of the elder was also found in curious practices like the following: the big boy had the habit, in "football", when

he missed the ball falling to the ground to express his disappointment; the youngest adopted this habit and continued it for more than a year after the eldest had left the boarding school.

This imitation of an attitude has a very marked effect on the acquisition of a language in children. They first learn the words and sentences that express the emotions of these attitudes. For example, a child learning English will start with phrases like "I don't care" or "Get away." A little Dutch girl who was trying to speak English had a repertoire of phrases like "I don't have to," "I don't like to," and others like that.

One of the greatest objections in teaching children in the classroom is the fact that the teacher and his pupils are forced to take the opposite attitudes: those of teaching and learning. This opposition adds to the already quite artificial conditions of the classroom. At my experimental school in Fernhill (India), I spent several hours of the day studying in the same room as the children. Everyone strictly observed silence and naturally occupied themselves with studying too. When I was well absorbed in my task, I always found when I came out of my concentration that everyone else was in a similar concentration.

The possibilities of setting such examples oneself for students to imitate unconsciously are a great potential strength for education in the hands of a teacher who recognizes and employs them. It is not only the concrete form which will support the idea, which is thus given to the child, it is the psychological attitude itself which can be transmitted to them too, and this is perhaps even more important than that in contributing to the stability of the progress of the student in his intellectual and spiritual growth. It is also a factor in physical life. The cat teaches her young to hunt mice by doing it herself in front of them. Hunting dogs let themselves be led by a driving dog. A child would like to become a gardener, a chimney sweep or a shoemaker depending on the last acquaintance who attracted his admiration, and this admiration is often won more by certain traits in his way of being than by important actions. I remember one of my students in India imitating a habit I had of holding my neck with my left hand. In writing also the imitation of manners was truly remarkable among many of my students. As for moral attitudes, I have observed that we can often predict what a child will do under certain influences when we know what his teacher would do under similar conditions; and it goes without saying that good personal attitudes stay with students for a long time and constitute a very effective means of education.

Personal relationships in education.

When in the process of understanding the image of an idea is provided by the same person, we observe the beginning of personal relationships in education. Personal relationships will only become truly effective, educationally, when we can recognize in them the three conditions that regulate them. The first condition is that of continuity which we have just spoken about. The other two are the concentration or unity of relationships, as well as the principle of substitution that they involve. The latter is the most important of the three.

The one of these conditions whose necessity is most obvious is that of unity. Children, and especially very young ones, prefer to love one person intimately and be guided only by them, rather than by several. As we have already seen in a previous paragraph, children do not relate to a large group of people, even in normal intellectual relationships. This tendency is even more accentuated when it comes to the child's emotional life. As nature provides the child with a father or mother as a guide, so the best plan for educational relations is to imitate nature and have the child guided primarily by a person.

T. was a three-year-old girl who was put to school. His mother lived near the school and kept him company. Sometimes the mother left the child for a more or less long period. The child rebelled against these absences and begged her with tears in his eyes to stay close to her. Once the mother was forced to leave her without warning, and this hurt the child's feelings to such an extent that she refused to be consoled or reconciled in the matter. It was extremely difficult to attach him while the mother was present. Through constraint she seemed to submit to her fate, often with inconsolable tears. She then chose a favorite person to whom she became somewhat accustomed. Subconsciously the figure of this person dominated all the others. She wanted to hold this person's hand even when she was playing with other children. When the person moved out of sight, the child cried and called him. At lesson time, the child often had to change teachers. This was a kind of test for her and at first she wanted to always stay with the same person. Very quickly she found that it was an everyday habit to change mistresses for a while and then return to the usual person; she then began to look at this change as a kind of game. She was very aware of each hour of change. When the bell rang for the change of classes, she was already near the teacher of the next lesson.

She did not regret her separation from the first person to whom she had become attached, but she approached her new teacher quite naturally. What was especially interesting was the fact that, even then, the child looked at the adult with complete trust and excluded everyone else during this time. The first person was forgotten for the moment, and his place in the child's mind was completely occupied by the new person. This became very clearly evident by the importance that the child herself attached to the action of changing hands, as well as by her subsequent conduct. The natural reaction to such intimacy is a certain exclusivity towards others. A child who is petted by a person with whom he or she has an intimate relationship frequently shows revulsion toward others, especially toward other children. The two friends create a world of intimacy between them in which there is no room for others. This kind of reaction is very frequently observed in little ones who are in the hands of someone they love. They often look with disapproval at people who might approach, asking them to move away, or, sometimes, hitting them, in a feeling that appears to be jealousy. However, it is not real jealousy but simply an exclusivity resulting from satisfaction or satiety. This fact often clashes with the set of relationships which constitute a child's school life, and when a child's mind is dominated by a person who is not responsible for his education, the problem becomes difficult for the educator. Authority becomes unnatural and relationships become more and more tense. I saw several

examples, in the boarding schools I visited, where the intimacy between a teacher and a student resulted in a kind of favoritism which caused the child to have strained relationships with the others with whom her school life brought her into contact. So while recognizing the fact that the child naturally desires the companionship and friendship of one person at a time in his school, care must be taken that the person chosen for such exclusive intimacy is at the same time qualified to take responsibility for the greater part of the child's educational growth.

We have already alluded to the fact that in the case of young children there is only room for one person at a time. This leads us to consider in more detail what we mean by "substitution", which is another principle regulating educational relations. This conception is based on the fact that the child always tries, in his relationships, to retain his natural habits, as much as possible. When the child is removed from his family life, he naturally turns to others who will represent his parental relationships for him. The child reacts towards these people as if they were his natural parents. This phenomenon implies the assumption that there are specific relational attitudes which are natural to children of a certain age, and which they project, so to speak, onto anyone who comes into contact with them and more especially onto those who fulfill, for them, the function of parents. This substitution phenomenon is so commonly observed in children that it would not need special verification. We will, however, mention a few examples which have experimental value in this matter.

We sometimes observe this phenomenon of substitution in a situation of very simple relationships such as having, next to the child, a foreign gentleman and a lady during a walk. In his childish naivety he will often say that one is his father and the other his mother. This experimental situation is even more favorable for observing the phenomenon of simple substitutions, when one of the child's real parents is present and the child misses the other who is absent for a long time. In this case it is almost certain that the child will react to the situation by completing his relational reaction and calling the stranger by the name of the absent parent. This can be observed even in older children, 6 or 7 years old.

Children separated from their parents try to keep their relationships with their parents alive for a while, but later when they remain in the ongoing care of others, they project their relational attitude onto these strangers. In other words the child is constantly filling in accidental blanks by substituting a substitute for the real person. In a boarding school this reaction is more easily observed than in an external school where relationships are more partial. With a certain person who, for example, puts him to bed or exercises personal authority over him in one way or another, the child will have more natural reactions than with others. This is true even for babies under the age of three. My investigations in a children's hospital in Lausanne confirmed this view, and the sisters who told me about their experiences agreed that the children behaved much better and liked sisters who appeared to speak to them with authority much more than those who were only "good" to the children. We will return later to this question of what kind of authority to

use. Suffice it to emphasize here that it is natural for children to make substitutions and that there are especially favorable conditions for making them.

In educational relationships, especially those which aim to produce profound changes of character or to help personal tendencies to develop, this substitution is a powerful instrument in the hands of the educator.

An experimental situation that I witnessed seemed to me to shed more light on the details of the nature of substitution. It was little A. (Anglo-Switzerland, 7 years old). This boy had been separated from his mother for almost two years. The image of the mother had been completely erased from his mind. He lived at school where a lady took care of him. The child had become attached to her and reacted towards her as towards a mother. The substitution seemed complete. One day, however, the mother arrived unexpectedly. He vaguely recognized some familiar features of his mother's face and looked at her with rapt interest for some time, while her face showed extreme confusion. Finally he approached his real mother and for the rest of the day that his mother was present, he completely forgot the presence of his adoptive mother. This was all the more striking since he was used to doing nothing without her help. Now his attitude was changed. The mother seemed to occupy all his attention. This shows how one relationship displaces another and how it is impossible for a child to have identical relationships with two people at the same time. After the mother left, the child naturally returned to the person who took care of him. Let us also mention in this case that the mother had brought this boy's sister to school, a little girl whom he had not seen for a very long time. The boy took a great interest in his sister. Once his mother and sister were gone, he told his adoptive mother that he loved them. For the first time we saw him care about someone. At the table, when his little sister had dropped something, he stopped, seriously concerned about this event, whereas on another occasion he would have only laughed. It is clear from these observations that natural relationships have a salutary effect on children and that, when they are meaningful, they reach a deeper subjective level in the individual lives of children; in the absence of natural objects of affection, they try their best to make a substitution.

During my work I often observed the emotional reactions of the children. Most of the time they are bored with their family, or they are emotionally starved. I have had very clear experience of this, for example, in the case of orphaned children over thirteen or fourteen years old. It is enough to call an orphan boy in any boarding school and show personal interest in him. Their eyes sometimes fill with tears when you speak of them sympathetically, and they invariably enter into closer intimacy with you, like a cat or other animal being petted or caressed. This is a natural tendency for them. The same phenomenon can be observed in non-orphaned children, but to a less marked degree. When they have been separated from their parents for a long time and have no prospect of seeing them again soon, the conditions are most favorable for establishing good educational relationships with their teachers. In the everyday life of the boarding schools where I have been, I have heard young and old express this need for a relationship that would satisfy

their innate needs. The intensity of this need is noted in the nature of its expression; and this intensity demonstrates how important it is for orderly progress to satisfy these primary needs in children during growth; it also demonstrates how powerful are the forces that the true educator can wield and direct.

I have often had supervision of the play of very small children, as part of their afternoon schedule. It was the first class at a certain boarding school; Most of the children were under five years old, only one or two were six years old. Sometimes they organized their own games. I offered them the game of running a household; other times I left them to their own devices. One game, in particular, always came up: it consisted of playing father and child, or more often, mother and child. It seemed so spontaneous to these children left at school, and it seemed to satisfy them so obviously that one had a clear impression of the absence of certain relational satisfactions natural to children. In some of these extremes, I was even able to observe in the spontaneous and free games of children that their search for affection takes a form analogous to marital relations. There is something pathetic about seeing a little boy pushed to the extreme limits of the need for emotional compensation and who takes refuge in the arms of another child to seek consolation. Such sentimental companionship with children of the same age is not entirely natural to children under the age of seven or eight; and only in one or two cases have I observed this type of expression of the need for relationships.

Once children have grown up and become, so to speak, accustomed to relational reactions to strangers, this need for emotional relationships still persists, but in the form of more subjective feelings. I used to take a few children from the ages of nine to ten on nature study walks. They were boys and girls; their conversations often showed that they missed their families. To give just one example, there was a ten-year-old girl there whose parents were away. A teacher at the school was very good to her and treated her like her own daughter; and the child too had learned to look at the stranger with affection. That day she saw a plane passing, she looked at it and suddenly said that her father and mother were inside. It was pure imagination, and she realized it, but she really liked to “pretend” – to use her own expression – that they were really on the plane.

On several occasions she called them “Mom, Dad” etc. with visible satisfaction. After some time she had to leave school to return to her parents, and on this occasion she explicitly said that she was as attached to the school as to her family. One of the teachers at the school had become a real second mother to her and she ardently wanted to find a way to not lose either of them. So here is a case where the substitution has become as strong as a natural relationship.

From these examples two facts emerge; first, that there persists in children a marked need for relationships which will bring the necessary compensations into their emotional lives; and second, that this need is always satisfied by means of a substitution of personal relations with a stranger.

The third of the conditions required for good educational relationships is, as we have said, the continuity or "time" aspect of these relationships, and it goes without saying that the longer the opportunity given to the educator to study his pupil, and to the child to get used to his teachers, the better it will be for the educational result. The substitution and concentration of relationships (of authority or dependence, depending on the case) which we spoke of above, all this is completed and completed by this continuity over time.

First, children naturally expect continuity in relationships. In some of the cases cited above we have seen children naturally rebel against a continual change in relationships, particularly against the frequent passing of authority from one person to that of another. In many of the boarding schools I visited, I had the opportunity to hear the children's opinions on this subject. This was especially common in the case of a school in Europe where the majority of children, who were American and English, stayed for a short time to learn the language of the country, while the parents traveled to Europe for a few months, or a few weeks. After their stay, the children were returned to their usual schools. Both the teachers and the students felt the extreme inconvenience of these temporary relationships. Children were constantly under the impression that a particular task or effort in any direction at school was not going to last long and was likely to be interrupted sooner or later. For their part, the teachers believed that the child would not be available for long for their educational effort and that the tendencies they cultivated in him would be likely to be completely changed in the hands of another educator who could undertake his task with a different attitude. Three or four weeks before the child's departure, I often noticed a reduction in the effort made, I also heard teachers express their dissatisfaction because of the too short duration of their student's stay. As educational philosophy varies considerably from one nation to another, it will be understood that such educational change does not tend to produce lasting results. Conversely, I have experienced many times that the very fact of being aware that an educational relationship will be lasting makes the character of this relationship such that it helps education. Then the relationship begins to resemble a natural parental relationship, and thus becomes intimately personal. Opportunities for mutual observation and influence are increasing. Relationships automatically become more serious and conducive to continued effort until a result is achieved. The duration of relationships will help to expand their scope in the intellectual and emotional levels of the personality. Continuous action and reaction tend to produce mutual influence for good, which completes educational relationships.

The three principles alluded to in the preceding paragraphs have been sufficiently recognized by educators like Rousseau. Regarding the need for concentration (unity) of authority, he writes in his *Emile*: "To be well led, the child must follow only one guide" (*Emile*, p. 26, Bibl. Larousse). The other conditions of educational relations have also been clearly described by Rousseau. Concerning, for example, the principle of substitution, we read this (p. 38): "*Emile* is an orphan. It doesn't matter that he has his father and his mother. Responsible for their duties, I succeed to all their rights. He must honor his parents, but he must only obey me. This is my first or rather my only condition.

I must add this one, which is only one, that we will never be taken away from each other except with our consent. This clause is essential, and I would even like the student and the governor to regard each other as inseparable, that the fate of their lives was always a common object between them. As soon as they contemplate their separation from a distance, as soon as they foresee the moment which will make them strangers to each other, they already are; each has their own little system, and both, preoccupied with the time when they will no longer be together, only stay there reluctantly. The disciple only looks at the master as the sign and scourge of childhood; the master only regards the disciple as a heavy burden from which he longs to be relieved: they jointly aspire to see themselves delivered from each other, and as there is never any real attachment between them, one must have little vigilance, the other little docility.

“But when they see each other as having to spend their days together, it is important for them to make each other love them, and through this they become dear to each other. The student blushes not to follow in his childhood the friend he must have when he grew up: the governor takes an interest in the care from which he must reap the fruit, and all the merit he gives to his student is a fund which he places for the benefit of his old age.

In ancient Hindu pedagogy, relationships of this kind were at the forefront of the conditions for a true education.

Firstly, there was a lot of emphasis on the right choice of master or Guru. In ancient Hindu scriptures we read of students traveling from country to country in search of a suitable person to instruct them. At the time of the Buddha the choice of master was a ceremony which linked the two for their entire life from the moment of this free choice, as in the case of a marriage. In Brahmanical education, which is of even older origin, there was a similar relationship between the lives of the teacher and the student. Sometimes the students left their master after one, two, even three decades, but even after this period of instruction they considered themselves more or less in this same relationship of Guru and Sishya. Often he applied for the “function” of disciple, which sometimes gave rise to an initiation ceremony; otherwise the formalities were limited to entering the Guru's house with a bundle of fuel for the latter's household fire. This was seen as a symbol of the life of service that the student was ready to lead with his Guru ([\[12\]](#)).

Life as a member of the Guru's family or household was very long and uninterrupted. From the moment of mutual choice, the student had to look at his master with affection and filial respect, and the master considered his student as one of his sons. We thus find the principle of substitution accepted in these ancient periods. In the Upanishads, we read here and there (for example in the Khandogya Upanishad, Kanda 10), the story of a student who had served his master for decades, without obtaining the latter's grace. Bâna's Kadambari and Bhavabhooti's Uttara Rama Charita contain detailed references to sight in such institutions or hostel schools in ancient India; they reveal the fact that it was an accepted practice to undergo prolonged austerities and submit to rigorous discipline for years before obtaining education. Keay (ibid, p.

31) speaks of Magasthenes, a Greek who visited India around the year 300 BC, who bears witness to the fact that it was a habit of Hindu students to spend 37 years in studies. The Vedas and Upanishads contain frequent references to this aspect of the educational life of ancient India. (Cf. Sacred Books of the East, edited by F. Max Muller, Vols. 1, 2, 12, 14, 15, 25). The life of the student in the Guru's house was called: Gurukulavâsa and it was an uninterrupted period which sometimes reached one or more decades. This is how we insisted, after the choice of the master, on the continuity of relations with him.

We clearly see how complete the relationship between Guru and Sishya was given the absolute authority that the Guru had over the public and private life of the student, as well as the small details of personal intervention available to the master. We see how under such a regime of intimacy, the student was naturally led to conform more and more to the teacher's point of view. In the Mahabharata, we read the story of Upamanyu and his life as a student, which will illustrate the nature of the authority to which a student was subject, for several years. When he was hungry, he begged for his food in a nearby village. At nightfall, he returned to his master to tell him everything he had done during the day. He greeted the Guru and stood near him. The Guru was not happy and one day he told him that it was not good to beg for food in the village because in this way he became a competitor for those who followed the profession of begging before him. The next day, when the poor boy was hungry, out of respect for the master's words, he refrained from begging for his food, but began to milk one of the cows of his herd and thus satisfied his hunger. When he returned to his master at nightfall, he reprimanded him again, saying that the cow's milk belonged to the calf and not to him. The next day the boy returned at nightfall, saying that he had drunk the foam that fell from the mouth of the calf as it suckled its milk. He was even forbidden this, and the story goes that in desperation, the starving boy ate the leaves of a poisonous plant. This made him blind and he could not return to the Guru who had deliberately wanted to test the persistent devotion of this boy, and he succeeded, with the help of God, in restoring his sight; he blessed him with the gift of direct knowledge without having needed to formally instruct him. "Let philosophy and morality reveal themselves to you," he said, and they revealed themselves to him and he was thus able to finish his educational career thanks to this quality of devotion to the master alone. Through the exaggerations and mythical embellishments of stories like these, we can get some idea of public opinion on the good relationship between student and teacher in those ancient times. About this relationship, Keny explains this: "A development of the relationship between master and student that we have already outlined, was the exaltation of the master, to the point of becoming an object of adoration for his student" (p. 50).

There are sufficient indications in these ancient scriptures that the principle of substitution was also recognized. In early orthodox Hindu education, it was often the case that the teacher and the father were the same person. When this was not the case, the master considered his student as his son. He invariably called him his son. Keay mentions, for example, that the master should not only love him as his own son, but that he should give him his full attention in teaching the sacred

science, without hiding any part of it from him. On the other hand, the rules of conduct of the student towards his master also created an intimacy as complete as with the parents. We read the following rules (op. cit. p. 33): “strict obedience was enjoined... In no case was the student to contradict the master; he must always occupy a lower layer than that of the master. He had the duty to get up in the morning before his master, and not to retire in the evening until after him,” etc., etc. All of this sheds interesting light on the very complete intimacy of the personal relationships that existed between master and student. It is in Buddhist education where the masters were monks and not heads of houses, this principle of the substitution of relationships was most clearly highlighted. Keay cites (op. cit. p. 90) Mahavaggo (I.25), where the Buddha decrees: “I prescribe, oh Bhikkus, that young bhikkus choose an Apajjhâya (or preceptor). The Uppajjhâva, where Bhikkus, will consider the Saddhivihârika (or student) as a son; the Saddhivihârika will consider the Upajjhâya as a father.”

We therefore see that the principles governing educational relations have been recognized by philosophers, such as Rousseau as well as in ancient Hindu scriptures.

Besides these concepts concerning individuality and the principles of educational relations, there are some others which properly belong to the dynamic aspects of the educational process. Before ending this chapter we will therefore deal with some of the principles relating to educational influences.

The first and most important of these principles is that of balance to be maintained throughout the entire period of an individual's educational process. In the previous chapter we have already alluded to the concepts of compensation and harmonious development. We are proposing this new designation which encompasses both. Indeed, the main function of bi-polar educational relations can be considered as the constant maintenance of a balance between the positive and negative aspects of the individual's development in the educational process.

Maintaining balance in education.

The issue of maintaining the balance between positive and negative influences during growth is of paramount importance in education. A simple analogy will perhaps clarify this point of view. Botanists and growers recognize the fact that in plant life it is not good for the seeds of a tree to be overly protected by shade and proximity to the parent tree, beyond the very early stages of development of the young tree. If you try to grow a plant in a greenhouse that is too hot and provide it with too much food and protection, you will find that the plant does not grow normally. Although the first leaves are thick and dark in color, the subsequent leaves become smaller, and their flowers and fruits are small and degenerated, while a wild plant thrives much better with less food and protection. The same is true in the child's life. If we provide the child with excessive protection and nourishment, the child will become weak. At each stage of his life, the child needs to overcome natural resistance: because it is by triumphing over the natural resistance which opposes his growth, that he builds a path towards a free, full and independent

life. Thus the two factors of protection and resistance could be considered as poles between which it is necessary to maintain balance, in the process we have just spoken about.

No other principle is more important in the first care of children than this principle of the balance of influences, and Rousseau, who recognized the importance that personal relationships play in the accomplishment of this function, writes:

“No mother, no child. Duties between them are reciprocal, and if they are poorly fulfilled on one side they will be neglected on the other. The child must love his mother before he knows that he must. If the voice of the heart is not strengthened by habit and care, it dies in the first years, and the heart dies, so to speak, before it is born. Here we are from the first steps out of nature.

We still exit by an opposite route, when instead of neglecting the care of a mother, a woman takes it to excess; when she makes her child her idol; that it increases and nourishes his weakness to prevent him from feeling it, and that hoping to remove him from the laws of nature, she keeps away from him painful attacks, without thinking how much, for a few inconveniences from which she protects him for a moment, she accumulates accidents and perils on his head at a distance, and how much it is a barbaric precaution to prolong the weakness of childhood under the fatigue of grown men. Thetis, to make her son invulnerable, immersed him, says the fable, in the water of the Styx. This allegory is beautiful and clear. The cruel mothers I speak of do otherwise: by dint of plunging their children into weakness, they prepare them for suffering, they open their pores to evils of all kinds, to which they will not fail to fall prey when they grow up.

Observe nature, and follow the path it traces for you...” (p. 32). In another place in *Emile*, Rousseau makes this principle of balance even clearer, writing (p.60):

“There is an excess of rigor and an excess of indulgence, both equally to be avoided. If you let children suffer, you are currently making them miserable; if you spare them too carefully any kind of discomfort; you prepare them for great misery, you make them delicate, sensitive; you take them out of their state of men into which they will one day return in spite of you. In order not to expose them to some of nature’s ills, you are the architect of those that nature has not given them...”.

This balance is of the greatest importance, even from the first years of the child’s life. Physicians are well aware of the lack of balance which manifests itself in diseases such as athrepsia and atrophy, both of which, produced by defective nutrition, have opposite characteristics, according to recent authorities ([13]).

This is also true in the life of the student, in a broader sense. The teacher must feel his way through intuition, and such intuition is only possible when the educational relationships meet all the conditions we mentioned above. The educational process as we have already discussed resembles the phenomenon of weaning a child, and bad weaning ([14]), in the educational sense

of the word, can cause all kinds of delays, precociousness, abnormalities and failures to adapt in educational life.

Generally speaking, it is possible to divide all educational influences and relationships into positive influences and negative influences. These terms of positive and negative are more easily explained in relation to the influence of the environment on the personal tendencies of the student than in relation to personal influences. We will therefore discuss these first before talking about the different kinds of personal influences.

One of the most general distinctions that can be made would be between the influence of school and that of the family; in the most representative cases, these influences have opposite characteristics in relation to the growth and adaptation of the student's personal tendencies. Home is the place proverbially known for rest and distance from the objective, active world. It is the place where emotions are nourished. The personality remains there, so to speak, withdrawn and relaxed; relaxation and the absence of tension or effort characterize life in the family. The soldier in the fable who marches on the battlefield dreams of home as a place of rest. Popular songs have celebrated this aspect of the home and the spirit it symbolizes, for centuries and in all nations of the world. These facts hardly need proof. Generally speaking, we therefore have the right to say that the home has a negative influence on the child. This is where emotions take root and where the relational aspect of the personality finds its full expression.

Let us imagine, as a contrast to this state of affairs, a public school, made up of thousands of students. (Without taking as an example one of the "Public Schools" of England to which tradition attributes a special kind of individuality). The example which will form the best symmetrical contrast between a public school and the traditions of the home will perhaps be one of those great external schools of America where collective life is emphasized at the expense of individual life, and where the main philosophy directing educational methods is aimed at making citizens or soldiers. In this case relationships tend to be impersonal and lack that intimacy and depth that generally characterizes life at home. When it comes to seeking objective values through work, the competitive spirit is likely to prevail. Subjective values, or, as we called them in a previous chapter, the vertical aspects of personality tend to be suppressed in such a collective life, and the lateral aspects relating to pragmatic realities, objective facts and social values predominate at the expense of the individual life of the child. Constant adaptation to public demands necessarily leads to a kind of tension that can be opposed to the relaxation of the atmosphere at home. Exaggerated activity, excitement, speed, tension characterize busy life in such a community; introspection, feeling, subtle emotions, sensitivity and delicacy tend to disappear. This is therefore the image of a positive environment. He tends toward exaggerated activity, and the tension produced by such a life will cause premature development of the student's positive tendencies. We will return to this subject in a later chapter, when we have to discuss the different kinds of personal adaptation and growth that different educational systems emphasize.

What interests us more in this study than the question of positive or negative environment is the fact that the people who influence the child's growth can represent and symbolize one or other of these influences. So this is where we come to the question of personal educational influences. All categories of teachers could be classified according to the degree of positive or negative influence they exert on students.

At the center of the home is the idea of the mother. The mother is connected to the home in an indissoluble way. The connection between mother and child is at its maximum in the event of birth, so that the image of the mother is, for the child or student, an image of reminiscence. It is the image of the gentle influences of goodness and consolation. The mother is to individual life what the home is to public life. We can say that it represents all those aspects, influences and suggestions that we have distinguished as negative. We are not going to examine here whether this influence is greater than positive influences; we reserve this question for a later part of this study. Suffice it to assume at this point in our discussion that negative influences are bad.

The aim of true education is to bring to the child the personal and individual care of the mother, through successive stages where he will gain his own independence as a member of the family, then as a member of the community and as a citizen, until the definitive phase where he will be an individual of good character and independent of the masses and of social approval or disapproval. This requires careful gradation of the intermediate phases. A mother who claims to take charge of the educational responsibilities of her child after the age of the cradle, that is to say after the age of five, will very often be likely to find herself seriously handicapped in the application of her responsibilities by the very nature of her relationship with the child. Every school teacher is well aware of this type of partiality against which he has to fight on the part of the parents of his students. One of the central facts to recognize in educational life is that of the loving parent who, while sparing no effort for the good education of his child, can nevertheless act unconsciously to the detriment of this education. On this point, Rousseau is very clear. In the classic case of his *Emile*, the conflict between the point of view of the educator and that of the mother is described with great mastery, and we will only have to quote from what follows to show how negative the influence of a mother is on her child. Rousseau alludes to some of the arguments that a good mother puts forward in favor of her son, as follows: "After some rather harsh reproaches, she told me that her son was delicate, that he was the only heir of his family, that it was necessary to preserve him at whatever cost, and that she did not want him to be upset..." (Book II, page 89). The inability of a mother to judge her child impartially is a most striking and significant phenomenon. I have had the opportunity to point this out to many mothers; but as a drunken man would assert that he is sober, so the mother always denies her bias by saying that her child's case is different from that of others, that he possesses certain tendencies that no one else shares. I have found mothers, even those who were cultivated and very intelligent, who fell into errors of this kind regarding their children. They generally complain about people's lack of sympathy. If a boy is poorly behaved at the table, the mother will explain the reason, saying that he sometimes likes to entertain himself in this way. If a boy is caught

lying, it is because circumstances tempt him to do so. Such cases are too common for us to list further here.

From all this, we can draw out an educational maxim: when the goal of education is to make a citizen or to develop useful qualities in a large community, that is to say when it is based on a pragmatic philosophy or even on a positive idealism, the presence or intervention of the mother will necessarily be detrimental to the growth and adaptation of the child, particularly when the child has already passed the stages preceding adolescence. One of the first conditions that must be observed in educational relationships will be to distance the child, at a given moment, from the protective influence of the mother and the home, and this especially in education that we will call positive. We will not go into the details of these education systems here, the types of which we will describe in the next chapter. At this point we will content ourselves with the simple supposition that there is a positive and a negative education and that the maternal influence on the child tends, in the majority of cases, to be negative, and thus to prevent the positive growth of the child. We will reserve the concrete cases that I experienced for a later chapter which will follow a study of different educational methods. It will be enough for us to arrive at this conception that the first category of educational influences can be imagined as analogous to that of the mother; This is what we call negative influence.

The positive category cannot be strictly assimilated to that of the father. It is true that the father represents, in the life of the family, something more positive than the mother. Rousseau draws our attention to this fact by writing: "As the true nurse is the mother, the true tutor is the father. Let them agree in the order of their functions as well as in their system; that from the hands of one, the child passes into the hands of the other..." (page 34). The intellectual development of the child should therefore not be seen as coming from the mother, but rather from the father. It is the father who symbolizes the boy's future. To become like the father when he grows up is the natural ambition of every boy and the simplest method is to make the child follow in the footsteps of a judicious father. The father is more capable of assessing a boy's needs impartially than the mother who always tends to exaggerate the boy's emotional expressions. By his impartiality, the father is better qualified to guide his son on the path of his life than the mother, and to help him develop some of his positive qualities. If necessary, a father is capable of being harsher towards the child than the mother. This means that the father is able to represent the "resistance" aspect in growth, an aspect to which we have already alluded.

But even here, this distinction should not be considered absolute. There are many fathers who are more like mothers in this respect. However, this does not invalidate the generalization that we have just made. I had the opportunity, during my teaching experience, to meet fathers who pleaded in favor of preferential treatment for their children. I have found tender fathers identifying with their beloved children and siding with them against the educator who desires to be fair and impartial. The secret pact which exists between parent and child is real and so strong that it would be difficult to find a father, however judicious he might be, capable of treating his

own children impersonally and impartially. Parents judicious enough to look at the child with the same eyes as the public are very rare; and when Rousseau writes: "He will be better raised by a judicious and narrow-minded father than by the most skilful master in the world; because zeal will better replace talent than talent will replace zeal", we must remember not only that the conditions of "judicious and limited" are very important, but also the fact that it is negative education that Rousseau is talking about in this case; we will have the opportunity to return to it in the next chapter. Practically, when we think of education in the comprehensive sense, the father, although sometimes more qualified to guide and influence his child, will always have the same kind of limitations in the matter as the mother. Our distinction between maternal and paternal influence therefore serves its purpose in that it simplifies our terminology, rather than as a valid contrast in real cases. Paternal influence emphasizes the "resistance" aspect of the child's growth. Effort, tension, ambition, positive idealism, the spirit of reckless adventure: these are the qualities that one could ask a judicious father to suggest to his child.

Paternal influence still aims to achieve rapid adaptation to public demands and responsibilities. We will not discuss here whether it is the attitude of the father which is the right one, or that of the mother. The answer will depend on the goal that education sets out to achieve. It will suffice to remember for the moment that it is possible to classify all educational influences, whether they come from a person or from the environment, in a scale which includes these two extremes which we have just distinguished. Maternal influence would naturally constitute one of these limits, paternal influence the other; the concept of the father being extended to that of the head of the family, tribe or nation, and representing, so to speak, the future of the entire race and its path towards general happiness; finally symbolizing the qualities inherited from the past and extending into the future. Such a racial father is called in Hindu mythology the Kula Pati or Kula Guru. All personal educational influences would find their place in this scale; and we could describe the influence of a certain educator as being more maternal or negative than that of another tending towards the paternal or positive pole.

These terms of positive, prospective or paternal influence on the one hand and negative, reminiscent or maternal on the other, apply not only to the general adaptation of the sum of tendencies, but also to the phenomena and methods observed in the classes of our schools.

It is a familiar fact of our schools that we find different types of teachers. Some seek to interest children by appealing to their primitive instincts and taking into account their individual or private particularities. They take pleasure in pushing the children forward, pushing them, so to speak, from behind. There are others who could be interesting, but who refuse to be interesting because they believe it is better to force students to adapt positively and as quickly as possible. These will use more severe methods and insist on public values. They put their faith in the effort that children can be persuaded to make. We can classify all the masters according to the relationships thus regulated between interest and effort. Some individuals are temperamentally more suited to treating their students in one or other of these ways; certain subjects and the

mental discipline they imply will sometimes require the predominance of either interest or effort. Thus, in the teaching of physics, obtaining a good scientific discipline will require a more serious effort than in the case of literature or languages. A person who performs gymnastic exercises would be justified in treating his students en masse, whereas, to establish a subtle distinction between two works of art, he would have to appeal to the individual abilities of his students, and to the ideas previously developed by each.

From this fact of the existence of different levels, so to speak, in personal relationships arises a maxim of great importance for the coordination of the work of the different teachers of a school; It is not advisable that, in the same school, different teachers use methods that address very different levels of the child's personality. My experience has shown me how often this kind of variation makes teaching work less effective. To mention just one concrete case, I was teaching science to a certain class; the children came from their literature class whose teacher tried to make the lessons as interesting as possible; he insisted on the spectacular aspect of the events. The children made puppets and puppet performances in class to make a story more interesting. Immediately afterwards they had their science class where they were asked, for example, to understand Archimedes' principle. I found that the children had a real difficulty in adopting the attitude necessary for this mental work which was, after all, more arid than the games and excitement they had had in the previous class. It is therefore necessary, when organizing and coordinating the work of a school, to always take into account the personal factor which plays its role in the work. Teachers should collaborate in such a way that the net result on children is lasting and takes the form of established personal habits. This personal habit will be fixed by consent and general agreement, in its proper place between interest and effort.

Inhibition and personal relationships.

One of the main functions of the educator, apart from maintaining balance, is that of providing positive influences. Educational work always involves this condition, it is always in the direction of growth, effort, organization and preparation rather than in that of inhibition or negation. While negativism characterizes one of the phases of the adaptation of individual tendencies, as we will see in a later chapter, it must be said that, if we consider the educational process as a whole, the main function of education is always to help the child overcome his inhibitions. Let us therefore try, in this preliminary examination of certain concepts, to understand the true nature of inhibition.

Inhibition must be considered as a victory of negative tendencies over positive ones, whether in lateral or vertical adaptation. The individual makes a certain effort by crossing the levels which separate the background from the foreground, or, in other words, by transposing a reaction belonging to the retrospective pole into an "open" action. This is what we have called the conflict involved in the educational process. This phenomenon by which a latent or virtual act comes to emerge into the "open" act is carried out through the intermediary of an external force and finds,

in cases where the reaction is not objective, the most natural auxiliary in the person of a master, a father, a guide or a friend. In educational work, the teacher's function is therefore to make possible this reaction which will help the child to overcome these difficulties of inhibition.

Nothing is more common in a school classroom than encountering a child who firmly believes that he cannot accomplish a task. Ask a child to reproduce the drawing of a jug for example, which was drawn on the blackboard, and he will tell you (when the children are not shy about expressing their thoughts) that he does not know how to do it. Then the professor approaches: "Let's see, we have to try before saying that it's impossible," he says. I know you can do it if you try. I don't expect a perfect drawing. Me too, when I was little, I imagined that I couldn't succeed in doing things. But I tried and little by little I succeeded, you must try too. Well, start like this...", etc., etc... By examining all these encouragements, we will find at their base a common idea: that of establishing sympathy between the teacher and the student. It is establishing sympathy that is the key to success in teaching. The teacher tries to substitute his own image, as a sort of ladder by which the student overcomes his inhibiting tendencies; and it is obvious that this artifice is used all the more easily as the natural relationships already established between the master and the student are more intimate.

I know the case of several children whose inhibitions were overcome when they found a teacher for whom they felt love and attachment. It's striking how much children need someone to be there to encourage them even with very simple activities.

I remember the case of a seven-year-old girl who ate at my table in a boarding school. The lady in charge told her to eat soup, etc., and made sure she was served properly. But one day this lady was absent. The child found it difficult to eat without his usual encouragement. She didn't want to take anything and was waiting for someone to tell her to eat. The reason was simply that the little girl was looking after the person she could eat for. This fact was revealed quite strikingly when she was asked if she did not want to eat and she replied that she did not. I then offered to take her plate away, but she protested that she was hungry and demonstrated that she needed to eat something. Similar cases have shown that even in the act of eating, some children may need someone to help them. Natural hunger is not enough, nor is placing food in front of them. The true meaning of food must, in their case, be created through an association with a loved one. In short, children naturally like to act for someone or something. Any reaction must be of an intimate personal nature.

It is true that in everyday life it is difficult to isolate the role that personal encouragement plays in instinctive activities such as eating, but the further the activity is from the instinctive level, the greater the possible personal influence. This is increasingly evident as one rises from the lower instinctive levels of learning to the higher positive levels of intelligent reactions. The role of the personal educator is therefore more important in adult activities and education than in childhood education where nature itself fulfills this role to a large extent.

A few additional cases will make the type of intervention possible for the educator clearer. S., a twelve-year-old Malaysian girl. Far away from her parents in a boarding school in Europe. Often nostalgic, excitable and prone to emotional outbursts. In class, she suffers a lot from inhibition in her work. Some of the teachers complained about her lack of enthusiasm and considered her a backward child. It was said that she doubted herself and found everything impossible. She kept repeating to herself that she was incapable of doing anything. On stage, she was unable to speak properly. She didn't know how to write properly; in her math class she was so obsessed with these inhibiting tendencies that she didn't even try to do problems. In botany, when she was asked to draw a leaf, she would murmur that it was difficult, that she didn't know how to do it and that it wasn't worth it. She believed that science was not useful to her because she did not want to make it her profession. Despite all these general inhibitions, she excelled in certain branches of her work, so that when she had a special liking for a master, she worked hard for him, and often with very good results. His geography teacher, for example, showed an intimate interest in him; and the child was good in this branch. A new English teacher arrived at the school, with whom she became intimate; the teacher showed interest in him: noticeable progress in his branches and the child became able to overcome his inhibiting tendencies to a remarkable degree. She also showed a lot of enthusiasm for the work of cooking and cleaning, work which she performed as well as an adult. Here is a case where a child abstains from any action, except those of immediate use or those that could please someone he loves. For the child to overcome the powers of inhibition which oppose reactions devoid of immediate utility, the intervention and help of a personal educator becomes necessary.

The third case is that of a fourteen-year-old Hindu boy who was very talented in singing. He studied music, but he suffered from negative autosuggestion which made him believe that certain high notes could not be reached with his voice. However, his music teacher had noticed that he reached even higher notes when he was unconsciously led to use them in the middle of a song. But when asked to raise his voice consciously, he refused to try by shaking his head; he said and believed that it was impossible. At a certain point, it took a lot of personal suggestion to make him believe he was capable of it. Once the music master insisted, strongly suggesting that it was possible, he tried and overcame the inhibition once and for all. Drawing and painting teachers are certainly the most familiar with these examples. In her very interesting book "Our enemy, the child", Miss Agnès de Lima recounts the way in which a painting teacher she knew helped her children overcome the powers of inhibition. This story is a good example of how the teacher can intervene effectively in the development of a child's skill: "Mrs. Cane does not employ any of these extraordinary teaching methods. Children have no role models or any kind of instruction or direction. Directions from Mrs. Cane confines herself to simple questions of technique, such as the care of brushes, etc. She never works on a child's painting, and unless asked, she never offers any suggestions whatsoever. Generally, the child is prevented from moving forward freely by some inner inhibition."

The fear of failing is the most common inhibition. She cites the case of a little girl who had painted her first picture, a study of a vase of flowers, a fairly conventional thing, and now she was sitting looking at her blank canvas, she wanted to make something of her creation, but she was afraid to take the plunge. "I don't know how to paint," she cried after a while. "What would you paint," asked Mrs. Cane, "if you knew how to paint very well?" ". It is obvious that an idea comes to him like lightning, because, writes Mrs. Cane, "her face lit up and she began to describe a scene which had greatly impressed her. A gray sea and sky, a sandy beach and a little old woman in black on this beach, looking at the sea all alone. The impression must have been strong because the description was so clear and imbued with such intense feeling. I said to him, "Well, where would you put... your beach?" » His hand described a rapid line. "And where would she meet the sky? » Another quick line appeared. "And the old woman?" » I asked. She stopped and said: "I don't know how to draw an old woman with a shawl." So I offered to pose. I pulled a sweater over my head and shoulders like a shawl and turned my back to him. She quickly crunched it and thanked me. I left her and without further ado she finished the painting, it was a very well done thing, with a real sense of the sea, a gray atmosphere, and all full of beauty. It was only his second painting, but his feeling for the scene he experienced had helped him overcome the problems that had arisen. She had forgotten her fears." The honesty and thoroughness of this description give value to this typical case which allows us to study the factors that can contribute to overcoming inhibition. In the first part of the story, we observe that the teacher appeals to the child's feelings and provides him with the opportunity to revive his memory. She removed from the child's imagination the barriers that stood there due to the difficulties inherent in the task by ignoring them and giving the child's imagination the necessary impetus. So far, she had transported the child's powers from the past incident to the future possibility. She then continued by fragmenting the task, and proposing objectives, which, taken separately, would be within the limits of the capacity of the child's mind. Then the task is completed, the immense weight of inhibition is overcome.

Such subtle methods are the basis of the influence of effective teaching, and it is only in the personality of the teacher that all the possibilities of giving impetus from the past to the future, and of overcoming the apprehension caused by the enormity of the task, lie. We could cite as familiar cases of a similar influence, the examples of Sanderson of Oundle (Cf. H. G. Wells: *The Story of a Great Schoolmaster*, New York, Macmillan, ed.), of Bakule, who formed one of the most famous children's choirs in the world (Cf. Ad. Ferrière: *Bakule et Son Œuvre* *Educatrice*). Many other examples could be added to this list: among those that I have observed personally, we must also mention the intimate and extraordinary influence exercised by Miss Alice Descoeudres, in Geneva, on a group of mentally weak children. We shall defer to a later chapter a more complete discussion of the different kinds of personal influence in the different kinds of education which will form the subject of the following chapter.

([1]) The same phenomenon is noted in Ch. Dickens' novel "David Copperfield" about the education of young David.

([2]) See William James

([3]) Cf. p. 3 « The Child and the Curriculum » de John Dewey University of Chicago press. "Subject-matter never can be got into the child from without... it involves organic assimilation starting from within."

([4]) L'Emile, first book, p. 53

([5]) Child Psychology, p. 417

([6]) Félix Alcan, Paris, pages 176-177.

([7]) The English scholar A.S. Eddington, in his recent work "The nature of the Physical World" (Cambridge 1928) made a critical examination of the two aspects of a physical phenomenon. He takes as an example the question of the "generation of waves by the wind" and establishes a contrast between the mode of a scientific treatise and that of a poet. Both, he believes, have an equal right to the truth. On nature from a poetic or mystical point of view, he writes in particular: "...The critical faculty was lulled. We ceased to analyze and were conscious only of the impression as a whole... associations emerging from their storehouse grew bolder... quite illogically we were glad; though what there can possibly be to be glad about in a set of aethereal vibrations no sensitive person can explain. A mood of quiet joy suffused the whole impression" (page 318).

([8]) Cf. page 71 « An outline of Philosophy » par Bertrand Russell.

(1) Auguste Lemaître: "Colored hearing and related phenomena, observed in schoolchildren", Félix Alcan, Paris

(1) John Dewey, « Interest and Effort » (Boston, p. 7-14) : "The Genuine principle of interest is the principle of recognised identity of the fact to be learned or the action proposed with the growing self.. Let this condition of identification once be secured and we have neither to appeal to sheer strength of will nor to occupy ourselves with making things interesting".

([11]) Several authors have already used these analogies of educational relationships. Cf. "Tolstoy, Educator", by Charles Baudouin, Geneva

([12]) Cf.: Ancient Indian Education, p. 23. When a student desired to become the student of a master, the usual method of application was to approach him with a bundle in his hands; this was a sign that the student wanted to serve him and help him maintain the sacred fire. We read, in this regard, that in the time of Buddha the student was enjoined, among other conditions, to regard his master as his father, and the master to consider the student as his son. (*ibid.*, p.90).

([13]) Cf. “Precis on the Nutrition of Young Children” by Dr. Eugène Terrien (Paris, Steinheil, Ed.), p. 198: “For a long time, in France at least, atrophy and athrepsia were confused in the same description... It is to Variot that much of the credit goes to having insisted on this distinction, *by opposing*, as the Germans had already done, simple weight atrophy to the athrepsia of younger children »

([14]) This point of view is supported by Dr. A. M. Hutchison, physician in the infant department of the Tavistock Clinic, London. We quote from his pamphlet entitled “Neurosis: a group of symptoms associated with maladjustment” (reprinted in the *Revue Internationale de l’Enfant*, vol. VII, 1921) the following sentences:

“...Reactions between parents and children undoubtedly provide a plethora of neurotic symptoms...”. Continuous dependence on parents (mother, father or both) must be regarded as a very fertile cause *lack of courage in children, constituting according to the author a symptom of neurosis*. (p. 3). Italics from the author, P.N.

CHAPTER III

THE NATURE OF PERSONAL INTERVENTION AND STUDENT ADAPTATION IN DIFFERENT GENRES OF EDUCATION AND AT DIFFERENT DEGREES OF THE PROCESS:

IN NEGATIVE EDUCATION

Having examined various particular aspects of our subject, we are now in a position to undertake a study of the entire educational process using the concepts and terminology developed thus far. In this part of our study, we will try to examine the entire educational process in its relationship with personality development. In this process, we will distinguish four genetic phases commented differently by four schools of educational theory. We will note some cases of “maladaptation” ([\[1\]](#)) characteristics at each of these phases.

It would perhaps be useful here to recall briefly the nature of the change produced in the individual by education, as it emerges from our previous discussions. We have seen how we can speak of two very distinct series of trends which must be considered as totally independent because of the nature of the environment in which they are directed. The educational process would then consist of making the personality master of these two aspects of the environment. We

have called lateral adaptation that which consists of developing the intuition of space and which deals with practical life without worrying much about what is not immediate. The other kind of adaptation is more subjective and relates to past attitudes which are generally modified with a view to future action. This adaptation, which extends in time rather than space, we have called vertical adaptation. And the object of education will be to increase the efficiency of behavior relating to distant events, in the past and the future, while maintaining close relations with as extensive a present as possible. The development of a method which cultivates this double adaptation without violating the genetic laws of growth represents the main problem of education. When should we allow the vertical aspect of growth to predominate, and when is it the natural period of lateral adaptation? When should we use the means of negative influence and when should we focus on the positive ones? These are some of the questions that arise.

The first period of adaptation of individual tendencies has the predominant characteristic of being vertical and negative. This is the period in children of internal mental and physical organization and the development of relational and a priori knowledge. Of all modern educators, it is Rousseau who has the merit of having recognized the nature of this first development of the child's personality. We read in his *Emile* (book II, p. 67): "The first education will therefore be purely negative", and it is with his name that we always associate Negative Education. Freedom and natural development are ideas he emphasizes. He believed in something innate in the nature of the child which, provided it is left pure and intact, will develop for the best. It is this attitude which made some believe that Rousseau was, like Herbert Spencer, an educational naturalist; but, as we will see later, this is far from being true. Rousseau was essentially idealist, while Spencer's philosophy is hedonistic. Negativism and idealism are the fundamental notes of Rousseau's educational philosophy. Thus we are right to deal with the educational doctrines of Rousseau by speaking of the first adaptation of the child's tendencies, because these doctrines correspond to this phase of the process of personal adaptation which we describe as negative and vertical.

Long after weaning, when the child already seems emancipated from the need for immediate parental influence in his ordinary life, the child's personality still needs parental protection; it is only to the detriment of the harmonious development of his faculties that the child can directly experience certain brutal realities, in particular the so-called "civilized" and, in fact, mostly artificial modern life. All of Rousseau's educational ideas have as their fundamental note a protest against premature adaptation to artificial life. By a return to nature he does not mean, like Herbert Spencer, that education has as its object the study of sciences and natural phenomena with a utilitarian aim, but to learn to avoid the artificialities of society. We only have to read the first paragraphs of *Emile* to feel this attitude which is at the basis of the doctrine; the terms would well support repeated quotation. "Everything is good coming out of the hands of the Author of things, everything degenerates in the hands of man. He forces one land to nourish the productions of another, one tree to bear the fruits of another; it mixes and confuses climates, elements, seasons; he mutilates his dog, his horse, his slave; he upsets everything, he disfigures

everything, he loves deformity, monsters; he does not want anything as nature has made it, not even man; you have to train for him, like a carousel horse; it must be circumvented in one's own fashion, like a tree in one's garden." This protest represents not only a vain and empty enthusiasm for nature and its primitive conditions; by "nature", Rousseau means something that is innate to the child, because he begins to explain his idea to us in the following terms: "The internal development of our faculties and our organs is the education of Nature" (p.21). Negativism in education is inseparably associated with what Rousseau calls natural education. By this term he means that part of the educational process which does not depend on the teacher or on the things which surround the child, because he explains: "Now, of these three different educations, that of nature does not depend on us" (p.21). It is clear that by "nature" Rousseau means something distinct, something which is of the very essence of goodness or of God, something which we inherit and which any inopportune action on our part can only spoil, instead of improving. He himself, moreover, in the following lines recognizes that the term "nature" is inadequate to express his thoughts; "But perhaps this word nature has too vague a meaning, we must try to fix it here.

"Nature, we are told, is only habit. What does this mean? Are there not habits that we only contract by force, and which never suffocate nature! This is, for example, the habit of plants whose vertical direction is hindered. The plant released again maintains the inclination that it was forced to take, but the sap has not changed its original direction, and, if the plant continues to grow, its extension becomes vertical again. It is the same with the inclinations of men... Education is certainly only a habit." With this conception of education, Rousseau is very close to a terminology that we used in this study, distinguishing between vertical and lateral adaptation. True education would, according to him, consist of maintaining the primitive and subjective inclinations or aptitudes that come to us from the past. It is these inclinations which, well nourished and protected in the early years, would help the individual to persevere in the direction of progress throughout his life. Such education is individual and subjective. For such an education, Rousseau insists that the child be isolated from all contact with society and the conventions of collective life. It is in the following terms that he protests against any premature intervention by society: "Do you therefore want to excite and nourish in the heart of a young man the first movements of nascent sensitivity and turn his character towards beneficence and goodness... Do not first expose to his eyes the pomp of the courts, the splendor of the palaces, the attraction of spectacles; only show her the exterior of large society after having put her in a position to appreciate it in herself. To show him the world before he knows men is not to train him, it is to corrupt him; it's not instructing him, it's deceiving him." The subjective nature of the adaptation referred to in this passage from *Emile* and in many others is not unrecognizable. Subjective and personal attitudes are more important in Rousseau's education than objective achievements. Rousseau appeals to the mother to protect the child from premature contact with the common facts of public life; he would like to see his early years surrounded by his protective influence. The care of a loving mother is considered very important at this stage of negative adaptation. It is by evoking the negative influences that play on the child that he writes: "It is to

you that I address myself, tender and far-sighted mother, who knew how to deviate you from the high road, and protect the emerging sapling from the shock of human opinions. Cultivate, water the young plant before it dies; its fruits will one day delight you. Form an enclosure early around the soul of your child; another can mark the circuit, but you alone must pose the barrier..." There is no mistaking the negative, introspective, emotional and relational nature of primary education as envisaged by Rousseau. The analogy used by Rousseau, with a young plant that must be watered and protected, is particularly happy because it symbolizes everything that is important in the adaptation of trends to this tender age. The young plant must take root before it begins to grow, and this is the period of negative adaptation which requires the protection, isolation and intimate emotional compensation that only intimate relationships with parents or educators provide. The negative nature of this adaptation is seen better than ever in its protest against any attempt to cultivate at this age what is called an intelligence reaction. "Our teaching and pedantic mania," he writes, "is always to teach children what they would learn much better on their own and to forget what we alone could have taught them" (p.55 II). He insists that the necessary time be devoted to all attempts to develop the positive side of the child's personality. Not only would he leave the child alone without trying to develop him, but he would even prevent any premature attempt at development. He writes: "Of all the faculties of man, reason, which is, so to speak, only a composite of all the others, is the one which develops the most difficult and the latest; and this is what we want to use to develop the first. The masterpiece of a good education is to make a reasonable man: and we claim to raise a child through reason. It's starting at the end, it's wanting to be the instrument of the work. If children listened to reason, they would not need to be students... Nature wants children to be children before being men. If we want to pervert this order, we will produce early fruits which will have neither maturity nor flavor, and will soon become corrupted: we will have young doctors and old children" (p.64-65). A premature appeal to the child's reason is not only out of the natural order but will permanently harm the individual's subsequent adaptation.

Thus the arguments in favor of a negative adaptation of the young child's tendencies are sharp and clear in Rousseau's philosophy of education. Indeed, it is clearly at this stage of education that the negative or relational pole, as we have described it in the previous chapters, generally adapts to the environment, in the broadest sense of the term.

The age at which it is appropriate to stop negative parenting and begin positive parenting is a matter of speculation. To tell the truth, the main characteristics of the lateral adaptation are complete. But practically, the educator can neglect this need for negative adaptation once the critical phases of adolescence have been passed. On this subject of the relationship between adolescence and independence, Stanley Hall writes in "Youth, its education, regimen and hygiene", (New York; Appleton, p.120): "An interesting and unexpected illustration of the increase in independence with adolescence was provided by 2411 compositions from the 7th and 8th grades, on the characteristics of the ideal teacher seen by the children". After adolescence, children do not appreciate help with studies, whereas they clearly do before. In order to obtain a

balance between the positive and negative influences experienced by the child at this stage, the positive ones must always be diverted in favor of the negative ones. In the early years, this predominance of the negative over the positive is well marked, gradually decreasing as the child advances towards middle age. It requires all the care and observation of a sagacious educator to discover the symptoms and beginnings of a “maladaptation” such as the preponderance of negative reactions and influences over the positive ones. It depends on what we want to do with the child, and therefore on the personality of the educator himself. The organization of the school, the rules and everything that is rigid and impersonal in the life of the school, must comply with this aim of regulating the influences which act on the child. The rules must have a great capacity for modification and adaptation for particular cases. This is how education becomes a strictly bi-polar phenomenon between the educator and the student, fulfilling the conditions for the intimate and personal pedagogical relationship that we spoke of in one of the previous chapters (p.88). We will recall here one of the rules of early education: that it is better for the child to remain in the care of the same person as long as possible. Negative adaptation requires a certain stable duration in relationships and too frequent changes can do as much harm to the child as repeated changes of place to a young growing plant. This applies more to the first than to the last period of the stage which falls within the domain of negative education.

We have said enough to make clear what we mean by subjective negative adaptation of the personal factor. It now remains for us to support this theoretical conception with some concrete examples observed by the author. Among these cases, some, belonging to the subject in question, have already been described in the previous chapter regarding the preliminary examination of the concepts. But now let's take some specific cases to discuss them in detail. We could divide them into two classes: 1°) Cases where lateral or positive tendencies were encouraged prematurely, which led to another kind of “maladaptation”. We will consider the symptoms of these two series of “maladaptation” from an educational point of view and discuss possible remedies. Since the early years of the individual belong more to the educator than adulthood or post-adulthood, we will devote more space to the “maladaptations” of negative education.

L., boy of Swiss-German origin aged 11. He was physically strong; his neck was quite short, his head rather small; shoulders slightly leaned forward, chest generally tucked in. His face still retained its infantile features. When he spoke, he had a slight furrowing of his eyebrows and never looked you in the face. His eyebrows were furrowed when he was inactive.

The main characteristic of his reactions was the complete absence of calm. Every moment of his life was filled with reactions that made him a pugnacious, turbulent, boastful, swearing type of boy. He was constantly making noise; in class, we always had to remind him to be quiet. He was full of stupid remarks and asked questions that made no sense. He flew from one activity to another; left alone, he didn't know what to do. When he had to remain quiet, in a meeting or on any other occasion, he would make jerky movements of his head, look all around him, fidget in every way. These reactions had become chronic; the punishments and expulsions from class did

not make the slightest impression on him. Although a punishment affected him quite a bit, he quickly forgot it and was just as happy afterwards as before. He was beyond the control of his masters. His parents were divorced; the child lived with his mother who was a school employee. The father rarely came to see him. L., did not even respect his mother's authority and ran away when she called him; he had neither consideration nor kindness for her.

On analysis, we discover that these reactions include a very short space of time, that is to say that they are reactions that we will call lateral. They are not connected to the past because they lack considerations, emotions, sympathy, etc.; nor are they linked to the future, since they are not calculated with the aim of doing good. They are neither cunning nor intelligent, but are only the expression of impulses. Filling up all the time he had with short-term reactions prevented him from fixing his mind on any subject, even for a short time. It is not that he was incapable by nature of accomplishing tasks requiring patience and application, but that these short-term reactions prevented him from finding the time to do them during his daily program of activities.

These lateral activities also had the characteristic of being entirely premature. The boy was cowardly, and insufficiently developed on the positive side. A girl his age scared him. For all his boasting, he was afraid to touch a soccer ball during play if an opponent was nearby. He refused to go out alone in the dark. In all his undertakings he suffered from what could be called an inferiority complex, a weakness which he tried to hide with a disobedient or defiant air. He was incapable of thinking about the consequences, even immediate ones, of an act; when he found himself surprised by its unpleasant consequences, he protected himself by a sort of indifference or immobility which made him insensitive to pain or danger. Everything about the future he feared and cowardly avoided.

Reactions relating to sexuality became evident early in his life and his education suffered in all respects. He was well aware that he should not misbehave, but it had become such a habit that he felt incapable of correcting it without strong outside help.

Here we have a case of “maladaptation” in the growth of the personality. Let us now try to discern the causes of such “maladaptation”.

The main fact that must not be forgotten in this case is the fact that the father and mother lived separately and that the boy was placed under the influence of the mother for a long time, after weaning. The child also came from a working-class background and had inherited active tendencies from his parents to a remarkable degree. He was placed as a boarder in a school attended mainly by children from rich families. His mother, who was present throughout his stay, was always ready to take his side when he had difficulties with the other students. He ate, slept and lived just like other children who were accustomed to comfort and idleness and it was in this atmosphere distorted by inactivity, luxury and protection that his naturally positive side was anemic and suppressed. Any opportunity that would have developed his resistance was systematically taken away from him. In addition, anything that would have made him think about

the future was completely absent. The school was also one of those where the protective aspect is accentuated. So it was at school, at the mother's house and in the educational conditions that the negative side predominated. The active temperament which the child had inherited found no natural expression in action.

As the summer holidays approached, the mother found it impossible to keep the child with her, and he was sent to work on the school gardener's farm. There he was all the time under the supervision of a single person, and he showed real pleasure in the daily occupations of the farm. In his mother's place, there was a more severe worker who did not accept futile excuses and who did not show too much consideration for him. In addition, this man symbolized for the child his own future, physically and mentally and thus exerted an influence that it was impossible for the mother to exercise. Also this man constantly alluded to the boy's future career when he had to reprimand him for some negligence. At the end of the vacation, the boy presented one of the best reports of conduct and application that he had ever obtained. His face and eyebrows lit up. For the first time, he showed consideration and kindness towards his younger brother and his mother as well as other children at school to whom he brought gifts.

We must point out that the objective manifestations of "maladaptation" symptoms show wide variations among themselves, even when they belong to the same "maladaptation" group. The maladaptation of a younger age manifests itself by symptoms apparently very different from those of an advanced age, belonging to the same category. Before the symptoms can be clarified with any accuracy and certainty it will be necessary to develop a detailed diagnostic technique. But it is always possible to recognize the differences approximately.

Let us now consider the case of the younger brother of the boy we have just spoken of. The fact that these two brothers had been raised in similar conditions will allow us an easy comparison showing the family resemblance in the two cases. M., age 7 years. He has a pretty childish face. The shape of the head is normal, its size rather below normal. He doesn't have his brother's furrowed brow, but he has a vacant, dreamy look and makes grimaces and uncontrolled movements of his head when he is forced to remain still. His muscles are not developed and his body is frail, his neck quite weak.

One of the main characteristics of his reactions is his almost continuous fatigue or indolence. He is sometimes capable of an effort, but this effort is short-lived and quickly gives way to a certain weariness. When he is weak like this he often seeks the caresses of his mother of whom he always thinks. During work hours, he often found excuses to visit his mother. This search for emotional satisfaction increased as night approached and sometimes took the form of an irrational anxiety for his mother's safety. You only had to suggest that his mother was gone to upset him. The children at school, who had noticed this weakness, often took advantage of it to mock him. He was cowardly and would only cry and call his mother when someone attacked him. A girl younger than him beat him easily. All she had to do was raise her hand to make him

back away in fear. As for his intelligence, he was incapable of effort. We once tried to introduce a competitive factor into one of his writing lessons to see if an artificial stimulant would help awaken his abilities. But it was useless. He was an affectionate boy rich in emotions, but affected by infantilism. Like his brother, he had prematurely awakened sexual and other instincts. He also suffered from the short duration of his interest and changed very quickly from one state to another. The same indifference to consequences and the same insensitivity as that of his brother began to manifest in him. He was not so carefree as his older brother, but elements of the same carelessness were manifested in his complete inability to remember what he had been told or to foresee anything relating to the future.

In this case again the causes and the remedy are of the same order as before. You could see his natural interests during his spontaneous play. His ideal was to work as a gardener or porter. The absence of a father to actively emulate had caused the suppression of his natural future activities. On the other hand, he still lived in the same room as his mother and was subject to all the negative protective influence that he had long outgrown. It is true that he needed protection and care, but everything had to be resolved differently in order to also develop a little of his positive side. It was a case of defective educational withdrawal. The child needed to overcome more resistance than school life provided. It was also necessary to organize his activities for him personally, bringing them as close as possible to what he would have had at home. Confirmation of this was shown when this boy was separated from his mother for a few days. The absence of the protective influence of the mother made him react more quickly to the educational influence of a master who was in charge of him during these few days and the report of this master shows that the child reacted better and behaved better in a new environment. But soon after returning to his original surroundings, he fell back into his usual ways. However, the new habits would have been established in a more permanent way if the treatment had continued long enough.

Now here is how we can compare the main differences between the symptoms of the two cases. In the first case, the emotional aspect of the personality was already beginning to weaken. This boy had no regard, even for his mother, and did not hesitate to displease her; while the younger brother willingly rendered him service and was devoted to him. In the older child, the lateral reaction had already taken the form of a tendency to fight and attack aimlessly, combined with a kind of fear inspired by cowardice rather than a need for protection. Although indifferent to the consequences of an action, he showed apprehension in situations that were actually harmless. In the younger child, these lateral adaptations had not yet occurred, but were manifested above all by a certain laziness and by alternating states of exaltation and depression where the emotional side predominated. Some of these emotional expressions were premature, taking the form of a certain sensuality especially evident in the younger brother. The remedy is sufficiently indicated in the observations noted above. In reality, both boys needed their mother to be replaced by someone more positive, more forward-looking. Their lives offered too much ease and protection and lacked purpose to pursue. This state of affairs was complicated by the fact that they had had to adapt too early to a previously unknown life together to which they had not become

accustomed through a gradual and natural contact, and where they were above all surrounded by many people without being influenced or guided by any one person in particular. The remedy in this case would have been isolation and education by a single person for a prolonged period, a sufficiently quiet life in nature, the substitution of maternal influences by others ensuring and developing more independence in the children. We will have the opportunity, later, to cite cases where such a cure could be carried out.

The diagnosis and remedy that we have just read will be made clearer by the discussion of a few other cases. Let's take the case of two little Americans, brothers aged 6 and 8 respectively.

The older of the two presented the typical symptoms of a lack of negative education at a young age. Physically he was strong, but much too light and thin. His muscles were all formed and tight, but they had too little volume. So that they looked like sticks. He had a small head, long neck and was full of physical activity.

His reactions were hypertrophied on the positive side. It was impossible for him to stay still. He fought with his neighbors, screamed or made sudden movements for no reason, in short, he was always doing one thing or the other. Even his sleep was very restless, and even after having been in bed for a while, he would sometimes jump out of bed and remain in a state of extreme tension. Tension, too much activity, carelessness, these are some of the most striking characteristics of his behavior.

In his emotional life, we discovered a total lack of consideration for others. He showed no mercy towards animals. He would kick, fight with anyone. He had no reservations in front of strangers and told them rude things from the first day. Even at meal times, if by chance he was excited, he would forget to eat and get up from the table hungry. His entire psyche was overloaded with early lateral positive reactions, which made him suffer in his health and in his education. Very quick to grasp objective and scientific facts, he was extremely weak in the areas of patience or foresight. His handwriting was deplorable and he was unable to finish a short letter to his parents in one sitting.

A review of his previous history revealed a disability at birth itself, a premature birth. Subsequent activities tended to accelerate, rather than retard, its positive progress. He attended a large school as a day student where he was part of a large class. These conditions caused an overly positive adaptation which later made it difficult for him to react normally.

This boy's younger brother presented the same characteristics but in a less pronounced way because of his younger age. He was neither too light nor too thin; he did not suffer from as much tension as his older brother. But we found in him the same system of emotional and mental reactions. He showed extreme interest in the objective world and loved the study of nature and physics. He was able to sustain his interest and diligence longer than his brother, and he could finish a letter to his parents with sustained attention when he wanted to. He showed more

attachment and consideration for those who came into contact with him, and he showed a little more, although not much, of the shyness typical of his age.

Here again, the negative education should have been more complete during the first years. The father was very busy, and the mother did not spend enough time with the children. By heredity also these children were predisposed to exaggerated activity. Improvement was noted when they were under the care of a single owner who increased their hours of rest and the amount of milk in their food, and who gave them more controlled tranquility.

There are other cases that present more complicated symptoms. This especially happens in children who have undergone different kinds of treatments at different times. It can happen that an adaptation that is too positive, developed prematurely, precedes a current life that is too negative; in such a case the consequences are disastrous. Let us cite in this regard the case of a boy (Italian) aged 10.

At the age of 9 this boy was accepted into a school as a boarding student.

He was quite thin and quite pale, but like the boys in the previous case he had muscle tension that was too great for his age. He had previously attended a boys' boarding school where strict collective discipline had been imposed on him. There he had become intelligent and capable of intellectual work – the old schoolboy type. He often worked long hours, but his health suffered.

It is for this reason of health and because of certain particularities of his emotional life that his mother took him out of this male-type school, to put him in a new school in Switzerland, a school where the student is freer and where he is taken care of individually. These emotional peculiarities consisted of this: his family life was one-sided because he did not have his father to guide him. It was the mother who was always with him. Thus he shared his life between two diametrically opposed environments: one very positive, the other too intimate or negative.

Under these conditions, the boy began to feel a certain fatigue in his personality where periods of activity alternated quickly with states of emotional depression during which he sometimes cried without any sufficient reason. The tender emotions grew worse until they became an anomaly that the mother noticed and feared the implications of.

These conditions improved greatly when the child entered this special school where he was separated from his mother. He attached himself to a few masters of the school, which created a better balance between his tendencies. For a year he had lived thus separated from his mother, when the mother herself entered the school as a teacher. The effect of this change was felt immediately. Immediately, suddenly, an abyss appeared between his public life and his private life. He began to spend his time with his mother, seeking exclusive care from her. Thus he separated himself spiritually from the rest of the school; the attachment and admiration of the other models he had chosen for himself diminished. He began to complain that no one at school

liked him anymore. At other times he expressed a desire to live alone, without any connection with others. Such feelings had effects on this boy's education which contrasted markedly with those of the previous year. He began to show signs of agitation. He often said that he was unhappy at school, that he and his mother wanted to go live alone because the people at school weren't nice enough to him. He had a strange desire to be an exception to the school rules. He reveled in the feeling of being a boy apart, not one among many, and the feeling that no one was capable of understanding him. When he was accused of having done something forbidden, there was a marked difference between the version of the incident given by the mother and that given by the other teachers. The mother's tendency was to excuse mistakes by giving explanations, sometimes psychological, sometimes personal, and always ingenious, in favor of her child's behavior; without being invented or false, these explanations were nonetheless expressions of his own attitude towards his child.

Thus, relations between this boy and the rest of the community became increasingly tense. The child clearly began to show tendencies toward more serious “maladaptation” in his development. He felt more and more unhappy. He tried to artificially focus attention on himself by inventing actions that would force others to get angry with him or care about him in some other way. Some of his actions began to distinctly reveal kleptomaniac tendencies ([\[2\]](#)). To cite just one example, he would hide the letters that others received and for no special reason.

This boy's case is characterized by the absence of sufficient positive influences. His life provided him with too few resistances to overcome while his heredity prepared him to overcome a lot of resistance and to make efforts; the absence of such resistance caused his energies to divert in wrong directions where he got lost, because he lacked a qualified and attentive guide. Right now, he was safe and never had the chance to worry about his future responsibilities. Here again, the remedy is already indicated by the observations noted. The best treatment for this child would have been authority focused on the future, effectively compensated for the child's age. The child should have been removed from maternal care, which was too incomplete, to entrust him to the sympathetic authority of an educator who would have oriented him more frequently towards the future, towards public life, and not exclusively towards past and individual things.

Let us now consider one or two cases of early positive adaptation in young children.

M..., boy of American nationality, aged 6 years. This boy had a look of pain in his rather small face. His arms and neck were thin and rather small for his age, but his expression was stern and developed like that of a much older boy. He hardly smiled, was easily irritable and often became angry. He had strong opinions about what he wanted and what he didn't want, and he knew how to express his opinion in unequivocal language. What he most abhorred was the possibility of any physical pain, and when he happened to be injured in some way, he quickly became extremely excited and angry. At the slightest injury, he would let out piercing cries that would

not stop. He was able to reason logically about different things and particularly about people's lack of precision, which he could not stand.

In class, he had very clear pronunciation and writing for a boy his age. He was capable of writing letters full of recounted facts and did not need help in this area although he was not at all afraid of inventing his own spelling for certain words. In short, his intelligence was organized in an extreme and precocious way. All his thoughts were as if classified and ready to be used.

On the emotional side, he expressed obvious discontent almost every moment of the day. He was excited and restless seeking all the time for new objects of satisfaction, but he seemed constantly to miss this goal. The same was true in his relationships with the people who cared for him. He showed extreme discontent and seemed to be asking for more attention. He was happy when he had someone of his own, who walked or talked with him, reacting minutely to his every desire and fantasy. And it provided enough at all hours of the day to keep a nurse completely occupied.

This constant excitement made him eat less and less at meals, and his health began to suffer in general without there being any particular illness.

This boy's troubles must be partially attributed to heredity. Both parents were extremely positively developing individuals. Mother was a good writer. The father had a very active and practical spirit. They traveled a lot and the child had little home life. During his early years he had been in the care of different people, and the changes were the reason for his tendency towards early positive adaptation which caused his agitation. His need for affection had been continually disappointed by the lack of ongoing relationships with the same person over a somewhat long period. Another reason for the symptoms of agitation and discontent was the fact that he had to adapt to community life at a too tender age. This was demonstrated by the fact that he responded well to a person who showed genuine and lasting interest in him and that he remembered such relationships for a long time. He wrote letters to people and derived considerable satisfaction from their company.

Later this boy was taken from this school to live at home with his mother. But this maneuver did not help matters much. The early adaptation of the first years to a positive and lateral life had spoiled this child's life to such an extent that correction became more and more difficult.

Such typical or ultra-lateral positive adaptation is most often encountered in children who do not have a home. This fact has already been recognized to a certain extent by authors such as Stanley Hall when he writes for example that "once the moderating influence of the home is abolished, susceptibility increases enormously for all crimes, particularly for "theft" or to correct young criminals "it is necessary to accentuate the feelings of the home" (op.cit.p.137). People involved in social work, such as Mrs. Vajkai in Hungary, have pointed out the extreme intelligence of street urchins when it comes to everyday matters. My own observations of these children who do not have a home have more than confirmed these findings of educators and social workers.

During my work with the slum children of Madras, as well as at the Fernhill Experimental School, this phenomenon manifested itself clearly.

The ordinary boy and girl without a suitable family life tends to develop great early positive adaptation and when a truly idealistic upbringing is lacking, such children become "maladjusted" children. They know far more than is necessary at their age, about the daily and ordinary aspects of life, and it is quite probable that in many cases such early lateral adaptation will lead them to a life of crime.

One of the symptoms commonly noted in such children is their tendency to develop early muscular tension. The rounded features and soft, supple shapes of the child's body give way to shapes where the muscles stand out clearly. Facial features, instead of being rounded, become angular prematurely. Children become harsh, cruel, in some respects brave and bold, but cowardly in other circumstances. The signs of adolescence, such as voice change, seem to occur earlier. In a word, the organization of the body is completed before the size and volume of the body have had time to adapt.

The symptoms of emotional "maladaptation" are more difficult to discover. One of the most common is the absence of tender emotions such as pity, etc. Reactions are generally rapid, lacking foresight and patience; they have a utilitarian character, and are very often very well adapted to the needs of the moment.

Abandoned to its own devices and accelerated by a life continued in the same conditions, such one-sided development leads children later to physical, moral and mental ruin.

The author had the opportunity to observe the growth of four beggar children for several years. This observation was made easier by the fact that all four had made it their business to make strange noises while running behind trams on a street corner in Madras. I found myself on this tram very regularly for several years. The children were two brothers and two sisters. The eldest was a girl, the youngest was a boy. They did not appear to have a home worthy of the name, since they were found there at all hours of the day and slept on the verandas of the houses at night. They lived off what the people on the trams gave them.

The youngest child was normal, and had all the normal childish traits. His face was round and he had the innocent look of a child. The same thing had been true of the sister who preceded him in age; but as she grew, the tone of the muscles changed rapidly: they began to organize themselves prematurely and adapt to the activity. Even the muscles of the chest and abdomen became clearer. She was a stocky, strong girl, with a thick neck and a voice that changed despite her age of barely 10 years old. His older brother had gone through a similar stage of development. He was no longer strong or healthy, and already showed signs of delicate health. The upper part of his body became smooth and his robust appearance gave way to an air of weakness although he was barely more than 11 years old. Finally, the eldest girl, whom I had also seen when she was

still almost normal, had gone through the other two stages and was then completely crippled. She no longer had a feminine voice, had become shriveled and unfit for motherhood. It wasn't just a matter of nutrition for these children; because we constantly saw them eating something. It was a matter of under- or over-eating or lack of a stable life; because it was a fact that alongside purely material factors, the calm and protection of life around a home also contribute to maintaining the balance of growth in the child ([3]).

These findings were confirmed by my experiences with other children, again; I will talk about it later. The personal attention of a mother or teacher is the most powerful factor in regulating and harmonizing the elements of growth, and this is essential if the child is to enjoy normal mental, physical and moral growth throughout his life.

G. was a little boy of 6 years old. He was picked up in one of those small villages in the cold valleys of the Nilgiri Hills. A local philanthropic gentleman had found him and given him to me to be raised at the school I had founded in Fernhill.

This boy's past story is quite interesting. Both his father and mother had poor manual laborers in their village. The father died; the child was then barely 4 years old, and a few months later, the mother died in turn. As the orphan had no other parents in this village, another local worker adopted him. But as fate would have it, this woman also died a few months later. The child, abandoned, no longer had anyone to take care of him. He therefore had to look for something to live on as best he could, very early in the day, and he succeeded in doing so by wandering the streets. There was a pastry shop nearby run by an old lady who gave him biscuits and bread from time to time. Other times, he went to the house of a gentleman who lived not far from there, and received a meal there from time to time. He spent the rest of his time playing with street children. In this way he found himself fairly well fed; the only drawback was that no one took care of him continuously. He would sometimes have a meal in one place to go and have a second in another. He finds it very easy to tell lies about these things as there is no continuity of relationship with anyone in particular, and no one has the time to follow up with him to verify the accuracy of his words.

At the time of his admission to school, he was a short boy with an ugly face and a strabismus in one eye. He looked like a thief. His muscles were overdeveloped and he was strong. He was able to express all his thoughts correctly.

After his admission it was found that he did not have the slightest notion of personal habits related to food and excretion. He had the most irregular habits in this regard. He was a master in the art of lies and false pretenses. Some of his lies were so natural that it was difficult to discover them without persistent and careful monitoring. He could be entrusted with errands or small jobs that only older children from good families would have been able to do.

This boy was directly entrusted to a master who carefully and persistently observed and corrected all his reactions. Bad habits had taken such root in him that it took the persistent efforts of an educator to uproot them.

Gradually the boy began to conform to the new discipline, and to recognize that someone was taking a sincere interest in his well-being. This made him particularly attached to the person who took care of him; and as this emotional hold became more solid, it became increasingly easy for a master to correct his “maladaptations”. They isolated him and made sure that he had enough hours of rest.

However, he did not follow a special diet, and what he ate at school was not always as nutritious as the pastries he had had before.

Yet these improved conditions showed no immediate results. At first some discouraging results were even noticed: the child began to have itching on his neck and all over his body. It had to be completely isolated; after healing the boy progressed quickly until he became normal. He took back the rounded features, natural to childhood. His squint was less pronounced, almost imperceptible, except when his eyes were tired. The muscular tension disappeared completely.

A corresponding change took place in the moral and intellectual points of view. He no longer had the opportunity to tell lies, and he now had too much regard for his master to tell them, even if he had had the chance. For some time his intellectual work was very poor and he showed no signs of progress. The rehabilitation had to be completed completely before progress in the new direction could be observed. The foundations of his intelligence were being reformed, the lateral intelligence that had developed before, disappeared.

Once these foundations were laid, progress proceeded with normal rapidity. Although the boy did not have the speed of reaction that he originally had, his reactions showed more discernment; he became kind, and we saw in him the first ideas of goodness.

Here we have a typical case where the first education had to be on the negative side. A home, a private and regular life, isolation, sustained relationships and concentrated authority, these were the means which corrected this boy and put him on the path to normal growth and development. He was saved from early lateral adaptation, and his original growth momentum, which had been arrested by an unnatural life, rebounded when the boy found himself in an environment better suited to his nature.

Concerning the negative adaptation of the personal factor in education, we would like to emphasize the fact that this adaptation is necessary not only in special cases like those mentioned above, but that this stage is more or less indispensable in the normal education of all schoolchildren, and more particularly in modern civilized society which always tends to develop the lateral tendencies of the child prematurely. The modern child from New York or London who

starts going to the theater and the cinema early and who has to live in the middle of these large artificial groups that are the buildings and schools of big cities, this child will tend to be too developed laterally to the detriment of the development of the subjective and relational side of the personality who will not find the time necessary to gain constant direction. These disadvantages of civilized life thus increase from generation to generation; and the ever-increasing number of “maladjusted” children in large cities is a clear sign that public authorities are neglecting this part of education to make the child a citizen before he has become a complete person in his private life. Despite the warnings of great souls like Rousseau, public authorities are far from being convinced of the necessity of negative education for the harmonious development of the individual.

The result is that the product of the modern public school is an imperfect one in which the best possibilities have been stifled by premature demands of public order. Consideration of the feelings of others is something that is not included in the programs; but ample provision is made for the development of muscles in sports and gymnastics, as well as for the training of rapid reactions which do not involve intuition of time. There is indeed systematic training for competition; and philosophical conceptions such as the struggle for existence and the survival of the strongest are allowed to determine the organization and activities of the school. All of this is excellent for positive development but totally neglects the negative side of individual development, because this negative side requires, more than anything else, quiet growth under the tutelage of individual and personal relationships.

The observations presented above provide us with the following conclusions regarding negative personality adaptation:

- 1) The educator deals with the child as an individual and not as a member of society. At this time, the child is incapable of maintaining mutual relationships with many people or teachers at the same time.
- 2) It is the more subjective side of the personality that must adapt to this era. However, it is susceptible to enormous variations from one child to another, so that the treatment adapted to one is not necessarily good for another.
- 3) The “impression” side is more important than the “expression” side.
- 4) We must pay attention to reactions and emotional relationships with people and the environment rather than to the development of intelligence and the faculties of reasoning, analysis and logic.
- 5) It is important to select and graduate the influences reaching the child than to randomly multiply the thousand artificial experiences of civilized society.

6) The child of this age should not be seen as preparing for adult life, but as automatically adapting, obeying in some way the history of the race.

7) The younger the child, the more negative the education should really be.

8) We can look at adolescence as the age where the child emerges from private life into public life and the responsibilities that attach to it.

9) The task of the educator is to maintain the right balance between positive and negative influences reaching the child; this is, more than anywhere else, the task par excellence of the personal educator. It is in personal relationships with his teacher that the student's emotional life must have its center of gravity since emotional balance contributes so powerfully to making the first adaptations calm and harmonious. Any requirement that is addressed to the intellectual and positive strengths of the child must be compensated by the sympathy that the child feels for the personality of the teacher, so that the child is taken from degree to degree without risk of "maladaptation". At this stage, one must strictly observe the rules indicated in a previous chapter, concerning the personal relations between master and student.

It would be appropriate to talk here about some concepts belonging to Hindu pedagogy and which relate to this question of the necessity of negative adaptation before the positive, of a personal master and of faith in such a master deriving from the very nature of negative adaptation.

The first of these concepts is that of Brahmacharia. The Brahmachari is one who lives with his tutor in a school in the forest and far from the contamination of premature social influences. Hindu books often speak of the vow of Bramacharia, meaning that the student leads a life of poverty, service and study of the personality of the master in order to imbibe through constant concentration on the person of the master, some generalized attitudes towards life such as justice, kindness, respect for others, etc., represented by the life of the master. This concentration on the person of the master, implying obedience, respect and reverence towards him, was called Gurubhakti. This Gurubhakti was essential to education and the place he occupied and still occupies in Hindu pedagogy emerges from this quote taken from the Khandogya Upanishad Khanda 9, and which is frequently repeated elsewhere: "Only knowledge learned from a master leads to true good". Let us remember, however, that this aims for knowledge of subjective and idealistic values, not pragmatic or naturalistic knowledge. The need for a master in the first idealistic education is also expressed in the following dialogue between the master Nârada and Sanatkhumâra, the student (Khandogya Upanishad, Prapatkata VII, Kanda 16).

Master : But you have to want to know the truth.

Pupil : Master, I want to know the truth.

M : But understanding must be understood.

AND : Master, I want to understand it.

M : Only he who perceives, understands. But you have to want to understand this perception.

AND : Master, I want to understand it.

M : When we believe, we perceive. We must desire to understand this belief.

AND : (Same reply).

M : When we pay attention to a (spiritual) master, we believe. But we must desire to understand this attention for the master.

AND : (Same reply).

This is the importance that the personality of the teacher took on in the Hindu conception of idealistic education. It was she who formed, so to speak, the unifying element of all education. The practical application of the general truth was found in the personal interpretation represented by the master, either in actions or in attitudes, but always manifested by his person.

In ancient India, Gurukula-Vâsa was called the life of the student removed from the influences and distractions of society, meditating on the personality of his master, the master being his only guide, philosopher and friend, the student being a member of the master's family. Each student was recommended to do such an apprenticeship after their fifth year, this internship covering a period of at least twelve years, sometimes more. We read in Apastamba (Ch. I, 1, 2 Cf. the translation of Max Muller, S.B.E., p. 6 vol. II): “He who has been initiated will live with his master as a religious student (Brahmachari) for a period of twelve years at least”.

We therefore see that ancient Hindu authors recognized some of the fundamental principles relating to this stage of negative-subjective adaptation. The three ancient concepts of Brahmacharia, Guru-Bhakti and Gurukula-Vâsa represent three conditions of the first negative and idealistic education.

The same concepts apply to the more positive stages of idealistic education; stages which correspond to a more advanced age of the student. We therefore postpone the discussion to first consider naturalist and pragmatic education, because in the development of the individual, these have their own place before positive idealist education.

CHAPTER IV

IN NATURALIST AND PRAGMATIC EDUCATION

We will study at the same time naturalist education ([4]) and pragmatic education, which will bring us into the presence of educational ideals completely different from negative or idealistic ideals. The doctrines that we will have to examine in reality relate to another stage of the adaptation of personal tendencies and we must look from a completely different point of view at the relationships between master and student and the characteristics of personal intervention in these types of education.

Before justifying the above, we must clearly distinguish between the “naturalism” that is sometimes attributed to Rousseau and that which actually belongs to authors like Herbert Spencer. R. Rusk writes on this subject (Philosophical Bases of Education, London University Press, p. 35): “Historians of educational doctrines have generally attributed the origin of naturalism in education to Rousseau, whose repetition of the maxim of “Return to Nature” has made the authors blind to the fact that Rousseau opposes nature, not to the mind, but to social convention, and that the negative natural stage of education only prepares aesthetic and religious moral culture. of Emile”. In reality, Rousseau is an educational idealist, while Herbert Spencer is the true naturalist. At the basis of Spencer's educational doctrine is a hedonistic philosophy where the greatest importance is given to the need for "preservation" and where, in the list of subjects which a complete education must cover, education for leisure takes the last place ([5]). What is important to Spencer is material success in this world, and science, culture, art for their own sake should be seen only as means of spending his leisure hours. The true interests of man must not be sought in subjective life, but in objective realities, in the good preparation of the intelligent citizen, in the use of natural resources for his well-being. As Rusk repeats (ibid. p. 39) when speaking of Spencer's naturalism: "His greatest virtue would be selfish prudence." This is why Spencer exalts the value of sciences at the expense of the humanities. In a word, Spencer rebels against subjective values to insist on the application of human effort to the maximum use of natural resources, an insistence that would be justified by the time in which he lived. By comparing Rousseau and Spencer more closely, it becomes evident that they are diametrically opposed. Spencer is an empiricist while Rousseau is more of an idealist. Rusk explains this same difference as follows: “It might seem somewhat paradoxical to attribute the origin of German idealism to Rousseau who is often classified among the “naturalists”; yet his doctrine is not naturalist in the philosophical sense of the word. He does not oppose nature to reason or spirit, but to convention, as it manifests itself in society as he conceives it. Like modern idealists, he seeks to do justice to nature and to give it its rightful place in the order of things; yet he does not look at nature as the whole, and the final form, of reality, but he recognizes the existence of a moral order of which reason and conscience are the controlling factors and a spiritual order which embraces and explains the natural order” (ibid. p. 143).

It does not seem necessary to us to enter into a detailed examination of the pedagogical doctrines of the two theorists: it suffices to briefly enumerate some of the differences between the two as follows:

Rousseau	Spencer
Subjectivist idealist	Empirical realist
Opposed to collective life	Education prepares for collective life
Recognizes moral and spiritual order and values in education	Purely secondary cultural education versus utilitarian education
Recognizes purely ethical motives	Hedonistic ethics

Pestalozzi's terminology, which we have already had the opportunity to mention, makes it possible to clearly define the differences in question. Rousseau is especially concerned with the good development of children, with these instinctive attitudes which, according to him, are necessarily good, by their very nature. This would correspond to the development of Pestalozzi's "Animal Man". At Spencer, it would, on the contrary, mainly be the preparation for Pestalozzi's "Social Man". In reality, Rousseau's negative education relates to the first manifestations of the child's individuality, Spencer's to the stage where the individual prepares to be a useful citizen of society, where he turns his mind green to the objective phenomena of nature. Thus we can say, in the terminology developed in this study, that Spencer's educational theory studies the "lateral adaptation" of personal tendencies to their objective environment.

Regarding this kind of adaptation in education according to Spencer, it should be noted that the educator exercises a neutral function. It is the doctrine of discipline by natural consequences which reveals this method of non-intervention, and in this theory Spencer agrees with Rousseau. Education is a process of natural evolution where the struggle for existence and other factors find their place. Abandoned to his own devices in a society to get by as best he can through competition with others and the conquest of natural obstacles, the individual would reach adulthood with everything he needed for a happy life. This is the idea that is the basis of education according to Spencer.

Within the framework of such education, the intervention of the educator in the process of the development of the child's faculties is at a minimum. Leave the animal man to his own devices in this world of competition and in an environment rich in possibilities for experimentation, and the very nature of animal tendencies will assert itself to produce the desired result. Any attempt to isolate the student would have the effect of diminishing his or her opportunities to experience living realities and would therefore be harmful. The more people he meets to talk to them and

exchange ideas, the better it will be for the result sought by this type of education. If he has the opportunity to hear different masters on the same subject, this will only enrich his experience. If a number of comrades are engaged with him in acquiring this kind of knowledge, there will be more opportunities for mutual action and reaction, which will help to organize the knowledge for use. Thus we see that for a naturalistic education according to Spencer, the conditions must be different from those established for negative education.

Yet it is obvious that even the personality of the teacher must be considered important, not in relation to the experience itself collected by the student, but in relation to the selection, the order and the gradation according to which these experiences must reach him. In addition, it must be taken into account that even natural interests require initiation. We can therefore consider the nature of the personal intervention of the educator under the following headings: first initiation, then support of the effort, and thirdly adjustment of the experience. To these, we must add a fourth which is the unity provided by the personality of the educator and which we have already mentioned above. The personality of the educator is the most natural center of unity where disparate experiences naturally become an organic whole whose constituent parts are proportioned and regulated so as to produce practical results and complete responses. We will examine each of these four sections in their relationship to the student's experiences during this stage of their adaptation.

Interests need to be stimulated. Even a very gifted child will not necessarily have a good “naturalist” education if he is left to his own devices without arousing his curiosity. We can also observe similar phenomena in animals. The mother cat will wag her tail in front of her kitten to awaken or stimulate the kitten's hunting instincts. Likewise, one dog in the pack will generally take the lead to give the others the proper hunting attitude. The cries of the hunters also have the effect of exciting interest in the sport. Children left to their own devices are often inclined to accept the things around them and events without stopping for their reason for being, as things that go without saying. This is especially true for natural phenomena. A conscious and active interest in things in nature always involves an element of imitation. Children often bring a new object such as a bird's nest, a caterpillar, a butterfly, to the teacher who spoke to them, because they know that he is interested in these things. In these cases it is obvious that the person of the master functioned as a stimulant of interest. It is to the idea that the teacher will appreciate the result that children owe, partly or entirely, their conscious curiosity. So this is how interest can be triggered or activated. I have seen many schools where the most interesting natural phenomena were occurring unnoticed, because there was no one to stimulate the corresponding interest, and I have noticed a remarkable difference when one person took the initiative and kept it alive.

But once natural curiosity is awakened, it is necessary to follow the phenomenon studied day after day, or season after season, depending on the case; if we want to derive any benefit from this curiosity, and in the absence of an educator who reminds his students of the task, it is probable that they will frequently change the subject as new interests manifest themselves, so

that their work will be full of confusion. This is less true for isolated and simple experiments (in chemistry and physics for example), but in the study of nature and natural phenomena the importance of this personal intervention increases considerably. In this way, the student's freedom to learn when and what he wants is necessarily limited. If the child wished to study flowers in winter and buds in autumn, the intelligent teacher must have the authority to prevent him and to establish a rational program of study, even if the child thereby felt that his freedom of choice was diminished. A contained interest throughout these different seasons presupposes a real personal influence on the part of the master. Despite all these efforts, he will find it impossible to have his students keep, for example, a "nature journal" if they are not strongly influenced, either by the fear of being punished, or by love and the desire to please their master. The longer a series of experiences extends over time, the more a center creating unity and a source of encouragement, in the form of a personal educator, will be necessary to support the students' efforts.

The function of ordering experience constitutes the third aspect of the master's intervention in taking advantage of the spontaneous experience of nature. There is, in naturalist education, a tendency towards encyclopedism which must be avoided. Even in this education the object is not simply to stuff the student with facts and erudite details, but to present him with information which is likely to be useful to him. The order of education may be said to be compromised when, for example, a child neglects the geography of his own country, where his natural interests lie in order to acquire a detailed knowledge of the geography and natural products of a continent which he does not inhabit and with which he will probably never come into direct contact. Or, simple curiosity could lead a student towards research devoid of any connection with the conditions of life; when a boy who wants to try to make fire with a flint or to fly with artificial wings, spends his time making bows and arrows, or studying alchemy, although these activities respond to the cathartic needs of the individual, they can be considered as positive instruction preparing for some useful activity. Thus arises, in relation between the student and the experience; and the judicious selection of this experience must be done to some extent by a personal educator. The state can make this selection and this arrangement, but in a way that is too crude and too general to take into account the variations required by infinitely varied environments and individuals. The state is forced to insist on a certain uniformity which can only crush the student's interest and make him find the simplest task monotonous. Only the personality of the teacher can give the teaching material a natural framework and an attractive form. Thus, we see that even in naturalized education, the personality of the teacher plays a very important role.

Regarding these pedagogical relationships, the difference between negative education and naturalistic education consists in the fact that collective life and changes of teachers are not harmful in the latter case, while it is essential to avoid these conditions if we want to obtain tangible results in the former. Naturalistic education deals with objective realities whose concreteness allows agreement between a large number of students at the same time. Collective teaching makes students' reactions more and more public, and when an experiment is done in

front of a class of children who are thus all simultaneously led to the same conclusions, then the experience is all the more convincing for the individual student. On the contrary, there is no objective criterion for judging the negative adaptation of a young child's attitudes. Individual differences are subject to considerable variation between different students and serious fluctuations from time to time. In the presence of these subjective factors, the educator is necessarily forced to avoid "mass" work as much as possible in order to seek isolation and individual personal relationships. This is why the student must respect his teacher and obey him, and seek in him a guide and a friend full of sympathy, in negative education, while, on the contrary, in "naturalistic" education, relationships can take on an official character; the teacher becomes a comrade linked to the student by rather democratic ties; he can be replaced without inconvenience by another master provided that the new master maintains logical coherence in the continuation of the work of his predecessor. The student does not need to obey the teacher as long as he complies with the rules imposed by the educational system as such. Thus the relationship between teacher and student is less personal in "naturalist" education.

One of the questions raised in the preceding discussion, and which has been insufficiently examined so far, is that of the way in which group living promotes the lateral adaptation of tendencies rather than the vertical aspects of personality. One of the main facts of group life is that of provoking reactions relating to public values rather than private values. The group-mind, as analyzed by W. Mac Dougall and others, is impulsive and lacks foresight. The memory and foresight of a heterogeneous group are, so to speak, of a reduced amplitude of vibration ([6]).

The present, the concrete world and the existing order of things assume, in the eyes of the group, an exaggerated importance and value. This is how the static aspect of intelligence is nourished at the expense of the dynamic aspect. All change requires foresight, all deep emotion requires a long memory, and it is through the application of past experiences to the future, made by far-sighted pioneers, that humanity progresses, that the old order gives way to a new order.

Group life, by its very nature, will insist on uniformity, thereby stifling manifestations of individuality that take too much into account the past or the future. Mediocrity is its best product. It is true that we can sometimes observe a sort of collective individuality within a compact group; but when it exists, we often find that such individuality only lives thanks to artificial popular sentiments, not very laudable in themselves. This is how an army unites for action, excited by pride, or a sense of honor, or bravery, emotions not far removed from the animal level. The most numerous groups are preferably based on competition, rivalry, aiming to extend their domination or similar ends belonging to material life. Immediate gain is their natural ideal. It is this truth that Rousseau expresses in the remark already cited, on the impossibility of making, at the same time, a citizen and a man (Emile, p. 43). Writers, like Bertrand Russell, insist on the same idea. He writes about the state and the institution of universal education:

“Education by the state has taken a certain bias. This teaches young people (as much as possible) to respect existing institutions, to avoid any criticism of the powers of this world, to view foreign nations with suspicion and contempt. It develops national solidarity at the expense of both internationalism and individual development. The harm done to individual development is due to the exaggerated use of authority. Collective emotions are encouraged at the expense of individual emotions, and non-acceptance of established beliefs is severely repressed. Uniformity is desirable, convenient for the administrator, who is not worried about the fact that this is only obtained at the cost of mental atrophy. The harm resulting from all this is so great that one may seriously question whether universal education has ultimately done more good or more harm” (p. 186 of “Sceptic Essays,” London, Alen and Unwin).

It is easy to understand how an education based on “naturalist” philosophy, and applied collectively, is incapable of producing the individual that subsequent generations would remember. If such individuals were still produced, it was despite this education rather than because of it. A development of the vertical side of the personality would imply a change in the dynamic aspect of intelligence, and not only in the uniform and static aspect; but this is precisely the reform that “naturalist” education does not envisage. Crime, for example, cannot be corrected through collective education, based on “naturalist” philosophy. “Criminaloid youth,” according to Stanley Hall, “is more clearly individualized than the common “good” child, who is less differentiated. Virtue is more uniform and more monotonous than sin. There is a good path, there are many bad ones; hence the need to study each individual by all educational, psychological and physiological methods. » (Youth, p. 136 Appleton, New York). The collective “naturalist” education of our time is not really effective either in correcting an existing evil in a child, nor in helping the individual to rise above the level of mediocre virtues. If, therefore, we judge the value of an education by the permanent influence it exercises on the innate nature of the individual, we find that “naturalistic” education, especially that applied collectively and impersonally, is not education at all, in the true sense of the word. It is only a temporary and temporal adaptation of the individual to his material environment ([\[7\]](#)).

And while the necessity of such adaptation must be recognized, especially for happiness and success during man's middle age, it must also be admitted that its permanent evolutionary value in the human race is minimal. As we will soon see, education in its best sense is neither pragmatic nor “naturalistic,” but idealistic. It is in the latter that the human personality, the highest motives and values come into play; this is where mutual action and reaction between one individual and another produces the best results. It is therefore not in “naturalistic” education that we must seek the development of the higher attributes of the personality.

Before examining the part that idealistic education plays as a factor of adaptation or development of personal tendencies with respect to the general environment, we must stop for a moment to consider the role of pragmatic education in this process. This education occupies a unique place between idealist and “naturalist” or negative philosophies, since it relates to that stage in the life

of the individual where he must, at the same time, learn and live as an active member of society. His ideal is Pestalozzi's social man.

Pragmatism, like "naturalist" education, has its origins in this same revolt against the humanist education of the first period, with its exaggeration of the importance of subjective and theoretical studies; pragmatism also emphasizes the immediate and useful aspects of the environment, at the expense of the pure cultural aspect. The first striking difference between "naturalistic" education and pragmatism is that the latter emphasizes the relationship of education and personal life as a member of a society, while for the other, all scientific truth has educational value. As Rusk points out (op. cit. p.69):

"The main criticism of pragmatism... is directed against the impersonal and mechanical interpretation resulting from Naturalism." Further on (p. 70) he adds; "Idealism agrees with pragmatism in its desire to escape "the paralyzing horror of the naturalistic interpretation of life, the nightmare of an indifferent universe." The main difference between the two positions is this, that the supporter of "naturalist" education looks in an impersonal way at objective realities which, in the eyes of pragmatism, gain new importance in relation to the individual, to the moment and circumstances in which he experiences it. While "naturalist" education would easily become encyclopedic without any human reason opposing an unlimited accumulation of knowledge and information concerning objective phenomena, the pragmatist, on the contrary, intends to limit such a tendency by consideration of the practical needs of a given society.

Thus the pragmatist differs both from the humanist who exaggerates pure theory and purely subjective and private values, and from the "naturalist" educator who tends towards encyclopedism. Instead of wanting to produce an individual expert in the science and laws of the objective world, the real goal of the pragmatist is to produce an individual practically fit for modern society, and qualified to contribute something to its progress ([8]).

Thus the position of naturalist education is theoretical-objective, that of the pragmatist is practical-objective. Activity is the special term that distinguishes the latter.

As a result of this difference in attitude, the practice of pragmatic education has brought significant changes, on which it would be important to focus our attention for a few moments.

First, pragmatic education diminishes the importance of the culture of inhibition. In his "Educational Essays" (Blackie p. 68) John Dewey says that inhibition has no value ([9]) and that it is to the open, or public, part of an act that all importance must be attached.

Second, pragmatism insists that the activity of the individual must relate to utility. The aim of the activity is not to be selfish in the narrow sense of the term, but to be useful to society. Here we find a difference with "naturalist" education which has its center in the development of the individual in the biological sense of the term. The individuality of pragmatism is closer to what

we have called “personality” which includes distinctly human motives and which are no longer strictly biological. The social motive makes life something more than a simple struggle for existence; something more human where more conscious foresight and human intelligence enter to determine conduct.

Third, pragmatist education is the first which insists on the need to raise the child not according to the desires of a master of the church or the State, but according to the development of the capacities of the child himself. It is the child who occupies the center, and the natural activity of the child becomes the means of his education.

These three particularities give pragmatic education a distinctive character in relation to personality development. For the first time since the mechanistic tendencies of the realist philosophy of Locke and Spencer, we are concerned with the personality of the child. He is granted some of the freedom that Rousseau pleaded in his favor. The insistence on “open” action and social adaptation in the pragmatic educational method makes it tend towards a positive adaptation of personal tendencies. The “open” act requires active intelligence, just as adaptation to collective or social life constitutes, as we have already seen, the positive level of personal adaptation.

In tending to develop the personality in this way, pragmatic education determines its own limitations. First of all, the motives for action recognized by the pragmatist are exclusively the motives that society recognizes or sanctions. It is always utility – although of a more general character – which is the criterion of conduct; This utility still needs to have a very pronounced practical character. Thus, it is sufficient for this utility to be, so to speak, localized and contemporary; it will not necessarily be general and valid for all of humanity. Limited in the lateral aspect, the activity recommended by pragmatic education is even more narrow in its vertical aspect. Pragmatism does not worry about the future or the distant past ([10]).

Considerations of this magnitude would constitute an infidelity to pragmatic philosophy. While tending correctly to develop the personality through the activity of the individual, pragmatic education does not apply itself to pushing this development far enough. Social and democratic considerations limit its scope, just as in the naturalist plan examined above.

A more serious defect of pragmatic education consists in the fact that it allows the core, the background of the personality to atrophy. We have seen how premature adaptation to public and social demands is all to the detriment of the calm, negative adaptation of the child's personality. Although some pragmatist educators like John Dewey ([11]) recognize the need for intimacy and sociability, they give them only a secondary place in the educational program.

The role of the personal educator is less insignificant in this scheme of pragmatic education than it was in the “naturalist” school where the rule of “non-intervention” must apply more or less strictly. Let us examine the new teaching method called “project method” which emerges directly from the application of pragmatic philosophy to education. Through this method, the child takes

an interest in useful activities such as agriculture, carpentry, construction, spinning and weaving, etc.; these are the centers around which instruction and education grow. Take, for example, an ordinary form of activity like gardening. Gardening is a type of activity that involves a lot of the personal influence of a gardener.

One of my first experiences about this gardening work among children was the great enthusiasm that they invariably bring to the start of this work. I have always found that a boy who begins to show an enthusiastic interest in gardening expects to have a large garden right away. He will ask for a large piece of land; the appearance of his garden will be an important thing for him. He will have the tendency to work in a disjointed way. He will not have the patience to wait for the necessary season for the start of work; and he will expect quick results. After planting peas or onions, he will come back the next day to see if they have grown well. When he realizes that gardening takes time and patience, he will be disillusioned and may even abandon his project entirely unless there is some economic, moral or personal factor exerting a continual influence on him.

An exact analysis of these factors of non-success in the child would reveal the fact that the child is incapable of being interested in something which is distant in time. He wants immediate results. The professional gardener has learned to adapt to the different natural laws which may vary for each plant from a few weeks to a few years, but he will not worry about it during this time. Now this patience linked to the intuition of time, and which attaches to each particular form of activity, this patience is inseparably linked to the personality of the gardener. A boy who wants to learn agriculture or gardening will unconsciously imitate this subjective attitude of the gardener. When, for example, the harvest is bad, the gardener will not be discouraged. He has the patience to try again, and sometimes the next harvest will make up for the loss suffered. Such an experience of the gardener is not transmitted to young people without them having a sort of faith in him. They must believe in success or somehow inherit the attitude necessary to carry out each activity. This is how the personality of the master or instructor even enters into pragmatic education following the so-called "project method".

This kind of personal element even enters into even simpler forms of activity. Each action has its own element of "time". You cannot pour a pot of molasses into another container the same way you would pour a pot of water. The simplest actions, such as making a meal or setting a table, involve the possibility of saving time and organizing every detail for an efficient result. If left to his own devices without any economic pressure or authority, the child may never develop intelligence in action; it is only in contact with a more evolved or better adapted model that the child can learn to live intelligently. In daily life the personal reactions producing such adaptations are so varied and come from so many sources that we hardly realize how much of our current abilities we owe to the personal influence of others.

It is when a form of activity has its ultimate purpose and motive hidden from the child's view by its distance in time or space that the need for personal influence is most felt. Suppose a group of children wants to found a sports club among themselves: my experience has shown me that children left to their own devices do not understand the principles which must be the basis of a democratic society. I have found that after a few tries they generally despair of starting a club. The fault is obviously that they have not realized how a society works, and they often need to be guided with sympathy by someone who has their confidence, so that they persevere in this experience of developing a constitution of their own.

In a previous chapter we dealt with the role of the educator in helping the child to free himself from the inhibiting forces acting on him.

Pragmatic education is therefore well qualified for the development, to a certain extent, of the student's personality; but it suffers from a serious limitation of scope and horizon. Here, as in other stages of education, the personal educator has an important function to fulfill. But, it must be recognized, the highest possibilities of the human personality as well as the best effects of the personal influence of the educator on his student are not envisaged by the plan of pragmatic education as conceived by its representatives. The child raised strictly by pragmatic education is always likely to be utilitarian in his motives. The highest form of human personality is that which cultivates the love of knowledge for its own sake, as Bertrand Russell claims. ("On Education," p. 192): "There is much knowledge which seems to have value for its own sake independently of any service it might render....". He continues (*ibid.*, p. 243): "I would not like the poet, the painter, the composer or the mathematician to worry about any distant effect that their activities could have in the practical world. Rather, let them be concerned with pursuing a vision, grasping and giving permanence to something which they first glimpsed vaguely, and which they loved with such ardor that the joys of this world paled in their eyes.

A pursuit of knowledge for its own sake, which is so full of ardor, is an attitude of mind which constitutes the most precious inheritance from one generation to another; and it is in the transmission of the cultural heritage of humanity that the highest educational personality type finds its true vocation. It is the activity undertaken for its own sake which marks the difference between the two pragmatic and idealistic plans, it is to this that we will now move on.

CHAPTER V

IN IDEALIST EDUCATION

What is idealistic education? It's Rusk ([\[12\]](#)) who will answer us: "When we recognize the priority of the cultural environment, which is specific to man, when we realize that in the

transmission and in the increase of this cultural heritage through constant recreation lies the supreme task of education, that man possesses spiritual capacities adequate to his task, it is then that our philosophy of education is idealist and there is no doubt that only then it is satisfactory". This definition of idealistic education has the mistake, however, of being based on concepts like "spiritual power" and cultural background, terms which are rather vague and subject to varied interpretations.

Idealism, as we understand it, has these three characteristics:

Its truth is of universal application;

It is relatively independent of weather conditions; it remains the same throughout the ages;

It concerns the subjective world more than the objective world or, better yet, it makes no distinction between the two.

To these three characteristics we can add a fourth: that idealism is the special prerogative of man, deriving from the nature of his emotions and his intellect. This special prerogative of man consists in this: he can consider both time and space on a larger scale than the animal. If we consider what idealism is, we see that the difference between it and the position of pragmatism is not rigid or absolute. When a pragmatist acts for the good of humanity in general, is interested in its ongoing well-being, and is guided by subjective rather than objective values, he becomes more or less an idealist.

Idealistic education is that part of the educational process which is related to the formation of Pestalozzi's "moral man". Rousseau's idealism, as we have seen, applies especially to the first stages of the process. Unlike the first, this idealism, although subjective, is positive. With it we emerge outside the utilitarian limits of pragmatism: activity contains within itself its own reward and art, literature and science are sought for their intrinsic value. This idealism relates more to the intellect and is the natural result of the middle-aged man's experience. It can be said that idealistic education, according to our terminology, therefore follows that in negative education and in idealistic education, which represent the first and last phase of the educational process, personal relationships must have the maximum intensity and must be as close and intimate as possible.

The transmission from one generation to the next of the culture belonging to a nation or community is the main function of the idealist educator.

Idealist education thus conceived is therefore an evolution of individual tendencies beyond the biological and pragmatist utilitarian sphere, towards a sphere in which the most general and abstract non-utilitarian motives determine action. This represents the final stage of the process

and corresponds in its essence to the phenomenon that psychologists have recognized under the name "Sublimation".

Although this term originally used by Freud relates more to the emancipation of the infantile libido, there is however a more extensive interpretation of this term given by authors like William McDougall which will better justify our use of this term in the description of the essential nature of idealistic education. McDougall himself explains the relationship between sublimation and education, and he concludes: "Sublimation conceived in the broad sense is therefore a process which is represented on a larger scale in all normal life and it can be said that the most important part of education consists in the direction of the process of moral sublimation" ([\[13\]](#)).

This sublimation does not only consist of a generalization of motives for action which tends to make them more permanent, but it also involves the orientation of the mind towards the future. It must be conceived as acting in the sense of an effort to accomplish some goal, an effort which is always mixed with a sort of spirit of adventure, a certain obstinacy to overcome obstacles. Thus this positive adjustment is more general, more subjective and permanent and also oriented towards the future. We are justified, in the particular case, in speaking of an adjustment oriented towards the future because, if the effort always implies a lack of satisfaction with regard to the present (which should not be confused with the feeling of regret for the past), the positive adjustment of which we are speaking at the moment is by its own nature oriented towards the future.

The aspiration for happiness can be described as the most universal goal of the human being, and it is in this supreme hope, which always appears in the future, as in the form of an ideal to be achieved, that the decisive character of this higher idealistic adjustment must be sought. The stages of the educational process are therefore naturally linked to this sublimation of tendencies. It is in this way that the personality truly completes its formation. Here we deal with a part of the process that is not ordinarily considered in textbooks, because this stage is naturally beyond school age proper.

The educational literature of our time is almost completely absorbed in the problem of public education, to such an extent that education considered from the angle of individual development and higher adjustment is not even recognized as a distinct field, or that it is left to the sole competence of the churches.

In certain countries, such as India and China, tradition has left us with exact ideas relating to this higher stage which does not have as its object the training of citizens, but of man, purely and simply. Popular traditions have played a great role in the transmission of these ideas and the enormous influence they have on the thinking of current generations in these countries.

However, it must be said that even in Western countries this science of individual development has not remained completely ignored.

Thus we read in Dumas ([\[14\]](#)) the following outline of the means that can be used: “Physical means (isolation, diet, subjecting physical activity to regular practices); Intellectual and sentimental means (meditation, examination of conscience, resolutions, intellectual discipline, observance of certain rules); Social means (affiliation to a group whose object is moral culture, periodic meetings, ceremonies, direction of conscience, confession). Here, as in any technique, the success of the means employed is subordinate to the ingenuity and perseverance of the craftsman, that is to say, to personal qualities.

Payot, in his admirable work: “The Education of the Will”, energetically accentuated the same fundamental principles of personal development. It is not our task here to examine in depth the question of positive personality development. We already have something of its nature in the discussion where we tried to establish to which category of personal development it belongs. In this study we will limit ourselves to examining which personal relationships lead to an easy and harmonious adjustment of personal tendencies. And even, leaving aside the examination of the technical methods used in idealistic education, we will move directly to the study of the nature of personal relationships in this part of the adjustment.

The first question that arises is this: Once the individual has reached or exceeded his twentieth year, when he has left the previous stage, does he still need a guide or the influence of an older person? We believe that this idealistic higher adjustment cannot take place when the personality is simply allowed the freedom to grow. It seems to us that while it is right to consider to a certain extent a question of freedom in the first stage, this freedom must be restricted in a special way when it is applied to idealistic education. During the child's first years, freedom was something inherent in nature itself and was reduced in this case to a kind of letting things happen; and the function of the master was nothing other than a sort of surveillance whose aim was to guide the child.

In this last stage, on the contrary, the student must not lose sight of the need for effort. Such a task implies the need for direction and rigorous discipline because the student left to his own devices will hardly be able to achieve this higher adaptation on his own. This is why Payot protests as follows against the fatalism which can support this false idea of freedom with regard to this positive development of the personality: “Who is the student who has not painfully felt the disproportion between his desires to do good and the weakness of his will? You are free! said our masters. And this assertion, with despair, we felt was false. No one taught us that the will is conquered slowly, no one thought of studying how it is conquered. No one trained us in this struggle, no one supported us, and then, by a very natural reaction, we accepted with passion the doctrines of Taine and the fatalists, who at least consoled us, taught us resignation in the face of the uselessness of the struggle. And we quietly let ourselves drift, dizzying ourselves so as not to

feel the lie of these doctrines consoling our laziness. Ah! yes, the essential cause of these fatalist theories of the will is the philosophers' naive and fatal theory of free will! Moral freedom, like political freedom, like everything that has any value in this world, must be won through hard struggle and constantly defended. It is the reward of the strong, the skillful, the persevering. No one is free if they do not deserve to be free. Freedom is neither a right nor a fact: it is a reward, the highest, the most fruitful in happiness. It is to all the events of life what sunlight is to a landscape. Whoever has not conquered it will be denied the deep and lasting joys of life" ([15]).

Positive education can only succeed where there is constant stimulation. It must be directed towards a defined goal in a safe direction, and one must have a positive ideal of it. If pragmatic education is an aspiration towards ideals to be realized in the immediate future and within the practical limits of life, and through a healthy balance of the social forces which act on the child, idealistic education has its motives in the past and its end in the future whose immediate vision is hidden from a student of time and this intuition will be developed only after the initial training for this task, for this training is not something which comes about spontaneously in the course of ordinary events.

We have already said that this adaptation is not objective. It is nothing more than an attitude: a subjective effort towards the realization of something beyond our reach. It is the constant search for a noble cause through which we can put ourselves at the service of the general good.

To acquire this attitude and the capacity for patient effort such as the search for this positive ideal requires, we will not find much useful in what books give us. In other words, what is of paramount importance is the qualitative aspect of knowledge. Here is how Payot speaks of the qualitative values of the knowledge and attitudes that the education of the will implies: "The value of the scholar," he writes, "is not proportional to the mass of piled up facts. It is because of the energy of the spirit, of research and adventure, if I may so say, constantly controlled by severe criticism. The number of facts is nothing, their quality is everything; This is what we forget too much in higher education. We in no way develop the vigor of judgment, the spirit of boldness and prudence: we overload young people with notions of very unequal value, we only cultivate their memory, so that we forget the essential, which is, let us not fear to repeat it over and over again, the spirit of initiative combined with methodical doubt" ([16])

There is no need for long discussions to admit that positive idealistic education lies in the cultivation of an attitude of mind. It emerges from what we said earlier that this attitude of mind must be all the more positive as it is directed towards an effort of initiative or adventure and as it looks, so to speak, to the future. This attitude, as we have seen, must be supported by continual stimulation without which it runs the danger of withdrawing and losing itself altogether. What is essential to sustain this mindset is persistent effort in the same direction, over a long period of time. However, the method and regularity required by such research are often inaccessible to an ordinary student who is not helped and guided in a special way. Men like Pasteur and Darwin

provide us with typical examples of this attitude. Their action, completely disinterested, was continued for many years before achieving a tangible result. Here we are talking about men of science, but in the even more subjective branches of knowledge we have similar heroes and admirable examples, each of whom belongs to his own special type while retaining certain essential traits which bring them together. It is always a perpetual effort towards a better future which is their main character.

It is easy to see that this kind of subjective adjustment cannot come from the constant stimulation exerted by the personal environment of any individual. We have also already seen that the opinion of a crowd cannot be the best kind of stimulus in this sort of idealistic and subjective adaptation, the opinion of the crowd being rather inclined to the objective side and thus more practical and utilitarian. A person who strives for a higher development of natural tendencies cannot logically base his efforts on the applause or encouragement of the masses. A demagogue orator or histrionic actor (Paillasse) is more likely to be a crowd favorite than valuable orators or actors. So the whole question comes down to this, that, to rise to this higher region of the mind, the individual must choose as a guide a model, a philosopher and a friend, in whom he has complete confidence. At this point in the discussion it can be argued that the effort of a group on democratic grounds could perhaps produce the same stimulation necessary to move forward. Payot responds to this as follows: "But these groups with his equals are not enough, unless a comrade has a decidedly predominant moral value, which is hardly possible at this age. A need arises for higher support, for personal approval from above. It is this very human need that the Catholic Church does not satisfy the directors of conscience. Nothing similar here: the abandonment is complete. Now, when we see what admiration students have for the masters they esteem, when we experience the strength of their faith if the masters prove themselves worthy of it through their talent, we can only be deeply saddened to think that we do nothing with this feeling. The teacher barely knows his students, he knows nothing about their backgrounds, nothing about their families, nothing about their desires, their aspirations, their dreams for the future. If we only suspected what importance a word of encouragement, good advice, even a friendly reproach can have, in these blessed hours of the twentieth year! (Ibid., pp. 254-255).

It is important to recognize the fact that this influence must be that of a superior who traveled this path before the young disciples. Here we come to a form of organization in education which is different from the democratic ideal. The scholastic teachers of ancient times, such as Pythagoras, Aristotle, Plato or Socrates, are for us the closest examples of the kind of directions in idealistic education. Relations must be one of mutual respect. While in the first negative stage this relationship could have been, so to speak, maternal, now it must be positive, like that of a father or a patriarch. The first is retrospective, the other prospective.

The real secret of the interest that a young person feels for this positive relationship with her guide is that she sees in him the image of what she must be in the future. It is the future that the young man (or young woman) fears more than anything else, because he is anxious that this

mysterious future will be revealed to his eyes. This interest and sense of mystery increases as the adolescent becomes an adult, and anyone who can project a ray of light into his future will be regarded with esteem by the student. The success of a soothsayer depends on this same principle. We can find clear proof of this prospective influence among the most appreciated teachers, in the statistics of Sanford Bell (A study of the Teacher's influence Pedagogical Seminary, Dec. 1900, vol. 7, pp. 492-495) to which Stanley Hall refers (Youth, its Education, Regiment and Hygiene, page 211): "What seems to be most appreciated in teachers is the reasons that they give, the ideals that they give rise to, the ambitions that they excite to become and to do something, thus giving a purpose to life, the exhortation to overcome difficulties, and in general the self-confidence that they arouse, and the path to follow that they show.

The second important question that arises regarding the need for personal direction in idealistic education is that of the common repugnance in our modern democracy for anything that involves submission. There is a feeling here similar to that which was expressed in the revolt against slavery. The entire current of political events in the world is oriented towards the abolition of too concentrated authority. The fear of the inquisition torments the popular mind and manifests itself whenever there is question of the superiority of one person over another. The popular instinct senses and fears, with good reason, an open door to corruption in public affairs. Regarding this objection it must be remembered that material superiority belongs to a different order than purely spiritual superiority. The observation that there is a fundamental distinction here has guided us, in fact, on many occasions since the beginning of our study, and it is also important for the correct understanding of this superiority which is a favorable condition in idealistic education.

The abuses to which the application of a provision of this type could give rise in daily life can be avoided thanks to certain precautions: Firstly, the idealist educator should not expect that the interest he shows in his student will earn him a personal lucrative advantage. Society should ensure that the personal needs of an idealistic teacher are independent of his duties as a teacher so that he has nothing to gain by dominating his students.

As in ancient Greece and India, a master could be asked to conform to an ideal of simple life and higher spirituality and to renounce his wealth. Then these idealistic masters should be above any caste, any political or religious organization, so that their teaching is not degraded by propaganda motives. It is possible to defend oneself against corruption as was demonstrated by ancient India where it was, where it still is, to a certain extent, the rule that the idealist educator is someone who has no possessions, that is to say no wealth for his own pleasure and pleasure and where the people recognize in an idealist master someone above any caste or party; such a master is called a "Guru". When a young man submits to the guidance of a Guru he does so of his own free will, without material motives. The Guru, for his part, accepts this homage without any conceited ulterior motive, but only for the desire to communicate the experiences of his intimate nature and to share them with the youth for their emancipation. The student is always free to leave his master if he does not like him, at any time, without any social obligation requiring him to

undergo his guardianship. In such freedom of relationship, the resulting intimacy has the spontaneity and freshness of childhood, without any lower motives, and the influence of the older, experienced person will be pure, wholesome, and truly idealistic.

In India it is currently customary to elevate the Guru to the rank of a god and the adoration granted to him is considered divine adoration. Keay expresses the traditional symbol of the Guru in the following way: "A development of the relationship between master and student... was marked by the elevation of the master to such a high degree of reverence that he was adored by his student. In the first Vedantic schools, the master or Guru was always one of those who were considered to have reached a degree of emancipation which placed them in the rank occupied by Brahma. From the cults (or Bhakti) practiced in honor of Brahma to the worship of the Guru, there was only a small step for the student to take, and thus the Guru was identified with Brahma. This is reported by Svetawatara Upanishad (vi 23), already, perhaps around the fourth century BC. B.C."

Thus, it is easy to see how, in idealistic education, the Guru, or master, is identified with the ideal towards which one strives. It becomes an object of meditation and by constant meditation on the personality of the Guru, those who are unable to reach a higher level on their own, are helped to achieve the goal or ideal.

In an idealistic education of this kind, the Guru is thus accepted as the object of meditation. Personal contact with the Guru will reveal, during a long series of meditations, the inner attitude which will give value and meaning to the truth or ideal.

It is true that Eastern thought is inclined to exaggerate and idealize differently than free judgment and the idealistic and scientific tendency in the West. But even if we eliminate any probable exaggeration of this Eastern attitude towards the Guru, the need for personal contact is easy to recognize. Even a Western scholar and thinker like Payot goes so far as to say:

"As we see, the two essential needs of the student, the need for moral direction, and that for methodical direction of work, have a common remedy: the intimate contact of the teacher and the student. The professor himself will find his reward there, because by arousing scientific enthusiasm in his disciples, he will revive his own. On the other hand, he will easily convince himself that the great movements of thought accomplished in the world have been accomplished not by the communication of knowledge, but by the communication of an ardent love for truth or for some great cause, and by the communication of beautiful working methods: this is to say, in a word, that influence is only obtained through contact from man to man, and from soul to soul. This is how Socrates transmitted to Plato a method and his enthusiasm for truth. This is also how it is explained that in university centers, where the teacher and the student in this soul-to-soul contact of which we have just spoken.

In such passages we find the same fundamental principle which recognizes the subtle function which the personal educator exercises in higher education.

It is the personal attitude and profound qualities of the master that are of the greatest value to the idealistic "seeker of knowledge." It is by constantly meditating on the personality of the master and by maintaining intimate relationships with a man who possesses the secret of life, that the student or disciple will acquire the qualities and attitude that make the master what he is. It is this truth that must be increasingly admitted in the educational centers of our time.

In the case of people who have acquired this sublimation and this higher adaptation, in the educational sense, who have reached adulthood and have already entered into some kind of active life, this sort of adaptation often takes the form of a sudden conversion. We will not take into consideration cases of sudden conversion which belong to the domain of the psychology of abnormals.

To illustrate the nature of personal influence and attitudinal change produced we will only choose cases that have value in the field of education.

An examination of the lives of some saints, especially of an Eastern saint, will not fail to reveal many cases where sudden conversions of this kind were effected in the course of personal contact. The disciples are always those who have been thus completely converted by a new personal attitude of the master whom they unconsciously imitate. The life of Jesus or a Buddha introduces us to many of these examples of conversions. Such personalities with positive idealistic development have not been lacking in India in recent times. They seem to arise in regions which particularly need them, because of a decadence of society. They become leaders, and leave behind a large group of disciples who have adopted the same attitude as the master. In philosophical schools, in monastic orders, and even among social reformers, the influence of personality?

This sudden conversion is more common in people who suffer from a failed adaptation. A man who has been drawn into those aspects of education which we have called "lateral" will probably be disgusted with the monotony and lack of harmony which such a life presents. If such a man happens to find himself ill in a religious hospital and experiences the pleasures of a calm inner life which inspires in him, for the first time, altruistic feelings, the disorder of his previous life will give rise in him, by contrast, to an enthusiasm which will guide him towards a new life. I have encountered several cases where people became enthusiastic about the religious and philanthropic life of the institution to which they found themselves accidentally linked. This is the case with almost all cases of sudden conversion, however abnormal they may be, being for the most part due to a pathological condition. As we are particularly interested in those cases, relating to an earlier age, where conversions are brought about by constant and conscious contact, we enter into the domain of personal influence in education.

It is after adolescence that this idealistic education begins. Rousseau does not speak of God or religion to his Emile until this age has been reached. He makes the following remarks regarding this education: "At fifteen he did not know if he had a soul, and perhaps at eighteen it is not yet time for him to learn it; because if he learns it sooner than he should, he runs the risk of never knowing it" (Emile, p. 160).

Thus, while idealistic education is a necessity at a later age, the student must be cautiously subjected to it, even in the years following adolescence. But, whatever the age, change takes on the same characteristics; it is a second weaning, a new orientation, where thought is channeled towards subjective and introspective life. An impetus is then given to personal tendencies through various forms of discipline.

I had the opportunity to be in contact with personalities of modern India who exercised the influence we spoke of above. Among them, the names of Ramakrishna, Vivekananda and Gandhi have become familiar to French readers thanks to the works of Mr. Romain Rolland. Another personality of equal value was Sri Narayana Guru with whom I had the rare privilege of being associated for several years.

It will be appropriate to conclude the preceding remarks by referring to specific cases that I know of and which will illustrate what I said above.

We will cite only one case of the influence of the Guru on a personality of relatively advanced age. A man of around fifty waited for the Guru on his way. The man had had a very turbulent private life; he was known for his turbulent and pugnacious nature. He exercised his domination over the villagers whom he did not hesitate to oppress if they did not submit to his will. Physically robust, he had a band at his service, ready to spring up at the slightest call. He had been imprisoned several times and among the prisoners he had earned himself a position as leader. The incarcerations had had little effect on him. It was when he became attached to the personality of the Guru that a change took place in him. He began by serving the Guru, working with the aim of pleasing him. The Guru granted him the favor of being able to surround and venerate his master. He attracted him more and more and invited the man to accompany him on his travels as a companion. He took care of the Guru's personal affairs such as preparing his bath, making his bed or fanning him when it was hot. All this care helped him to gradually focus his attention on the personality of the Guru who represented a set of tendencies towards the Good, capable of arousing admiration, even from a strong-willed person. Through these constant and deep relationships, the attitude of the Guru was grafted onto the personality of the disciple.

The nature of this change was striking. He began to gain a new reputation and was increasingly respected; he took an interest in public well-being and deployed a new activity in the service of society. He gave the community land he owned and wanted to establish a public institution there. The competitive and combative tendencies were no longer apparent, but on the contrary he deeply pitied those who had the misfortune of being involved in a crime. He helped many, with

money and advice, to get out of their troubles with the law. It is in this way that its original tendencies were in some way “sublimated”. It is therefore only a case of complete suppression of certain tendencies, but a sublimation, an extension towards more noble tendencies where his contact with the Guru had led him. An inner life which lay dormant in his primitive life awoke and added itself to all his activity. He found pleasure in reading and meditation. Although far from having achieved a complete transformation, the change was clearly oriented towards the Good. He began to live as a respectable citizen.

The case mentioned above is that of a person who has passed middle age. Let us examine the case of a younger one and follow the nature of the Guru's influence. He was a man of around thirty, with a firm and active will. In his youth he had been a leader and organizer and, early on, placed at the head of a group of young people. They were not, at the beginning, always well-intentioned, and looked for opportunities to demonstrate their rebellious spirit by often taking part in the scuffles they provoked. Later, the young man came under the influence of the Guru. Previous trends were slightly sublimated. He organized a socio-religious association with the aim of spreading the ideals of the Guru. All his power as leader and organizer was put at the service of this beneficent organization. He continued to visit from time to time the Guru whose influence helped to gradually and gradually change his attitude. When he left his student life, he joined the police, hoping to find the opportunity to exercise his power there. He gained consideration and esteem, but soon this profession no longer seemed to have any attraction for him. He engaged in various public services, while continuing his relations with the Guru. He had just started a home when he thought he was called to a special mission. The new attitude, which was that of the Guru, gradually replaced his primitive tendencies, until the day it seemed to him that he had no other life to follow than that of the Guru and must live as a recluse and a philanthropist. He left his home and family, and went as a traveler from place to place. It was a period of preparation and testing for real conversion. After two years of travel, he returned to the Guru and stayed with him as a “Sanayasi” or recluse ([\[17\]](#)).

After being thus converted he founded an institution for the sick. He taught meditation in which the search for a subjective ideal was practiced. He eventually became able to take the leadership of a large religious organization and this change was publicly recognized as being the result of the Guru's influence.

The two examples that we have just examined are a little special, since they are cases where a new attitude was grafted onto the behavior of mature people, following the action exerted in their lives by an “image” which strongly impressed them. The more ordinary and common cases are less striking but more important from an educational point of view.

These cases were encountered frequently in the life of the Guru and mainly concerned young people who came to him to find the path and the ideal of their life. As a typical example, let us take that of young villagers, raised until the age of eighteen or twenty in old traditions. They

were mostly young people of remarkable mental and physical energy and constantly looking for adventure. They spoke about it to the Guru who discovered their troubles and accepted them as free members in the community of the “Ashram” ([18]). The treatment prescribed depended on the nature of their failings, whether they were permanent or transient. The difficult elements the Guru kept as close to him as possible. To better understand the methods used by the Guru to direct his protégés, we have to examine here a tradition particular to India concerning the relations of the Guru with the Sishya or student. Since ancient times, it has been considered an honor in India to be able to serve the Guru in person. This tradition continues today. In the old open-air schools, we see the students, on the occasion of their admission, coming with a bundle of wood, a symbol of the help and service that they were ready to give to their master.

Keay alludes to this tradition as follows: "This offering of fuel to the master has become a traditional gesture by which the young man seeks to be recognized as a disciple and to demonstrate his desire to take part in the domestic sacrifice and to accept the duty of helping and maintaining him" (Ancient Indian Education, p. 19). The attitude of the student towards the master was considered very important, and this personal service to the master was necessary to establish in the mind of the student a respectful attitude and receptive attention towards the Guru. In principle, the same is true of periods of silence imposed by ancient Greek philosophers, such as Pythagoras. These customs, sometimes exaggerated, had been established with the aim of showing the great importance which takes, in subjective and idealistic education, the attitude of the student. Actual instruction was sometimes neglected by the teacher until he had found the receptive attitude proper to a student.

In the case of the positive-objective personality type, it was necessary, before higher adaptation could take place, that all divergent tendencies be restrained and channeled; it was the fact of serving the Guru which had an effective action and constituted an effective and natural means of directing these tendencies and sublimating them.

This is how the Guru, based on this same principle, allowed himself to be made an object of veneration and accepted to be served by young people who came to him in search of an idealistic life. The contact between the Guru and these young people was so constant and complete that none of their activities or attitudes escaped the Guru. It was the cultivation of personal and permanent attitudes that the Guru was particularly interested in. The action which appeared to him less important than the principle which had guided it. This is why the main task of the Guru was always to develop a right attitude and to detach the bad tendencies, to graft in others. This requires a constant psychological intuition that only people in intimate contact with others can possess.

It should be noted here that in such relationships, recognized by Hindu tradition, there is no question of servility or adoration, which could harm self-esteem. It was only in the idealistic sense that the students depended on the Guru ([19]). He never demanded obedience to the

utilitarian things of the world. He did not exert any social pressure on them. A subjective and free ideal was the governing principle in their relations.

On the other hand, the students never adored the master as an individual, but as a symbolic personality.

Uniformity of results is not an ideal in such an education system. I have known people who have been influenced in this way in their lives; many of them became Sanyasins possessing the qualities we mentioned above. Others founded schools or public institutions. There are also some who founded a home with high aspirations. I knew one who became a renowned poet and several others skilled orators. In all these cases, an attentive observer would discover the work of the Guru and his attitude. This philosophy enriched their activities and gave public value to their personality. This fact has often been observed, both by those who surrounded the Guru and by the people who received the mark of his influence ([\[20\]](#)).

CONCLUSION

Having concluded our study on “the personal factor in the educational process”, it remains for us to take a general look at what we have set out to demonstrate here.

Our main starting point was to consider the individual as a whole, that is to say having a bodily life, with his behaviors and his emotions; endowed with intelligence and power of thoughtful thought. This examination of the inventory of everything that belongs to the individual allowed us to speak of two aspects of the personality: one which considers receptive, representative, symbolic and strictly individual activity; the other, expressive, real, social activity, conforming to the objective world around us. What emerges first from this distinction is the fact that we cannot base ourselves solely on the expression of the child's mental abilities, but that in judging him we must take into account the background of the child's personality. This distinction also led us to consider the types of students as the asymmetrical expressions of these educational processes, we noted that the stages of growth from childhood to adulthood presented characters which correspond at the same time to the types that we have distinguished: Childhood, up to approximately 8 years old, presents itself under what we called the negative-subjective type, the adult, who is past the twenties, the positive-subjective type; the negative-objective type and the positive-objective type occurring between the two ages mentioned above. We have tried to see how, in relation to each stage and each type of student, the teacher must represent the type of his educational influence: retrospective, prospective, negative or positive, depending on the case.

This last necessity implies a relationship between the teacher and the student, which must have a bipolar character, fulfilling the conditions set out above. Thus education must be conceived as a

contact between the teacher and the student, in an intimate and personal sense, which cannot, under any circumstances, be replaced by a system, by rules, programs or elaborate methods.

We finally examined existing theories on education and tried to see their relationship with the different stages of personal adaptation. In the negative stage, the teacher has a controlling and selective influence on the childhood environment. It is not a question of intellectual guidance, but of establishing intimate relationships between master and student. In the middle stage of adaptation (i.e. between 15 and 20 years), the child needs social activity. The intimate and personal relationship is not as necessary as in the first and last stages, as we have said. In the last stage the master becomes strictly speaking a guide: he represents the subjective ideal which is hidden in the future. This constitutes the final idealistic step in the process. The ideal of life, mental attitudes, the leading interests of a more evolved personality are, through constant meditation on the part of the student, transferred or grafted onto himself, giving him a deeper vision of life.

We also examined some concepts of Hindu thought which since ancient times has given particular importance to the personal relationships between the Guru and the student. We were also able to use in our discussion some of the special concepts belonging to Hindu pedagogy, especially regarding the negative and idealistic stages of personal adaptation. They were enough to amply demonstrate that this pedagogy, in its essential aspects, is consistent with the plan of personal development and educational relationships that we presented in this study.

Seen: October 14, 1932.

The Dean of the Faculty of Letters

From the University of Paris

H. DELACROIX.

Viewed and allowed to print.

The Rector of the Academy of Paris,

S. CHARLÉTY.

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([1]) What we mean here and elsewhere in this study by this word corresponds to the very common word in English “maladjustment”, that is to say a lack of adaptation or misadaptation of personal tendencies.

([2]) On this subject we read the following paragraph in “Action et Pensée” by Charles Boudouin, Oct.-Dec. 1930 (7^{and} year) :

The child who considers himself frustrated with the affection to which he is entitled, willingly begins to steal sometimes in a more thoughtful and utilitarian manner, sometimes in a completely impulsive manner and even when he will not benefit from his theft. It is both an act of retaliation and compensation.

([3]) These observations are confirmed by experiments and remarks such as the following, taken from the “Teacher’s Encyclopedia”, p. 8, vol. 4, where W. H. Drummond writes:

“Children who are commonly called nervous children are very frequently well below average in weight and height. Such children are especially numerous in large cities. Often, they appear to be suffering from insufficient nutrition, and yet the investigation reveals that, in many cases, these children have very good appetites and that they consume a large quantity of food, but that they seem to be dissipated by their excessive nervous energy.

It seems that life in the city has a hyperstimulating effect on children, tending to develop the nervousness that we have just talked about.”

([4]) We mean, here and elsewhere, education based on the philosophy of nature “naturalism”.

(²) This list can be found on page. 8 of “On Education” by Herbert Spencer Williams Norgate, London.

([6]) According to Mac Dougall, the group is distinguished by several “paradoxical” characteristics: a notorious phenomenon of the group is violence in *the shine* of his primary emotions and impulses. The intensity of the collective emotion of an unorganized group is increased by the fact that each member tends to lose, to a certain extent, the notion of his *identity* and its *responsibility* personal... The organization of societies produces this paradoxical result that, while the collective conduct of an unorganized group implies a mental level much lower than the average of its members, thus leading to a degradation of the individuals who compose it, on the contrary the collective life of a well-organized society generally reaches a moral and intellectual level higher than that specific to the average of individuals taken separately, thus raising many of its members to a higher level of thought and action (Psychologie H.N.L. p. 273). To these facts can be added the political principles of Rousseau, the Social Contract, (p. 252, Garnier, Paris): “There is often a lot of difference between the will of all and the general will; this only looks at the common interest; the other looks at private interest, and is only a sum of particular wills: but remove from these same wills the pluses and minuses which destroy each other, remaining as a sum differences of general will.

([7]) The great American poet Walt Whitman very well recognized this imitation of popular and general, or democratic, education, writing in his “Backward glances our traveled roads” (in the volume entitled “Leaves of Grass”, p. 443. Maynard Boston): As welcome as the doctrines of equality and liberty and of popular education are, a certain danger nevertheless accompanies them all as we see. This something primary and interior in man, in the abyss of his soul, which gives its color to all things, and which gives it, exceptional fruit, the highest majesty; this thing, modern science and democracy seem to be endangering it, perhaps killing it.”

([8]) What the best and most intelligent parents desire for their own child, is what the community should desire for all its children. Any other ideal for our schools would be narrow and unbeautiful; In practice, such an ideal would destroy our democracy. (Dewey; School and Society, Uni. of Chicago Press, p. 3). Dewey's definition of character implies the same pragmatic attitude; he writes: “In general, “character” means power to act in society, organized capacity to function socially. It means...social intelligence, social executive power, social interest and sense of responsibility.”

([9]) It is striking to what extent the pragmatist dismisses the negative side of the personality. Dewey writes (op. cit. p. 68): “To say that inhibition is of more value than the power of direction is to say that death is worth more than life, that negation is worth more than affirmation, and sacrifice more than service.” this attitude towards the negative aspects of the development of the personal factor and a natural corollary of the less personal attitude of pragmatic education. Whereas a study of the individual as such, a study of the nervous system for example, leads us to the important conclusion that inhibition is at least as necessary as open action. One might contrast the pragmatist position with that of Harris, for example, who concludes his study of the human nervous system with the words (Harris: Nerves, Home University Library, p. 246): “We

will increasingly recognize that the development of a refined temperament and access to the influences of culture are the results of molecular neural dispositions as well as responses to an appropriate environment. Education, working on the good “raw material” provided by hygiene, will above all teach inhibition. Inhibition is the art of restraining immediate personal tendencies for the good of the individual or the race, and it will develop best in the healthiest nervous system. Without inhibition, a person, even with the best education, remains a neural monster. The lack is not the expression of neural force, but comes from the neural machine having lost its governor. Inhibition is the expression of neural vigor, it is knowing when and where to stop, when not to speak, not to act.

([10]) Cf. p. 18 « School and Society » par John Dewey (University of Chicago Press) : « The great thing to keep in mind then regarding the introduction into the school of various forms of active occupation, is that through them the active spirit of the school is renewed. It has a chance to affiliate itself with life, to become the child’s habitat, where he learns though directed living, instead being only a place to learn lessons having an abstract and remote reference to some possible living to be done in the future. It gets a chance to be miniature community an embryonic society”.

([11]) Cf. page 70 « School and Society », Chicago.

([12]) Phil. Bases of éd. p. 126

([13]) Cf. pp. 473-75, Outline of abnormal Psychology ; Methuen, London.

([14]) Treatise on Psychology, Tom. III, p. 605.

([15]) Pages 28 and 29 of the Education of the Will

([16]) The Education of the Will, p. 258

([17]) In India a *sanayaasi* is a man who abandons his possessions and engages in a discipline of meditation and purification.

([18]) Idealist institution chaired by a *guru* and inhabited by him.

([19]) Cf. Keay, Ancient Indian Education, p. 36

([20]) Some details on the life of the Guru can be found in the series of articles on “Life of an Indian Saint” published in the Sufi quaterly of Geneva. Dec. 1928-June 1920. Kundig. Since published as a brochure “The way of the guru”, Geneva 1931.

